Coefficient Extraction Operators in the Theory of Multidimensional Random Walk Enumeration

by

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Abstract

In this work we apply an operator approach to multidimensional random walk enumeration in order to automatize some of the process in solving these problems. In particular given a random walk model in any number of dimensions we can use operators to write down a functional equation $(1 - t\Gamma S)Q = q$ for the generating function Q where Γ is an operator and S is the Laurent step polynomial for the model. Further we use the operator perspective to further and unify some of the different kernel methods (orbit and obstinate methods in particular). This operator paradigm work for both classic random walk models and models with interactions with hyperplanes. Near the end we solve some two-dimensional problems with interactions.

Preface

This work intends to establish a new framework of notation and tools for the enumeration of random walks with or without interactions, and similar problems. The notation makes it much easier to explore the symmetries of the problem and write down summation formulas where it was not possible to do so before (with a simplified notation). The tools make the derivation of functional equations for various problems an almost trivial matter. The real power is in combining both approaches to gain insights into the generating function world of enumerating random walks on constrained regions in multidimensional spaces.

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Glossary

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Chapter 1

Introduction

Why do we study random walks? Apart from being an interesting mathematical object that leads to a lot of interesting mathematics, they have some real- world applications. A lot of processes can be modeled via random walks: from stock market objects to proteins and polymers. There is a rich theory of continuous and discrete random walks. Specifically, in random walk enumeration, we attempt to find out things about the numbers of walks of some length and of certain type with certain geometrical constraints. The topic often leads to the use of generating functions as a powerful tool in the analysis. In the end, we gain insight into what makes certain random walk models "easy" and others more difficult. In this thesis we look at the enumeration for constrained random walks with interactions, in order to gain insight into the deeper workings of random walk enumeration problems.

1.1 Recent History

In the most basic case, random walks starting at the origin on d dimensions have no restrictions, $\mathcal{D}$ is the whole space, and there are no interactions. We can enumerate these walks easily by writing the full generating function

$$\begin{aligned} Q(x_1, \ldots, x_d; t) &= \frac{1}{1 - tS(x_1, \ldots, x_d)} \\ &= 1 + tS(x_1, \ldots, x_d) + t^2 S(x_1, \ldots, x_d)^2 + \cdots . \end{aligned} \tag{1.1}$$

This works since we can use each individual steps and every walk is uniquely represented by a sequence of steps from $\mathcal{S}$. This works for arbitrary initial conditions too, since we can start the walks at any point and evolve them. The coefficients of each power of t are Laurent polynomials in the variables $x_1, \ldots, x_d$. If we have the generating function for a random walk model, we have

a lot of information at our hands. Replacing x_k with 0 for each k gives us the generating function for walks returning to the origin. Similarly, taking higher derivatives and evaluating at zero allows us to find the number of walks ending at specific points. If we set all the $x_k = 1$ inf Q, we obtain the length generating function for the random walks in the plane. There are numerous questions we can ask about each of those characteristics of the model.

The next step up is to deal with half-spaces: $\mathcal{D}$ is the region where one of the $x_k \geqslant 0$. These cases are not as simple to solve, but they are doable. Check [3], [4], [5] and [6] for work on the one-dimensional case that can be extended to general d. The generating functions we can obtain are algebraic. Naturally, we are led to consider cases where $\mathcal{D}$ is an intersection of half-spaces. Even for $d = 2$, the problem has generated a rich theory of quadrant (or quarter-plane) walks. We obtain functional equations for the function Q that are not easy to solve in general. Often, the generating functions here are not even D-finite, although there are D-finite examples. The main object of study in these cases has been a group G of bi-rational transformations preserving the polynomial $K = 1 - tS$, called the kernel of the model.

When G is finite, in the 23 non-equivalent cases, we obtain a D-finite generating function (full?), as can be seen in the classifications [7],[8] and [9], [10] for specific cases. The main tool in the study of the finite group cases is the algebraic kernel method, in which we sum different functional equations produced by group actions by elements of G. This is done to cancel the majority of the terms in the functional equation. See [11] for a treatment of models with finite groups and repeated steps.

There are 56 non-equivalent cases of quarter-plane walks with an infinite group. For 51 of them, both the full generating function [12] and the length generating function, for walks returning to the origin, are not D-finite [13]. The remaining 5 cases have been dealt with in [14] and [15]. The main tool used to tackle these 5 cases is the iterated kernel method, in which we use the roots of the kernel K to show the generating function is not D-finite.

Naturally, we are led to invesitigating higher-dimensional variants of this problem. See [16] and [17] for when $\mathcal{D}$ is a Weyl chamber. In three dimensions we have the recent partial classification [18] of random walk models with up to six steps, where the authors extend the algebraic kernel method to handle the majority of finite group cases encountered.

Another generalization is to consider walks with interactions and/or self-avoiding walks (or SAWs). These two types of generalizations have important applications in physics (?) because they can be used to model polymers, proteins and other chains. For some research on SAWs with various interactions, see [19],[20], [**?**], [21], [22], [23] and [24]. The topic of SAWs does not lend itself as nicely to using generating functions like the ones considered so far, so, as a simpler first step, we can consider regular random walks with interactions. See [25] and [26] for walks with interactions

in an octant. See [27], [28], and [29] for walks with interactions in the plane.

A long-standing dream goal in random walk enumeration research is the automatization of the process of determining characteristics of the models and similar problems. There has been some progress in this direction. For examples see [30] and [31] for details on symmetric functions, [32] for a holonomic approach to combinatorics, [33] for automatic classification of lattice walks, and finally, [34] for some of the computational challenges involved in automation.

Some automation can be performed in the related subject of the study of random walk asymptotics. For examples of the theory, see [35], [36] and [37]. A lot of the works mentioned so far have also discussed asymptotics.

1.2 Thesis Objectives

This thesis grew out of work on regular quarter-plane random walks with interactions with the axes. The derivation of the functional equation in the non-interacting case is a simple inclusion-exclusion process, but doing the same for the interacting case is somewhat more involved. It is possible to further simplify the equation via coefficient extraction and back-substitution. The process works out beautifully to give us a much more compact functional equation. However, the process is quite painstaking even for three dimensions, let alone for higher-dimensions, although it is possible.

The mathematicians who study random walk enumeration have as a goal to classify random walks according to various characteristics like step set, dimension, group size associated to the kernel, and perhaps most importantly: D-finitenes. They also dream of being able to automatize the process whenever possible. In this thesis we aim to further the study of random walk models towards this goal of automatization. The optimistic thing would be to suppose that a general algorithm exists that takes an arbitrary random walk model, in arbitrarily many dimensions, with arbitrary finite step sets and with arbitrary constraints; and outputs various data about the model: functional equation for the generating function, a solution and information about the model's D-finiteness. It is only logical that, if such an algorithm were to exist, it would not have difficulty with the particulars of the random walk model. While this kind of algorithm may be too strong to envision, it may be the case that there are atrocious random walk models that we cannot solve, the idea of the existence of such an algorithm has been a strong motivator in our pursuit of generalizations. This thesis succeeds in demonstrating that the first task is achievable. For a vast assortment of random walk models, we can almost-automatically write down a functional equation for its generating function counting length, position and interactions. The equation looks like

$$(1 - t\Gamma S)Q = q\,, \tag{1.2}$$

where Γ is an operator on the variables of Q, S is the Laurent step polynomial keeping inventory of the steps in polynomial form, and q is some Laurent polynomial, serving as an initial condition. The operator idea is powerful and we will use it as much as we can. A secondary achievement is the furthering of the theory of the orbit summation method, which, along with the obstinate kernel method, combines in a nicer theory of operators consisting of group actions. However, time and space have not been sufficient to go far enough in this direction. Near the end we present some full and partial solutions to two-dimensional interacting random walk models.

1.3 Layout of Thesis

In the first few chapters we will go through motivating examples that will serve as a springboard into further generalizations. First, we will start off with one-dimensional random walks with and without interactions in Chapter 2. Then we will quickly move on to two-dimensional random walks, and beyond, in Chapter 3. On the way we will develop some of the basic operator theory involved in the random walk models. In Chapter 4 we will tackle some generalization of the problem and show that they all satisfy a similar functional equation.

In Chapter 5 we will take a more practical route to deal with group-theoretic operators relevant tol random walk models with small steps, and then deal with extending the Algebraic Kernel method to more dimensions and interactions. In Chapter 6 we will look at the Obstinate Kernel method and solve some highly-symmetrical two-dimensional interacting models.

1.4 Notation and Conventions

1.4.1 Formal Series

We will work in the setting of formal power and Laurent series. Problems with convergence will not be studied in much detail; formal convergence will suffice. If we are given a ring R, we may construct several formal objects with a commutative indeterminate x with coefficients in R.

- $R[x]$: Ring of polynomials with monomials x^k for integers $k \geqslant 0$.
- $R[x, 1/x]$: Ring of Laurent polynomials with monomials x^k for integers k.
- $R[[x]]$: Ring of formal power series with monomials x^k for integers $k \geqslant 0$.
- $R((x))$: Field of formal Laurent series with monomials x^k for integers k.

We can also define their multivariate analogues $R[x_1, \ldots, x_n]$ and $R[x_1, \overline{x_1}, \ldots, x_n, \overline{x}_n]$, and their series counterparts $R[[x_1, \ldots, x_n]]$ and $R((x_1, \ldots, x_n))$. For a thorough treatment of the subject,

please see [1]. When we work with a combination of objects coming from different rings/fields over the indeterminate x, we will consider all objects as part of the most general ring/field at the time. If in doubt, we will always work in the field of formal Laurent series. Given a sequence (w_n), we may consider its generating function $W(x)$ given by $\sum_n w_n x^n$, which lives appropriately in one of the rings over x. The multivariate case for a multi-index sequence $(w_{n_1,\ldots,n_m})$ is defined analogously as

$$W(x_1, \ldots, x_m) = \sum_{n_1,\ldots,n_m} w_{n_1,\ldots,n_m} x_1^{n_1} \cdots x_m^{n_m} \tag{1.3}$$

whenever this is a formal Laurent series. We often need to extract particular coefficients from the formal polynomial/series when we solve enumeration problems via generating functions . In the one-variable case we have the coefficient extraction operators on formal series

$$[x^n]W(x) = w_n \,. \tag{1.4}$$

The multivariate case is handled analogously with the caveat that, whenever the number of variables extracted is less than the number of variables present, we extract by treating those remaining variables as parameters. For a more detailed discussion, please consult [2]. When we deal with random walk generating functions, we often work with functional equations. In the broadest sense, in this thesis we will discuss functional equations that may involve the following: a function F, the function evaluated at various arguments, and various coefficient extractions of F (?). This will be done via operators, so in the end, we will have a functional equation involving F and operators. We will write the identity operator as 1.

1.4.2 Random Walk Models

In this work we will investigate random walk models on the n-dimensional lattice $\mathbb{Z}^n$. A specific model $\mathcal{M}$ consists of several ingredients

- $\mathcal{S}$: a finite set of steps that we can take from a point in $\mathbb{Z}^n$ to another point in $\mathbb{Z}^n$. In general, this step set may differ from point to point, e.g., a honeycomb lattice embedded in $\mathbb{Z}^2$. The steps themselves are written as vectors $s = (s_1, \ldots, s_n)$. For example, $\mathcal{S}$ could be a set of small steps defined by coordinates among $\{-1, 0, 1\}$. Another example is when we have more than one step of a given kind.

- $\mathcal{D}$: a domain for the random walks. This is the region in $\mathbb{Z}^n$ where the random walks live. The easiest cases involve the whole space or a half-space. Starting with quarter-plane regions,

the analysis becomes rather complicated. One can further constrain the walks to live on semi-infinite strips.

- $\mathcal{D}_0$: an interaction domain for the random walks. This is a sub-region in $\mathcal{D}$ and we want to count how many times random walks interact with it by stepping on coordinates that are part of it. We may count different points from $\mathcal{D}_0$ in different ways. This less-studied paradigm may involve marking visits to various places: the origin, the axes in two dimensions, various higher-dimensional hyperplanes, a cone, an infinite strip, the sides of a box and so on.

- $\mathcal{Q}$: a set of random walks acting as an initial condition from which all other random walks evolve. This could be as trivial as starting with the empty walk ending at the origin to a set of infinitely many walks with some pattern.

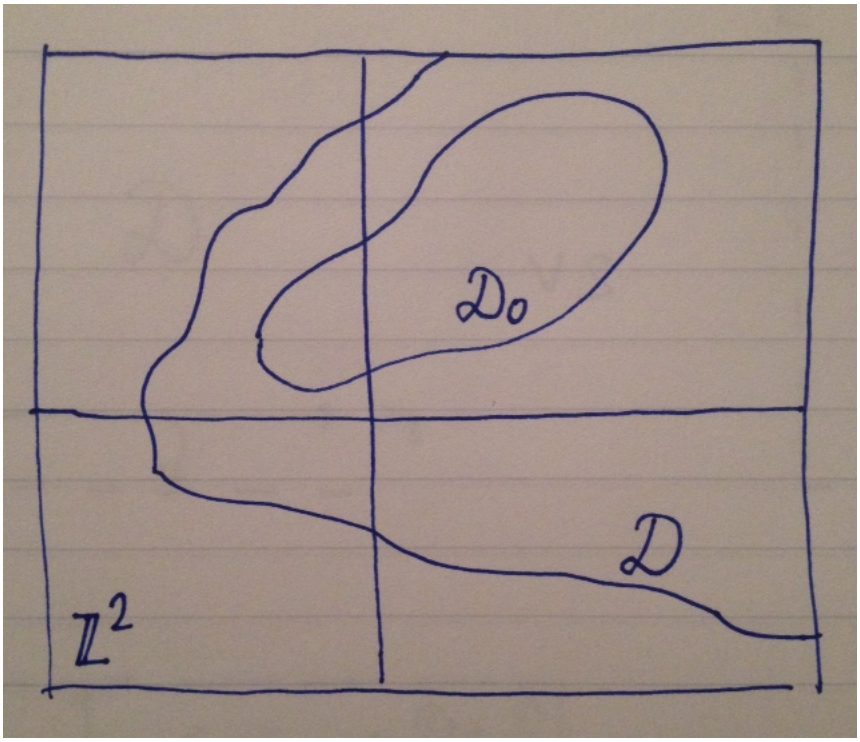


Figure 1.1: Illustration of regions in the plane.

It is natural to consider the generating function that keeps track of all the information characterizing the random walks in the model. For each random walk w, its length $|w|$ is the total number of steps that it has taken and we keep track of this with a parameter t. We keep track of the walk's endpoint coordinates in $\mathbb{Z}^n$ by the indeterminates $x_1, \ldots, x_n$, and its interactions with $\mathcal{D}_0$ via marking

parameters a_m, where m is some specific subscript index. The marking is highly dependent on the geometry of $\mathcal{D}_0$ and the way we want to count interactions. If the end coordinates of the random walk are $(m_1, \ldots, m_n)$, and if the marking monomial (a product of a_m's) is $a(w)$, we can write the generating function for the random walk model as

$$Q(x_1, \ldots, x_n; t) = \sum_{w \in \mathcal{M}} a(w) x_1^{m_1} \cdots x_n^{m_n} t^{|w|} \,. \tag{1.5}$$

Other important objects are the step polynomial, or characteristic polynomial, $S(x_1, \ldots, x_n)$ defined by

$$S(x_1, \ldots, x_n) = \sum_{s \in \mathcal{S}} x_1^{s_1} \cdots x_n^{s_n} \,, \tag{1.6}$$

and the starting polynomial defined by

$$q(x_1, \ldots, x_n; t) = \sum_{w \in \mathcal{Q}} a(w) x_1^{m_1} \cdots x_n^{m_n} t^{|w|} \,. \tag{1.7}$$

Usually, we see S a Laurent polynomial of degree (or valuation) 1 in each variable and we have $q = 1$. Note that in all of these quantities the variables a_m have been supressed. We can include those too, whenever necessary; for example, when there are only finitely many of them. Furthermore, it will be useful to use the quantities $b = a - 1$ and $c = b/a = 1 - \overline{a}$. (?)

Example 1. To illustrate the notation, we shall investigate a random walk model in the plane. Consider the problem of random walks, which are restricted to the quarter plane, start at the origin, and which only have small diagonal steps. We will count their interactions with the axes. In our terminology we have a random walk model $\mathcal{M}$ with $\mathcal{S}$ given by

$$\mathcal{S} = \{(-1, -1), (1, -1), (-1, 1), (1, 1)\} \,. \tag{1.8}$$

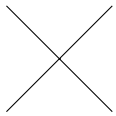


Figure 1.2: The model {NW, NE, SW, SE}.

The region $\mathcal{D}$ consists of all points in $\mathbb{Z}^2$ with non-negative coordinates. Next, $\mathcal{D}_0$ is composed

of the two non-negative axes with overlap at the origin; we count visits to the origin as visits to each axis. Finally, $\mathcal{Q}$ consists of the empty walk. In the language of generating functions we have $q = 1$ and

$$S = S(x_1, x_2) = x_1x_2 + \overline{x}_1x_2 + x_1\overline{x}_2 + \overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2 = (x_1 + \overline{x}_1)(x_2 + \overline{x}_2)\,. \tag{1.9}$$

There is a choice in naming the variables counting the interactions and, as it will prove notationally simpler, we will go with their defining quality: we mark the locations where one coordinate is zero. That is, mark walks ending on $x_k = 0$ by incrementing the power of a_k in the generating function. In this model, the only step we can take at first is $(1, 1)$ and this contributes a monomial x_1x_2t. From here on we can build on the single random walk of size one by taking a step in one of the four directions. This action leads to the following monomials. ZZPICTUREZZ

- $(1, 1)$: monomial $x_1^2x_2^2t^2$ since there are no interactions.
- $(1, \text{-}1)$: monomial $a_2x_1^2t^2$ since the walk lands on the x_1 axis with coordinate $x_2 = 0$.
- $(\text{-}1, 1)$: monomial $a_1x_2^2t^2$ since the walk lands on the x_2 axis with coordinate $x_1 = 0$.
- $(\text{-}1, \text{-}1)$: monomial $a_1a_2t^2$ since the walk lands on the origin, which is on both axes.

Since we have seen all the random walks of size at most 2, we see that the generating function $Q = Q(x_1, x_2; t)$ starts as

$$\begin{aligned} Q &= 1 + x_1x_2t + (a_1a_2 + a_1x_2 + a_2x_1 + x_1x_2)t^2 + \cdots \\ &= 1 + x_1x_2t + (a_1 + x_1)(a_2 + x_2)t^2 + \cdots\,. \end{aligned} \tag{1.10}$$

It may be unexpected, that the first few coefficients factor, but this phenomenon is due to the factoring of $S(x_1, x_2)$ itself. We will see a more general result later. (?)

1.4.3 Thesis Notation

In the interest of generalizing the problem-solving strategies involved in random walk enumeration, we need powerful notation to handle all the intricacies of the problem. In fact, it is the notation itself that paved the way towards generalization in our originla research because it is suggestive and points towards the deeper connections between the generating functions and quantities involved. With this thesis we aim to make this kind of notation more common in higher-dimensional random walk analysis. Typically, in the multivariate setting we see multi-index notation where a bolded, vectorial or even supressed notation denotes the collection of variables involved. We would use

this notation as well, but it is insufficient when working with restricted geometries for $\mathcal{D}$ and $\mathcal{D}_0$. Therefore, we have the following notation.

Definition 2. *Let* $\mathbb{0} := (0, \ldots, 0)$ *and* $\pm\mathbb{1} := (\pm 1, \ldots, \pm 1)$ *where we have as many terms in these sequences as needed in the specific context. Also, let* $[n] = \{1, \ldots, n\}$.

Definition 3. *For sequences* $I = (i_1, \ldots, i_m)$ *and* $J = (j_1, \ldots, j_m)$*, and an indeterminate* x*, we have the monomial*

$$x_I^J = x_{i_1}^{j_1} \cdots x_{i_m}^{j_m}\,, \tag{1.11}$$

with special cases $x_I^{\mathbb{0}} = 1$ *and* $x_I^{\mathbb{1}} = x_I$ *and* $x_I^{-\mathbb{1}} = 1/x_I = \overline{x}_I$.

Definition 4. *For sequences* $I = (i_1, \ldots, i_m)$ *and* $J = (j_1, \ldots, j_m)$*, and an indeterminate* x*, we have the coefficient extraction operator*

$$[x_I^J]F = [x_{i_1}^{j_1} \cdots x_{i_m}^{j_m}]F = F_I^J\,, \tag{1.12}$$

with special cases:

- $F_I^J = F$*, if* I *is empty.*
- $F_I^J = F_J$*, if* I *is the full set of variables ordered unambiguously.*

We will primarily be using this notation for extractions with respect to the x variables in the generating functions but, sometimes, we will be using such a coefficient extraction with respect to other variables, most commonly t. We will never mix such extractions with this notation.

Definition 5. *(?) For sequences* $I = (i_1, \ldots, i_m)$ *and* $J = (j_1, \ldots, j_m)$*, we define the term extraction operator as*

$$[[x_I^J]] = x_I^J[x_I^J]\,. \tag{1.13}$$

That is, $[[x_I^J]]F = x_I^J F_I^J$.

Example 6. Here is an illustrative example of the notation. If $Q(x_1, x_2; t)$ is given as in the previous example, we have

$$Q_1^0 = [x_1^0]Q(x_1, x_2) = Q(0, x_2) = 1 + a_1(x_2 + a_2)t^2 + \cdots\,, \tag{1.14}$$

$$Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = Q_{0,0} = Q(0, 0) = 1 + a_1 a_2 t^2 + \cdots\,. \tag{1.15}$$

Furthermore, we may write

$$S_1^{-1} = [\overline{x}_1](x_1 + \overline{x}_1)(x_2 + \overline{x}_2) = x_2 + \overline{x}_2 \tag{1.16}$$

and $S_{1,2}^{\pm 1,\pm 1} = 1$.

Definition 7. *(MOVE) Let $\mathcal{D}_0$ and $\mathcal{D}$ be regions in $\mathbb{Z}^d$, with $\mathcal{D}_0 \subseteq \mathcal{D}$, and let $\mathcal{S}$ be a set of d-tuples in $\mathbb{Z}^d$. A triple $\mathcal{M} = (\mathcal{S}, \mathcal{D}, \mathcal{D}_0)$ is a random walk model with steps $\mathcal{S}$, living in the region $\mathcal{D}$ and interacting with region $\mathcal{D}_0$. We may impose a starting location within $\mathcal{D}$ later on.*

Chapter 2

One-dimensional Random Walk Models

2.1 Derivation of the Functional Equation

Before we tackle the higher-dimensional random walk problems, it will be instructive to visit the one-dimensional case which will help illustrate the methods and ideas that we will employ throughout this work. We begin with one-dimensional random walk models with smalls steps where the size of each step is at most one unit in each direction. Here the step set is $\mathcal{S} \subseteq \{-1, 0, 1\}$, which can also be represented via the step polynomial

$$S = S_{-1}\overline{x} + S_0 + S_1 x\,. \tag{2.1}$$

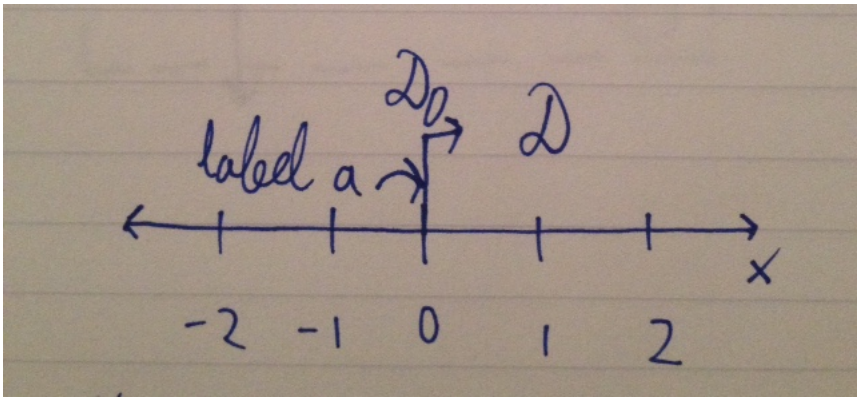


Figure 2.1: Illustration of regions on the line.

Here S_k is 1 or 0 if k is in $\mathcal{S}$ or not, respectively.

First we will look at a basic way to generate random walks and then we will look at how we can encapsulate it into an algebraic method. We start with the empty walk. We can grow it by doing one of three actions: step to the left, step to the right, or stay in one spot. Stepping to the left takes us to the negative axis and we do not want any walks that go there, so we ignore it. Thus we may extend the walk by stepping to the right or staying in one spot. These new walks have length one and they can be extended by each of the three actions. We can easily keep track of the visits to the origin - each time the walks stay or step on the origin, we increment a counter. We may continue this process as long as we wish, always removing any walks that end on negative coordinates.

Ultimately, it is easier to work with polynomials that encapsulate the important features in a smaller package. Also, working with polynomials and power series allows us to use the powerful methods of generating functions to gleam (?) into the inner workings of random walk models. To do this, we shall keep track of each walk's length via powers of t, ending position via powers of x, and visits to the origin with powers of a. We can perform the previous analysis in this language. We start with the empty walk of length zero. It corresponds to the monomial $1 = a^0x^0t^0$. Extending the walk corresponds to a multiplication by $\overline{x}$, x or 1, depending on whether we step to the left or to the right, or we stay on the same coordinate. The two resulting walks will have monomials xt and at, respectively. We have removed the walk that would have had a monomial $\overline{x}t$ since it ends on a negative coordinate. The next iteration has walks with monomials at^2, xt^2, x^2t^2, a^2t^2, axt^2. We can continue this procedure as long as we wish.

Of course, it would be difficult to work with individual random walks and it would be better to work with the whole generating function enumerating the walks. Suppose that the generating function for walks of length k is Q_kt^k. Then the full generating function is

$$Q = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} Q_k t^k \,. \tag{2.2}$$

The key idea is to attempt to work with all the walks at the same time and extend all of them simultaneously. Doing this successfully will allow us to encapsulate the process above in an equation for Q and then manipulate it algebraically to find out more about the random walk model. We start by writing a functional equation relating Q_{k+1} and Q_k. All the walks of length k are encoded in Q_kt^k. To extend all of them by one step, we multiply the function by tS. By the distributive property, the product of the two sums wil lead to all possible multiples of monomials for random walks of length k and monomials for possible steps that we can take. However, some of the resulting monomials may have a negative power of x, corresponding to a walk ending on a negative coordinate. Here is another key idea. To remove the monomials with negative powers of x, we will use some kind of

operator Γ, but we will worry about its representation later. For now we have the iteration

$$Q_{k+1}t^{k+1} = \Gamma(tSQ_kt^k) = \Gamma(SQ_k)t^{k+1}\,. \tag{2.3}$$

In other words, $Q_{k+1} = \Gamma(SQ_k)$ for all $k \geqslant 0$. We may sum both sides of the equation for $k \geqslant 0$ to find

$$\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} Q_{k+1}t^{k+1} = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \Gamma(SQ_k)t^k \tag{2.4}$$

We are working with formal series, after all, and we are looking for the easiest approach right now. It will be safe to assume that Γ does not interact with t and that we may factor Γ outside of the summation. After all, we are looking for an operator that will be able to work with the whole generating function. With these assumptions in hand, we may manipulate the equation as follows.

$$Q - Q_0 = t\Gamma S \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} Q_k t^k \tag{2.5}$$

$$Q = 1 + t\Gamma(SQ)\,. \tag{2.6}$$

We may rewrite the functional equation as

$$(1 - t\Gamma S)Q = 1\,, \tag{2.7}$$

so as to highlight the operator nature of the equation.

We just need to find a suitable representation for the operator Γ and will have completed the analysis. The operator needs remove all monomials with negative powers of x. However, the lowest order of x we may attain in SQ_k or SQ is -1. That is, all valid walks have power of x that is greater or equal to zero, and extending them by taking one step can only go as far as -1 on the axis. It is enough to take out the $\overline{x}$ term from the generating function. This can be achieved via coefficient extractions. Applying the operator $\overline{x}[\overline{x}]$ on a function extracts the $\overline{x}$ term from the function. The operator that eliminates such a term from a function is just

$$E = 1 - \overline{x}[\overline{x}]\,, \tag{2.8}$$

where 1 is the identity operator. We can also find an operator that marks walks ending on the origin. It is enough to multiply their monomials, which have no x, with the label a. This can be represented

by the operator

$$L = 1 + (a-1)[x^0] = 1 + b[x^0] \tag{2.9}$$

where $b = a - 1$. This operator takes a function and add to it $(a-1)$ times the function's x^0 term. The final function has a x^0 term with coefficient $1 + (a-1) = a$.

Finally, to find Γ it is enough to multiply out the operators L and E as

$$\begin{aligned} \Gamma = LE &= (1 - \overline{x}[\overline{x}])(1 + b[x^0]) \\ &= 1 + b[x^0] - \overline{x}[\overline{x}] - \overline{x}[\overline{x}]b[x^0] \\ &= 1 + b[x^0] - \overline{x}[\overline{x}]\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.10}$$

We would have obtained the same result if expaned the product EL instead. The last term vanished because once we have made the first extraction using $[x^0]$, that term no longer contains a variable x, and the $[\overline{x}]$ extraction picks out nothing. Here is an example that illustrates how the operators work in an actual problem.

Example 8. Suppose that $S = x + \overline{x}$. Starting with $Q_0 = 1$ we have

$$Q_1 = LES(1) = (1 + b[x^0] - \overline{x}[\overline{x}])(x + \overline{x}) = x + \overline{x} - \overline{x} = x \tag{2.11}$$

$$Q_2 = LES(Q_1) = (1 + b[x^0] - \overline{x}[\overline{x}])(x^2 + 1) = x^2 + 1 + b = a + x^2 \tag{2.12}$$

$$Q_3 = LES(Q_2) = (1 + b[x^0] - \overline{x}[\overline{x}])(a\overline{x} + ax + x + x^3)(?) \tag{2.13}$$

$$= a\overline{x} + ax + x + x^3 - a\overline{x} = (1+a)x + x^3\,. \tag{2.14}$$

Therefore,

$$\begin{aligned} Q &= Q_0 + Q_1 t + Q_2 t^2 + Q_3 t^3 + \cdots \\ &= 1 + xt + (a + x^2)t^2 + (ax + x + x^3)t^3 + \cdots\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.15}$$

Note that if we apply Γ to tSQ, we obtain Q again but with the first term, $Q_0 = 1$, missing.

The theory so far is consistent with the present methods for finding functional equations for the generating functions for random walk models because in the end we reach the same functional equations. However, the perspective is different and this allows us to go further than before. To show the consistency with the theory so far, we will expand the operator form and write down a functional equation that does not involve operators. For the rest of the chapter we make a change of

notation to reduce clutter. Let $Q_k = [x^k]Q$. We start with

$$\begin{aligned}[x^0]SQ &= [x^0]((S_{\text{-}1}\overline{x} + S_0 + S_1 x)Q) \\ &= (S_{\text{-}1}x[x] + S_0\overline{x}[\overline{x}] + S_1\overline{x}^2[\overline{x}^2])Q \\ &= S_{\text{-}1}Q_1 + S_0 Q_0\,,\end{aligned} \tag{2.16}$$

where last line follows since $Q_{\text{-}1} = 0$ since that would include walks ending on $\overline{x}$. A similar computation shows that $[\overline{x}]SQ = S_{\text{-}1}Q_0$ (?) and this gives the functional equation

$$\begin{aligned}1 = Q - tLE(SQ) &= Q - t(SQ + b[x^0]SQ - \overline{x}[\overline{x}]SQ \\ &= Q - t(SQ + b(S_{\text{-}1}Q_1 + S_0Q_0) - \overline{x}(S_{\text{-}1}Q_0))\,.\end{aligned} \tag{2.17}$$

We can rewrite it in the following form

$$(1 - tS)Q - t(bS_0 - \overline{x}S_{\text{-}1})Q_0 - btS_{\text{-}1}Q_1 = 1\,. \tag{2.18}$$

Here $Q = Q(x)$, $Q_0 = Q(0)$ and $Q_1 = Q'(0)$. It turns out that the Q_1 term is not needed. To see this, we first eliminate the Q_1 term by applying $[x^0]$ to both sides of the equation.

$$\begin{aligned}1 &= Q_1^0 - t(S_{\text{-}1}Q_1 + S_0Q_0) - tbS_0Q_0 - btS_{\text{-}1}Q_1 \\ &= (1 - atS_0)Q_0 - atS_{\text{-}1}Q_1\,.\end{aligned} \tag{2.19}$$

We can solve this equation for Q_1, that is,

$$tS_{\text{-}1}Q_1 = \overline{a}((1 - atS_0)Q_0 - 1)\,, \tag{2.20}$$

and substitute the result into the first functional equation. For now we do not worry about the possibility of $S_{\text{-}1} = 0$, because it leads to the same conclusion anyway. Then

$$\begin{aligned}1 &= (1 - tS)Q - t(bS_0 - \overline{x}S_{\text{-}1})Q_0 - c((1 - atS_0)Q_0 - 1) \\ &= (1 - tS)Q - (c - t\overline{x}S_{\text{-}1})Q_0 + c\end{aligned} \tag{2.21}$$

and we can rewrite the equation as

$$(1 - tS)Q - (c - t\overline{x}S_{\text{-}1})Q_0 = \overline{a}\,, \tag{2.22}$$

since $1 - c = 1 - (1 - \overline{a}) = \overline{a}$. We will call this the master functional equation.

Example 9. When $S = x + \overline{x}$ we have the functional equation

$$(1 - t(x + \overline{x}))Q - (c - t\overline{x})Q_0 = \overline{a}\,. \tag{2.23}$$

It turns out that the back-substitution is unnecesary. This is a good thing because in higher dimensions we would have to perform an exponential number of back-substitutions to obtain such an equation: 2^d substitutions for a d-dimensional problem. Previous approaches in [29] and [**?**] have only dealt with two-dimensional problems that only have a few back-substitutions. It is the use of operators that allows us to circumvent the problem altogether. To see why, consider the action of the marking operator L. To mark a monomial, we just multiply it by a. This means that, to undo the marking, we only need to multiply the monomial by $1/a$. That is, L has an inverse and we can write it down immediately. We have

$$L^{-1} = 1 + \left(\frac{1}{a} - 1\right)[x^0] = 1 - c[x^0]\,. \tag{2.24}$$

If we apply this to the functional equation, the right-hand side is simply $L^{-1}(1) = 1 - c = \overline{a}$ and the left-hand side is

$$\begin{aligned} L^{-1}(1 - tLES)Q &= L^{-1}Q - tESQ && (2.25)\\ &= (Q - cQ_0) - t(SQ - \overline{x}S_{\text{-}1}Q_0) && (2.26)\\ &= (1 - tS)Q - (c - t\overline{x}S_{\text{-}1})Q_0\,. && (2.27) \end{aligned}$$

This is a great shortcut indeed.

Proposition 10. *Let $S = S_{\text{-}1}\overline{x} + S_0 + S_1 x$ be the Laurent step polynomial for a one-dimensional random walk model restricted to the non-negative axis. Then the generating function Q satisfies the functional equations*

$$\begin{aligned} (L^{-1} - tES)Q &= \overline{a}\,, && (2.28)\\ (1 - tS)Q - (c - t\overline{x}S_{\text{-}1})Q_0 &= \overline{a}\,. && (2.29) \end{aligned}$$

The first one we call an operator equation, and the second, master functional equation.

The operator notation/perspective is powerful. It will allow us to derive functional equations for many random walk models in arbitrary dimensions with ease. Usually, derivations have employed inclusion-exclusion and careful book-keeping ([8], [15]) to write master functional equations, or their precursors, in a direct manner. Unfortunately, that approach is difficult to generalize to arbi-

trary dimensions and more dificult restrictions/marking.

We can also deal with coefficient extraction in a neater way. Instead of extracting $[x^k]$ from the master functional equation, it is better to first go through the operator equation, since $[x^k]$ interacts with L and E in a nice way. We have

$$[x^0]L^{-1} = [x^0] - [x^0]c[x^0] = [x^0] - c[x^0] = \overline{a}[x^0] \tag{2.30}$$

$$[x^0]E = [x^0] - [x^0]\overline{x}[\overline{x}] = [x^0]\,. \tag{2.31}$$

When we extract the x^0 term from the functional equation, we have

$$\begin{aligned} [x^0]\overline{a} = \overline{a} &= [x^0](L^{-1} - tES)Q \\ &= ([x^0]L^{-1} - t[x^0]ES)Q \\ &= (\overline{a}[x^0] - t[x^0]S)Q \\ &= [x^0](\overline{a} - tS)Q\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.32}$$

Therefore, we have a functional equation for the first coefficient

$$[x^0](1 - atS)Q = 1\,. \tag{2.33}$$

We can perform the extraction immediately and it simplifies to

$$(1 - atS_0)Q_0 - atS_{-1}Q_1 = 1\,. \tag{2.34}$$

Extracting higher coefficients is not difficult either. If $k \geqslant 1$, we have

$$[x^k]L^{-1} = [x^k] - [x^k]c[x^0] = [x^k]\,, \tag{2.35}$$

$$[x^k]E = [x^k] - [x^k]\overline{x}[\overline{x}] = [x^k]\,, \tag{2.36}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} [x^k]\overline{a} = 0 = [x^k](L^{-1} - tES)Q \\ = ([x^k] - t[x^k]S)Q \\ = [x^k](1 - tS)Q\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.37}$$

Expanding this yields

$$\begin{aligned} Q_k - t(S_{-1}Q_{k+1} + S_0Q_k + S_1Q_{k-1}) &= 0 \\ (1 - S_0t)Q_k - t(S_{-1}Q_{k+1} + S_1Q_{k-1}) &= 0\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.38}$$

Proposition 11. *Let $S = S_{-1}\overline{x} + S_0 + S_1x$ be the Laurent step polynomial for a one-dimensional random walk model. Let $Q_k = [x^k]Q$ be the generating functions for the walks ending at coordinate k. These functions satisfy the equations*

$$(1 - atS_0)Q_0 - atS_{-1}Q_1 = 1\,, \tag{2.39}$$

$$(1 - S_0t)Q_k - t(S_{-1}Q_{k+1} + S_1Q_{k-1}) = 0\,, \tag{2.40}$$

where $k \geqslant 1$.

2.2 Solving Functional Equations For Various Step Sets

The one-dimensional random walk models have algebraic generating functions while the higher-dimensional generalizations may not even have D-finite generating function. Nevertheless, the one-dimensional models allow us to showcase some of the methods we will use later on in the higher-dimensional settings. This is just an observation, but the difficulties in retrieving the solutions tend to scale up when we have more steps with negative coordinates. Those are steps that allow random walks to go back closer to the axes and origin. Although it may be surprising, this is a consequence of the form of the master functional equation: the coefficients become more complicated. We begin with the easier case.

2.2.1 The $S_{-1} = 0$ Case

This condition allows us to find Q_0 directly from the $[x^0]$ equation.

$$Q_0 = \frac{1}{1 - aS_0t}\,. \tag{2.41}$$

We can substitute this into the master functional equation.

Proposition 12. *Let $S_{-1} = 0$. Then the full generating function for one-dimensional random walk models with small steps is given by*

$$Q(x, a; t) = \frac{\overline{a}}{1 - tS}\left(1 + \frac{b}{1 - atS_0}\right) = \frac{1 - tS_0}{(1 - tS)(1 - atS_0)}\,. \tag{2.42}$$

This takes care of the less interesting half of all 8 models. Note the relationship between $Q(x, a; t)$ and $Q(x, 1; t)$ where the latter function is the generating function for the unmarked problem. When we set $a = 1$ in the above equation, we find

$$[b^0]Q = \widehat{Q} = \frac{1 - S_0 t}{(1 - st)(1 - S_0 t)}\,. \tag{2.43}$$

By inspection we can see that

$$(1 - aS_0 t)Q - (1 - S_0 t)\widehat{Q} = 0\,, \tag{2.44}$$

and we may write it as $B((1 - aS_0 t)Q) = 0$ using the operator $B = 1 - [b^0]$. There is a similar relationship for Q_0. Extracting $[x^0]$ from the last equation leads to

$$B((1 - aS_0 t)Q_0) = 0 \tag{2.45}$$

and thus, we have

$$Q_0 = \frac{1 - aS_0 t}{1 - S_0 t}\widehat{Q}_0\,. \tag{2.46}$$

Proposition 13. *Let $B = 1 - [b^0]$ and let Q be the generating function for a random walk model with small steps on the half-line with $S_{-1} = 0$. Then Q and Q_0 satisfy the functional equations*

$$B((1 - aS_0 t)Q) = 0\,, \quad B((1 - aS_0 t)Q_0) = 0\,. \tag{2.47}$$

In other words,

$$Q = \frac{1 - aS_0 t}{1 - S_0 t}\widehat{Q}\,, \quad Q_0 = \frac{1 - aS_0 t}{1 - S_0 t}\widehat{Q}_0\,. \tag{2.48}$$

Even such small examples already show connections between Q and $\widehat{Q}$. It will be interesting to find such relationships for higher-dimensional random walk models.

2.2.2 The $S_{-1} \neq 0$ Case

In this case we will apply the Obstinate Kernel method, as is done in the two-dimensional cases in [29], page 11 of [**?** , p=11]. ZZCITEZZ It requires finding an x value that makes the kernel

$K = 1 - tS$ vanish in the functional equation

$$(1 - tS)Q - (c - t\overline{x})Q_0 = \overline{a}\,. \tag{2.49}$$

Such a solution exists since $S_{-1} = 1$ and therefore, the equation $1 - tS = 0$ is nontrivial and has degree in x at least 1. Let one such solution be $x = \sigma$ and suppose that we can substitute it into the functional equation. ZZCITEZZ For now we have to assume that the whole term KQ vanishes and we obtain

$$-(c - t\overline{\sigma})Q_0 = \overline{a}\,. \tag{2.50}$$

Then

$$Q_0 = \frac{\overline{a}}{\overline{\sigma}t - c} \tag{2.51}$$

and now we can solve for Q explicitly

$$Q = \frac{\overline{a}}{1 - tS}\left(1 - \frac{t\overline{x} - c}{t\overline{\sigma} - c}\right) = \frac{t}{1 - tS}\left(\frac{\overline{x} - \overline{\sigma}}{b - a\overline{\sigma}t}\right) = \frac{t(\sigma - x)}{x(1 - tS)(b\sigma - at)}\,. \tag{2.52}$$

Proposition 14. *Let $S_{-1} = 1$ for a one-dimensional random walk model with small steps on the half-line. Let σ be a root of the kernel K that makes KQ vanish. Then the full generating function Q is given by*

$$Q = \frac{t}{1 - tS}\left(\frac{\overline{x} - \overline{\sigma}}{b - a\overline{\sigma}t}\right) \tag{2.53}$$

and it has a first term

$$Q_0 = \frac{\overline{a}}{\overline{\sigma}t - c}\,. \tag{2.54}$$

Here σ depends on the whole step set $\mathcal{S}$.

As before, we can find a linear relationship between $Q(x, a; t)$ and $Q(x, 1; t)$.

Proposition 15. *Let $B = 1 - [b^0]$ and let Q be the generating function for a random walk model with small steps on the half-line with $S_{-1} = 1$. Then Q and Q_0 satisfy the functional equations*

$$B((a\overline{\sigma}t - b)Q) = 0 \quad \textit{and} \quad B((a\overline{\sigma}t - b)Q_0) = 0\,. \tag{2.55}$$

In other words

$$Q = \frac{t}{at - b\sigma}\widehat{Q} \quad \textit{and} \quad Q_0 = \frac{t}{at - b\sigma}\widehat{Q}_0\,. \tag{2.56}$$

The final task for this section is to find what σ will be for the various cases. We already know $S_{\text{-}1} \neq 0$, so the result depends on S_0 and S_1. In general, the kernel is zero when

$$\begin{aligned} tS &= 1 \\ t(S_{\text{-}1} + S_0 x + S_1 x^2) &= x \\ tS_1 x^2 - (1 - S_0 t)x + tS_{\text{-}1} &= 0\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.57}$$

When $S_1 = 0$, we have the equation $(1 - S_0 t)x = t$, so the single root is

$$\sigma = \frac{t}{1 - S_0 t}\,. \tag{2.58}$$

When $S_1 = 1$, the equation $tx^2 - (1 - S_0 t)x + t = 0$ is quadratic with two roots that are functions of t. We have to pick the one that has no singularity at $t = 0$. The roots are

$$\sigma = \frac{1 - S_0 t - \sqrt{(1 - S_0 t)^2 - 4t^2}}{2t}, \quad \sigma^* = \frac{1 - S_0 t + \sqrt{(1 - S_0 t)^2 - 4t^2}}{2t}\,, \tag{2.59}$$

and they multiply to 1, so $\overline{\sigma} = \sigma^*$. Note that in the relationship between the marked and unmarked Q_0 we have

$$Q_0 = \frac{t}{at - b\sigma}\widehat{Q}_0 \tag{2.60}$$

where σ is a function containing a square root, that is, not a polynomial. However, we can look at the problem from a different angle - that of the Algebraic Kernel method used extensively in the quarter-plane model classification ZZCITEZZ. We find a polynomial $f(a, t)$, for which $B(fQ_0) = c$. This will serve to illustrate the group approach together with the kernel method. Both of the cases we need to consider have $S_{\text{-}1} = S_1 = 1$ with S_0 equal to 0 or 1. This means that S is invariant under the map $* : x \mapsto \overline{x}$. This map allows us to write another functional equation and we have the system

$$(1 - tS)Q - (c - t\overline{x})Q_0 - \overline{a} = 0\,, \tag{2.61}$$

$$(1 - tS)Q^* - (c - tx)Q_0 - \overline{a} = 0\,. \tag{2.62}$$

To eliminate the Q_0 term we multiply the first equation by $c - tx$, the second by $c - t\overline{x}$ and subtract

one equation from the other. We divide everything by $1 - tS$ and the equation that remains is

$$(c - tx)Q(x) - (c - t\overline{x})Q(\overline{x}) - \overline{a}\delta = 0\,, \tag{2.63}$$

where

$$\delta = \frac{t(\overline{x} - x)}{1 - tS} \tag{2.64}$$

and crucially, δ does not depent on a. We extract the x^1 coefficient from the equation to acquire an equation relating Q_1 and Q_0

$$cQ_1 - tQ_0 - \overline{a}\delta_1 = 0\,. \tag{2.65}$$

We can set $a = 1$ here to find that

$$-\delta_1 = t\widehat{Q}_0\,, \tag{2.66}$$

and we can back-substitute this quantity into the original equation.

$$\begin{aligned} cQ_1 &= tQ_0 - \overline{a}t\widehat{Q}_0 \\ bQ_1 &= t(aQ_0 - \widehat{Q}_0)\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.67}$$

Earlier we had the equation

$$(1 - aS_0t)Q_0 = 1 + aS_{\text{-}1}tQ_1 = 1 + atQ_1\,, \tag{2.68}$$

which we can solve for Q_1 this time and insert the solution into the above equation

$$b((1 - aS_0t)Q_0 - 1) = t^2a(aQ_0 - \widehat{Q}_0)\,. \tag{2.69}$$

Collecting coefficients and simplifying leads us to the equations

$$\begin{aligned} (b(1 - aS_0t) - a^2t^2)Q_0 - (-at^2)\widehat{Q}_0 &= b\,, \\ (c(1 - aS_0t) - at^2)Q_0 - (-t^2)\widehat{Q}_0 &= c\,. \end{aligned} \tag{2.70}$$

This gives $f(a,t) = c(1 - aS_0t) - at^2$.

Proposition 16. *Let $S_{\text{-}1} = S_1 = 1$ for a one-dimensional random walk model with small steps on*

the half-line. Then the generating function Q_0 satisfies (?)

$$B((c(1-aS_0t)-at^2)Q_0) = c. \tag{2.71}$$

With two different approaches we obtained slightly different relationships upon applying the operator B.

2.2.3 Conclusion

In this section we were able to find explicit solutions for Q_0, Q and also B-operator relationships for Q and $\widehat{Q}$. In higher dimensions this analysis will be more difficult, but we will find some B-operator relationships for the functions equivalent to Q_0 and $\widehat{Q}_0$. Here is a table showing the resuls for the one-dimensional random walk models with small steps and interaction with the origin. Here σ depends on S_1 and S_0.

Case	S	Q_0	Q	$f(a,t)$
$S_{-1}=0$	S_0+S_1x	$\dfrac{1}{1-aS_0t}$	$\dfrac{1-S_0t}{(1-tS)(1-atS_0)}$	$1-atS_0$
$S_{-1}=1$	$1+S_0+S_1x$	$\dfrac{\sigma}{at-b\sigma}$	$\dfrac{t(x-\sigma)}{x(1-tS)(at-b\sigma)}$	$a\overline{\sigma}t-b$
Add the two subcases				

Table 2.1: Generating functions for walks with small steps on the non-negative half-line.

Chapter 3

Higher-dimensional Random Walk Models

We can easily generalize the one-dimensional results to two or more dimensions. The following diagram illustrates the two-dimensional case.

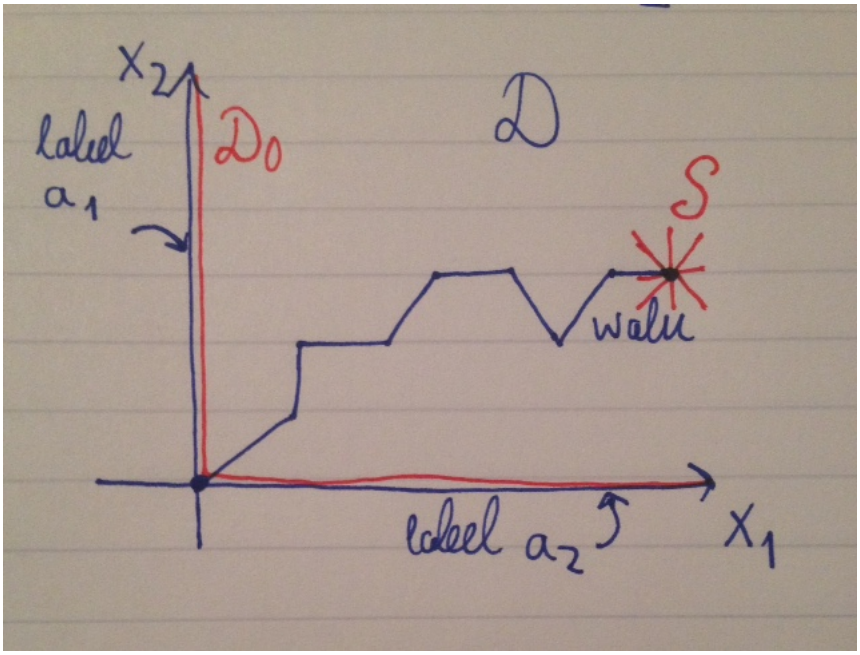


Figure 3.1: Two-dimensional random walk model constraints.

In the past we have performed inclusion-exclusion to arrive at functional equations for the two-

dimensional problems, but when it comes to generalizing to higher dimensions, the process is difficult and prone to error. For a view of difficulties involved in not using the operator notation, see [29] where the authors had to wrestle with case-by-case analysis. Instead, we use operators to derive the functional equations cleanly and without pain. First, we will illustrate the inclusion-exclusion with the non-interacting two-dimensional problem. This is the usual procedure carried out in problems so far [8]. Similarly to the one-dimensional problem, we start with the generating function Q for the random walks on the quarter-plane. Then we can extend the walks by one step via a multiplication by tS and remove those that step outside of the quarter-plane. To do this we can subtract the walks that end on coordinates $(\text{-}1, k)$ or $(k, \text{-}1)$ for integers k. However, we have removed too many walks. We need to re-add those walks that end on $(\text{-}1, \text{-}1)$.

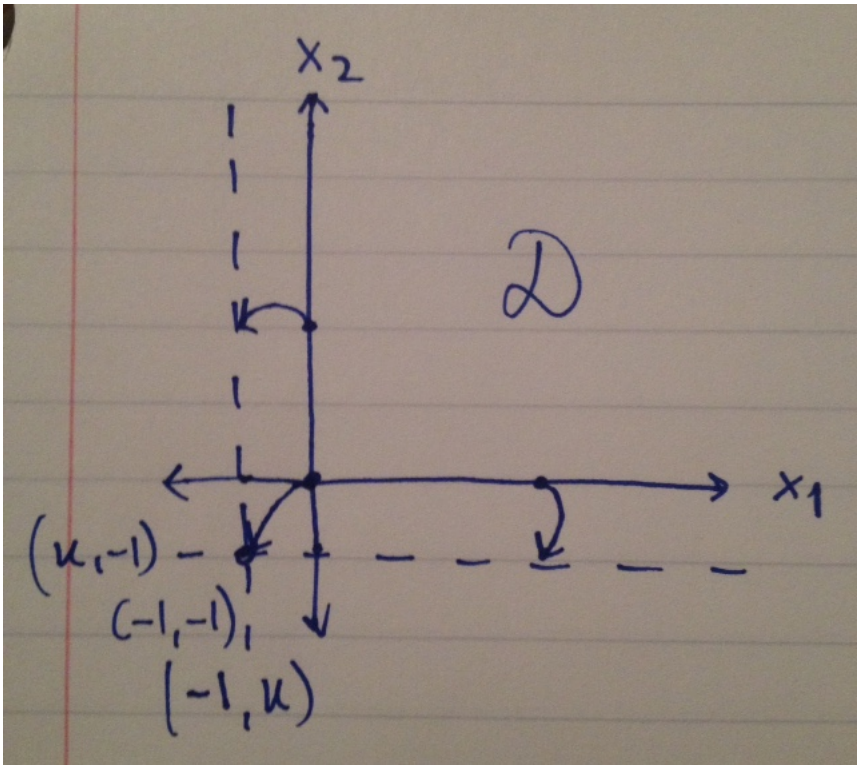


Figure 3.2: Inclusion-exclusion of regions.

Definition 17. *The ZZCLASSICZZ d-dimensional random walk model is the one with small steps in the positive orthant in $\mathbb{Z}^d$. The interacting ZZCLASSICZZ model is the ZZCLASSICZZ d-dimensional model with interactions with the hyperplanes $x_k = 0$ bounding the positive orthant.*

The walks that step on $(\text{-}1, k)$ are those coming from the boundary and stepping with steps in

the negative x_1 direction. To compute the generating function term, we start with Q_1^0 and multiply by $t\overline{x}_1 S_1^{-1}$. The situation is similar for the $(k, \text{-}1)$ coordinates. Finally, we re-add those walks that step on $(\text{-}1, \text{-}1)$. Those are walks coming from the origin in a diagonal step, so we multiply $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$ by $t\overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}$. We have obtained Q again but with the t^0 term missing.

This leads to the functional equation for Q

$$Q = 1 + tSQ - t\overline{x}_1 S_1^{-1} Q_1^0 - t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-2} Q_2^0 + t\overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} Q_{1,2}^{0,0}\,, \tag{3.1}$$

which is rather large even for two dimensions. Contrast this notation to the one in [8] (page 10). The problem quickly runs into notational difficulties for d-dimensional problems, but that can be dealt with by writing the equation as a sum over subsets of $[d]$, like it is done for the non-interacting case in [15]. This method runs into trouble when we start considering interactions. We take the functional equation for the non-interacting case and modify it to add interactions. This has been done before in ZZCITEZZ by adding in terms like $(a_1 - 1)T$ where T is some expression involving extractions of Q and S, but we will not go into the messy details. Instead, we will use the operator notation to handle the problem in a much more efficient manner.

3.1 Using Operators to Derive the Functional Equation

If we use operators we can build the generalizations to higher dimensions in a straight-forward manner. As we have done before, we multiply Q by tS, so we can extend the random walks by one step. Then we apply an operator E, to be determined later, to remove all the walks venturing outside of the positive orthant (nonzero coordinates x_k). Finally, we apply a marking operator to this term that marks the walks on the boundary hyperplanes $x_k = 0$. Since we have extended all walks by one step, we no longer have walks of size 0. Adding that term to the expression leads us back to Q itself. That is,

$$Q = 1 + LE(tSQ) \tag{3.2}$$

and the only task remaining is to find L and E. Like in the one-dimensional problem, we start removing monomials with coordinates outside of the positive orthant. The important idea here is that, if we have operators that just remove monomials, then it does not matter in what order we remove them. Let $E_k = 1 - \overline{x}_k[\overline{x}_k]$ be the operator removing monomials with x_k coordinate equal to -1. Then we may write $E = E_1 \cdots E_d$. For example,

$$E_1 E_2 = (1 - \overline{x}_1[\overline{x}_1])(1 - \overline{x}_2[\overline{x}_2]) = 1 - \overline{x}_1[\overline{x}_1] - \overline{x}_2[\overline{x}_2] + \overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2[\overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2]\,, \tag{3.3}$$

and this shows that the inclusion-exclusion is a natural consequence of how the operator is set up. Similarly, if we let $L_k = 1 + (a_k - 1)[x_k^0]$, then we may write $L = L_1 \cdots L_d$. Here order does not matter since we are marking monomials with variables a_k. It does not matter if we first multiply by a_1 and then by a_2, or vice-versa. As in the one-dimensional case, the operators L_k are invertible with inverses $L_k^{-1} = 1 - c_k[x_k^0]$, and thus, the operator L is also invertible. We can apply the operator L^{-1} to the functional equation

$$L^{-1}(1 - tLES)Q = (L^{-1} - tES)Q = L^{-1}(1) = \sum_{I \subseteq [d]} c_I = \overline{a}_{[d]}\,. \tag{3.4}$$

This allows us to write down the following result.

Proposition 18. *The ZZCLASSICZZ interacting d-dimensional random walk model has a full generating function Q satisfying the functional equations*

$$(1 - tLES)Q = 1\,, \tag{3.5}$$

$$(L^{-1} - tES)Q = \overline{a}_{[d]}\,, \tag{3.6}$$

where L, E, L^{-1} are of the form $\Gamma = \Gamma_1 \cdots \Gamma_d$.

Previously, we have had to deal with coefficient extractions and back-substitution to find the expanded form of the second functional equation (page 9 of [29] and page 12 of [**?**]). Using the operator notation allows us to skip this process. In general, the second functional equation has many less terms. To see this, we take a look at the operator $L_k E_k$. We have

$$L_k E_k = 1 + b_k[x_k^0] - \overline{x}_k[\overline{x}_k] \tag{3.7}$$

and if we apply the operator to an equation, we increases the number of terms in the equation by a factor of 3. We have 3^d terms relating to SQ by the end of applying LE. On the other hand, once we apply the operator L^{-1}, we introduce 2^d terms relating to Q, but since we only have E applied on SQ, we would only have at most 2^d terms from this. For the case of walks of step size at most 1 and labelling the hyperplane interactions, we have exactly 2^d terms $Q_I^{\mathbb{0}}$, one for each subset $I \subseteq [d]$. In this case we can write out the functional equation explicitly. Firstly,

$$\begin{aligned} L^{-1}Q &= (1 - c_1[x_1^0]) \cdots (1 - c_d[x_d^0])Q \\ &= \sum_{I \subseteq [d]} (-1)^{|I|} c_I Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} \end{aligned} \tag{3.8}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} ESQ &= (1-\overline{x}_1[\overline{x}_1])\cdots(1-\overline{x}_d[\overline{x}_d])(SQ) \\ &= \sum_{I\subseteq[d]} (-1)^{|I|}\overline{x}_I[\overline{x}_I^{\mathbb{1}}](SQ) \\ &= \sum_{I\subseteq[d]} (-1)^{|I|}\overline{x}_I S_I^{-\mathbb{1}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}}\,, \end{aligned} \tag{3.9}$$

where the last line follows from the fact that there are no negative powers of x_k in Q for any k. Therefore, the functional equation is

$$\sum_{I\subseteq[d]} (-1)^{|I|}(c_I - t\overline{x}_I S_I^{-\mathbb{1}})Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} = \overline{a}_{[d]}\,. \tag{3.10}$$

As in the two-dimensional case, we let $K_I = c_I - t\overline{x}_I S_I^{-\mathbb{1}}$ where, if $I = \varnothing$, we have the empty products and empty extractions, leaving us with $K_\varnothing = K$. Finally, we can write the master equation in d dimensions.

Theorem 19. *The ZZCLASSICZZ interacting d-dimensional random walk model, has a full generating function Q satisfying the functional equation*

$$\sum_{I\subseteq[d]} (-1)^{|I|} K_I Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} = \overline{a}_{[d]} \tag{3.11}$$

where $K_I = (c_I - t\overline{x}_I S_I^{-\mathbb{1}})$.

This is the interacting version of the functional equation found in [15]. In our notation this is

$$KQ - \sum_{\substack{I\subseteq[d]\\ I\neq\varnothing}} (-1)^{|I|}\overline{x}_I S_I^{-\mathbb{1}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} = 1\,. \tag{3.12}$$

3.2 Coefficient Extractions

3.2.1 Using Operator Notation For Fast Coefficient Extraction

As in the two-dimensional case, we can now perform coefficient extractions with $[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}]$ to attain further functional equations relating $Q_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ to other Q terms of the same variables or fewer variables. The operator $[x_i^k]$ commutes with all operators M_j and E_j with $j \neq i$, so we only need to consider

the action on the operators $M_i = L_i^{-1}$ and E_i. We have already done so in the one-dimensional case. The zeroth power extraction yields

$$[x_i^0]M_i = [x_i^0] - [x_i^0]c_i[x_i^0] = [x_i^0] - c_i[x_i^0] = \overline{a}_i[x_i^0]\,, \tag{3.13}$$

$$[x_i^0]E_i = [x_i^0] - [x_i^0]\overline{x}_i[\overline{x}_i] = [x_i^0]\,, \tag{3.14}$$

and the k-th power extraction for $k \geqslant 1$ yields

$$[x_i^k]M_i = [x_i^k] - [x_i^k]c_i[x_i^0] = [x_i^k]\,, \tag{3.15}$$

$$[x_i^k]E_i = [x_i^k] - [x_i^k]\overline{x}_i[\overline{x}_i] = [x_i^k]\,. \tag{3.16}$$

Therefore, for $k \geqslant 0$ the operator $[x_i^k]$ eliminates both M_i and E_i from the picture, while for $k = 0$ it removes E_i but leaves a residual $\overline{a}_i$ behind for M_i. Therefore, if we extract $[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}]$ from the functional equation, we have

$$\begin{aligned}[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}]a_{[d]} = \overline{a}_{[d]} &= [x_I^{\mathbb{0}}](M_{[d]} - tE_{[d]}S)Q \\ &= \left(\overline{a}_I M_{[d]\setminus I}[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}] - tE_{[d]\setminus I}[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}]S\right)Q \\ &= [x_I^{\mathbb{0}}](\overline{a}_I M_{[d]\setminus I} - tE_{[d]\setminus I}S)Q\,,\end{aligned} \tag{3.17}$$

so that

$$\overline{a}_{[d]\setminus I} = [x_I^{\mathbb{0}}](M_{[d]\setminus I} - a_I tE_{[d]\setminus I}S)Q\,. \tag{3.18}$$

If we rewrite this, we have

$$\overline{a}_I = [x_{[d]\setminus I}^{\mathbb{0}}](M_I - a_{[d]\setminus I}tE_I S)Q \tag{3.19}$$

and we can use whichever notation is more useful at the time. The latter notation underscores the idea that, when we extract coefficients for walks that end at some hyperplane intersection, we are having a reduced version of the functional equation at the cost of an added a term. When we extract a general term, we can use the operator $[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}x_J^P]$, where P is a set of powers greater than 0 and $I \cap J = \varnothing$, $|P| \geqslant 1$ and $I \cup J = K$. We find that

$$\begin{aligned}[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}x_J^P]a_{[d]} = 0 = [x_I^{\mathbb{0}}x_J^P](M_{[d]} - tE_{[d]}S)Q \\ = [x_I^{\mathbb{0}}x_J^P](\overline{a}_I M_{[d]\setminus K} - tE_{[d]\setminus K}S)Q\,,\end{aligned} \tag{3.20}$$

which we can write as

$$[x_I^{\mathbb{0}} x_J^P](M_{[d]\setminus K} - a_I t E_{[d]\setminus K} S)Q = 0\,. \tag{3.21}$$

If I is empty, then

$$[x_J^P](M_{[d]\setminus J} - t E_{[d]\setminus J} S)Q = 0\,. \tag{3.22}$$

The main role of these calculations is to provide a shortcut for manual calculations.

3.2.2 Further Functional Equations

We need to go further in order to find equations similar to the master functional equation. We know that

$$[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}]SQ = S_I^{\mathbb{0}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} + R_I\,, \tag{3.23}$$

where R_I is a collection of $S_I^{-P} Q_I^P$ terms that involves sets P whose terms are not all zero. We can use this inside the functional equation

$$\begin{aligned} \overline{a}_{[d]\setminus I} &= M_{[d]\setminus I}[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}]Q - a_I t E_{[d]\setminus I}[x_I^{\mathbb{0}}](SQ) \\ &= M_{[d]\setminus I} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} - a_I t E_{[d]\setminus I}(S_I^{\mathbb{0}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} + R_I) \\ &= (M_{[d]\setminus I} - a_I t E_{[d]\setminus I} S_I^{\mathbb{0}}) Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} - a_I t E_{[d]\setminus I} R_I \end{aligned} \tag{3.24}$$

so we can rewrite it as

$$(M_{[d]\setminus I} - a_I t E_{[d]\setminus I} S_I^{\mathbb{0}}) Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} = a_I(\overline{a}_{[d]} + t R_I')\,, \tag{3.25}$$

where $R_I' = E_{[d]\setminus I} R_I$. We compute the following terms

$$M_{[d]\setminus I} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} = \sum_{J \subseteq [d]\setminus I} (-1)^{|J|} c_J Q_{I,J}^{\mathbb{0},\mathbb{0}}\,, \tag{3.26}$$

$$a_I t E_{[d]\setminus I} S_I^{\mathbb{0}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}} = \sum_{J \subseteq [d]\setminus I} (-1)^{|J|} a_I t \overline{x}_J S_{I,J}^{\mathbb{0},-\mathbb{1}} Q_{I,J}^{\mathbb{0},\mathbb{0}}\,, \tag{3.27}$$

and the functional equation can be written as

$$\sum_{J\subseteq[d]\setminus I}(-1)^{|J|}(c_J - a_I t\overline{x}_J S_{I,J}^{\mathbb{0},\text{-}\mathbb{1}})Q_{I,J}^{\mathbb{0},\mathbb{0}} = a_I(\overline{a}_{[d]} + tR'_I)\,. \tag{3.28}$$

This suggests the following notation.

Definition 20. *For sets I and J that do not share any elements, we write*

$$K_J(I) = c_J - a_I t\overline{x}_J S_{I,J}^{\mathbb{0},\text{-}\mathbb{1}} \tag{3.29}$$

where if $I = \varnothing$, then $K_J(I) = K_J$.

This notation allows us to write the 2^d functional equations in simplified form.

Corollary 21. *Let I be a subset of $\{1,\ldots,d\}$. Then the generating function $Q_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ for the d-dimensional interacting ZZCLASSICZZ random walk model satisfies the functional equation*

$$\sum_{J\subseteq[d]\setminus I}(-1)^{|J|}K_J(I)Q_{I,J}^{\mathbb{0},\mathbb{0}} = \overline{a}_{[d]\setminus I} + a_I tR'_I \tag{3.30}$$

where the R'_I term only involves higher-order coefficient extractions from Q; that is, where not all the powers of variables x are zero.

To compute the R'_I terms we first determine what R_I is. It is a sum of terms $S_I^{\text{-}P}Q_I^P$ for various non-negative P with size $|I|$ whose elements are not all 0. To calculate R'_I we apply the operator $E_{[d]\setminus I}$ on R_I. We can try calculating some of these quantities. A key observation is that the terms Q_I^P are power series in the remaining variables, so they do not have non-negative coefficients. Let $sq = S_I^{\text{-}P}Q_I^P$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} E_j sq &= sq - \overline{x}_j(sq)_j^{\text{-}1} \\ &= sq - \overline{x}_j(s_j^{\text{-}1}q_j^0 + s_j^0 q_j^{\text{-}1} + s_j^1 q_j^{\text{-}2}) \\ &= sq - \overline{x}_j s_j^{\text{-}1} q_j^0\,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.31}$$

Hence

$$E_K sq = \sum_{J\subseteq K}(-1)^{|J|}\overline{x}_J s_J^{\text{-}\mathbb{1}} q_J^{\mathbb{0}}\,. \tag{3.32}$$

Finally, we can write

$$\begin{aligned} R'_I &= E_{[d]\setminus I} R_I \\ &= \sum_{P>\mathbb{0}} E_{[d]\setminus I} S_I^{-P} Q_I^P \\ &= \sum_{P>\mathbb{0}} \sum_{J\subseteq[d]\setminus I} (-1)^{|J|} S_{I,J}^{-P,-\mathbb{1}} Q_{I,J}^{P,\mathbb{0}} \\ &= \sum_{J\subseteq[d]\setminus I} (-1)^{|J|} \sum_{P>\mathbb{0}} S_{I,J}^{-P,-\mathbb{1}} Q_{I,J}^{P,\mathbb{0}} \,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.33}$$

Proposition 22. *The functions R'_I are given by*

$$R'_I = \sum_{J\subseteq[d]\setminus I} (-1)^{|J|} \sum_{P>\mathbb{0}} S_{I,J}^{-P,-\mathbb{1}} Q_{I,J}^{P,\mathbb{0}} \,. \tag{3.34}$$

The formula is mostly of theoretical value, although it can be used to speed up manual calculations.

3.3 First Solutions

3.3.1 Formal Neumann Series

So far we have obtained the equation

$$(1 - tLES)Q = 1 \,. \tag{3.35}$$

Let $\Gamma = LE$. Then we can think of the formal inverse of this operator given as Neumann series as

$$(1 - t\Gamma S)^{-1} = \frac{1}{1 - t\Gamma S} = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma S)^k \,. \tag{3.36}$$

We can write the series solution

$$Q = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma S)^k (1) \tag{3.37}$$

where $(\Gamma S)^k(1) = \Gamma S(\cdots(\Gamma S(1))\cdots)$. This allows us to compute the series expansion for Q directly using an iteration. The next coefficient is the previous one with ΓS applied to it. It can be implemented easily in symbolic calculation software like Maple or Mathematica. The iteration is a

formalized way of finding the first few terms of the series in the naive way: by taking a set of walks of length n, extending them by 1 step, removing the ones that end outside of the quarter-plane, and finally by marking the ones that interact with the hyperplanes $x_i = 0$ at their endpoint. We have not been able to find closed forms for the repeated operator applications in general. Here is an example that illustrates the use of the operators.

Example 23. Let $S = x_1 + \overline{x}_1 + x_2 + \overline{x}_2 = S_1(x_1) + S_2(x_2)$. We start with $\Gamma S^0(1) = 1$. Then

$$\begin{aligned}
\Gamma S^1(1) &= LE(S_1 + S_2) = L(x_1 + x_2) = a_2 x_1 + a_1 x_2\,, \\
\Gamma S^2(1) &= LE(S_1 + S_2)(a_2 x_1 + a_1 x_2) \\
&= LE(a_2 S_1 x_1 + a_1 x_2 S_2 + a_2 x_1 S_2 + a_1 x_2 S_1) \\
&= L(a_2 S_1 x_1 + a_1 x_2 S_2 + (a_1 + a_2) x_1 x_2) \\
&= a_1 a_2^2 + a_2^2 x_1^2 + a_1 a_2^2 + a_1^2 x_2^2 + (a_1 + a_2) x_1 x_2
\end{aligned}$$

and this allows us to write

$$Q = 1 + (a_2 x_1 + a_1 x_2)t + \left(a_1 a_2 (a_1 + a_2) + (a_2^2 x_1^2 + a_1^2 x_2^2) + (a_1 + a_2) x_1 x_2\right) t^2 + \cdots\,. \tag{3.38}$$

3.3.2 Hadamard Products

We take a moment to see a result that falls out of the operator notation and which was covered in more generality in [18], where the authors consider a generalization of the situation $S(x_1, x_2) = S_0(x_1) + S_1(x_1)S_2(x_2)$. We consider the simpler case $S = S_1(x_1)S_2(x_2)$ and its generalizations to many dimensions.

Example 24. When $d = 2$ we have the special case $S = S_1(x_1)S_2(x_2)$. The operator ΓS factors as

$$\Gamma S = \Gamma_1 \Gamma_2 S_1 S_2 = (\Gamma_1 S_1)(\Gamma_2 S_2) \tag{3.39}$$

because Γ_2 does not interact with S_1 and the operators commute. Then

$$(\Gamma S)^k = (\Gamma_1 \Gamma_2 S_1 S_2)^k = (\Gamma_1 S_1)^k (\Gamma_2 S_2)^k \tag{3.40}$$

and we use the Neumann series to find

$$Q = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma S)^k = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma_1 S_1)^k (\Gamma_2 S_2)^k = \left(\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma_1 S_1)^k \right) \odot_t \left(\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma_2 S_2)^k \right) , \quad (3.41)$$

where $\odot_t$ denotes the Hadamard product of two power series with respect to variable t. From now on we will drop the subscript t unless it is needed. Here we may write

$$Q_i(a_i, x_i; t) = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma_i S_i)^k \quad (3.42)$$

and by reversing the iteration, we reach the functional equations

$$(1 - t\Gamma_i S_i) Q_i = 1 \quad (3.43)$$

for each i. The functions Q_i are solutions to one-dimensional problems with step sets S_i and Q is expressed as

$$Q(a_1, a_2, x_1, x_2; t) = Q_1(a_1, x_1; t) \odot_t Q_2(a_2, x_2; t) \quad (3.44)$$

Example 25. Once we know the form of the solution, we can prove that it works by a method that does not use the series solution. Suppose that Q_i is a solution to the functional equation

$$(L_i^{-1} - tE_i S_i) Q_i = \overline{a}_i \quad (3.45)$$

for $i = 1$ and $i = 2$. Then we claim that $Q = Q_1 \odot Q_2$ is a solution to the functional equation

$$(L^{-1} - tES) Q = \overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 \, . \quad (3.46)$$

To this end, we compute

$$\begin{aligned} (L^{-1} - tES) Q &= L^{-1}(Q_1 \odot Q_2) - tES(Q_1 \odot Q_2) \\ &= (L_1^{-1} Q_1 \odot L_2^{-1} Q_2) - t((E_1 S_1 Q_1) \odot (E_2 S_2 Q_2)) \, . \end{aligned} \quad (3.47)$$

Then we substitute $L_i^{-1}Q_i = \overline{a}_i + tE_iS_iQ_i$ into the first term and expand it to find

$$\begin{aligned}(L_1^{-1}Q_1 \odot L_2^{-1}Q_2) &= (\overline{a}_1 + tE_1S_1Q_1) \odot (\overline{a}_2 + tE_2S_2Q_2) \\ &= \overline{a}_1 \odot \overline{a}_2 + \overline{a}_1 \odot (tE_2S_2Q_2) + \overline{a}_2 \odot (tE_1S_1Q_1) \\ &\quad + (tE_1S_1Q_1) \odot (tE_2S_2Q_2))\,.\end{aligned} \tag{3.48}$$

Since we are working with power series,

$$\overline{a}_i \odot (tE_jS_jQ_j) = \overline{a}_i[t^0]tE_jS_jQ_j = 0\,, \tag{3.49}$$

and thus,

$$(L_1^{-1}Q_1 \odot L_2^{-1}Q_2) = \overline{a}_1\overline{a}_2 + t((E_1S_1Q_1) \odot (E_2S_2Q_2))\,, \tag{3.50}$$

establishing that Q is indeed a solution to the equation.

Lemma 26. *Let Q be the generating function for a ZZCLASSICZZ two-dimensional interacting random walk model, with $S = S_1(x_1)S_2(x_2)$. Let Q_i be the generating function for a ZZCLASSICZZ one-dimensional random walk model with step polynomial S_i. Then*

$$Q(x_1, x_2, a_1, a_2; t) = Q_1(x_1, a_1; t) \odot Q_2(x_2, a_2; t)\,. \tag{3.51}$$

This allows us to prove the following result via induction.

Theorem 27. *Consider a ZZCLASSICZZ interacting d-dimensional random walk model. Suppose that $S(x_1, \ldots, x_d) = S_1 \cdots S_r$ where S_i and S_j do not share variables when $i \neq j$. Then the full generating function Q is given by*

$$Q = Q_1 \odot \cdots \odot Q_r \tag{3.52}$$

where Q_k is the full generating function for the ZZCLASSICZZ interacting sub-d-dimensional problem for the variables present in S_k.

Example 28. Consider the two-dimensional model with $S = (x_1 + \overline{x}_1)(x_2 + \overline{x}_2)$. The one-dimensional problems are the same and have solutions

$$\widetilde{Q}_0 = \frac{\sigma}{at - b\sigma} \quad \text{and} \quad \widetilde{Q} = \frac{t(x - \sigma)}{x(1 - t(x + \overline{x})(at - b\sigma)}\,, \tag{3.53}$$

where

$$\sigma = \frac{1-\sqrt{1-4t^2}}{2t}\,. \tag{3.54}$$

We can expand and simplify $\widetilde{Q}_0$ and $\widetilde{Q}$ to find

$$\widetilde{Q}_0 = \frac{2-a-a\sqrt{1-4t^2}}{2(1-a+a^2t^2)}\,, \tag{3.55}$$

$$\widetilde{Q} = \frac{((a-2)t+(1-a)x+2axt^2)+(at+(1-a)x)\sqrt{1-4t^2}}{2(1-a+a^2t^2)(x-t-tx^2)}\,. \tag{3.56}$$

We have the expansion

$$\widetilde{Q} = 1 + xt + (a+x^2)t^2 + x(1+a+x^2)t^3 + \cdots\,. \tag{3.57}$$

This allows us to write

$$\begin{aligned} Q(x_1,x_2,a_1,a_2;t) =& \widetilde{Q}(x_1,a_1;t) \odot \widetilde{Q}(x_1,a_2;t) \\ =& 1 + x_1x_2t + (a_1+x_1^2)(a_2+x_2^2)t^2 \\ &+ x_1x_2(1+a_1+x_1^2)(1+a_2+x_2^2)t^3 + \cdots\,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.58}$$

However, obtaining an explicit function via the Hadamard product seems to be rather messy. The function is not algebraic since the unmarked variant is not algebraic. However, the function Q is D-finite since both functions in the product are.

3.4 Groups For Walks With Small Steps (REWRITE)

Suppose that the random walk model has a step Laurent polynomial S in the variables $x_1,\ldots,x_d$. We are interested in the bi-rational transformations that leave the kernel $K = 1 - tS$ intact in much the same way as it is done in [8] but with a slightly different notaion. For some $x = x_k$, we have bi-rational transformations sending $g : x \mapsto y$ that preserse K. That is, $K(y) = K(x)$. Expanding the definition we have

$$\begin{aligned} 1 - tS(y) &= 1 - tS(x) \\ S(y) &= S(x) \\ S_{-1}\overline{x} + S_1 x &= S_{-1}\overline{y} + S_1 y\,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.59}$$

Because of this equation it is equally valid to speak of the birational transformations preserving S. Collecting terms and simplifying yields

$$(S_{\text{-}1} - S_1 xy)(x - y) = 0\,. \tag{3.60}$$

There are cases here. If both $S_{\text{-}1}$ and S_1 are zero, the equation is trivially valid and g can be anything. If exactly one is zero, then the equation only has the trivial solution $y = x$. When neither is zero, we have the two solutions $y = x$ and $y = \overline{x}S_{\text{-}1}/S_1$ and we say that the transformation is nontrivial. That is, we define $g_k = \overline{x}_k S_k^{-1}/S_k^1$ whenever we have a nontrivial transformation. Note that

$$g_k^2(x_k) = g_k\left(S_k^{-1} x_k S_k^1\right) = x_k \tag{3.61}$$

so these transformations are involutions. We can define a group G_S of the nontrivial transformations.

Definition 29. *Let $G = G_S$ be the group generated by the nontrivial transformations g_k.*

In the case where the transformation on x is trivial there is something we can say about the random walk model. We use the operator $E = 1 - \overline{x}[\overline{x}]$ to gain information on the generating function Q. $EQ = Q$ since Q only has non-negative powers of x in its expansion . However, in the master functional equation we have

$$ESQ = SQ - \overline{x}(S_{\text{-}1}Q_1 + S_0 Q_0 + S_1 Q_{\text{-}1}) = SQ - \overline{x}(S_{\text{-}1}Q_1 + S_0 Q_0)\,. \tag{3.62}$$

We have several cases.

1) If $S_{\text{-}1} = 0$ and $S_1 = 0$, then $S = S_0$ and therefore, $ESQ = S_0 EQ = S_0 Q$, so the functional equation does not "see" the variable x.

2) If $S_{\text{-}1} = 0$ and $S_1 \neq 0$, then

$$ESQ = SQ - \overline{x}(S_{\text{-}1}Q_0 + S_0 Q_{\text{-}1}) = SQ \tag{3.63}$$

since $Q_{\text{-}1} = 0$, so the extraction does not see the variable x. This is equivalent to saying that even though we are working in the positive orthant we can relax the constraint for the x to the whole space since there are no steps going back in that direction. The variable x is still present in the functional equation. If we have no steps that stay in the $x = 0$ hyperplane, then

x essentially acts as a parameter in the problem and we can ignore it. Otherwise, we will have

$$\begin{aligned} LESQ = LSQ &= (1 + b[x^0])SQ \\ &= SQ + b(S_{\text{-}1}Q_1 + S_0Q_0 + S_1Q_{\text{-}1}) \\ &= SQ + bS_0Q_0 \neq SQ\,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.64}$$

3) If $S_{\text{-}1} \neq 0$ and $S_1 = 0$, then ESQ is nontrivial, but since we cannot take any steps away from the $x = 0$, hyperplane we can eliminate the $S_{\text{-}1}$ term in the analysis of the problem.

In all the cases the random walk model behaves as if $S_{\text{-}1} = 0$. In the non-interacting version of the problem we can fully ignore the x coordinate in the analysis since it acts like a parameter. The problem is essentially one of lower dimension. In the interacting case we have a bit extra because of the marking operator. In either case we define the dimension of the group to be the number of nontrivial generators.

Definition 30. *Let the* dimension *of the model or the group be the number of nontrivial generators of G_S in the defining representation.*

Without loss of generality, we consider models set in d dimensions that have a full set of generators. Firstly, we can easily show that there are infinitely many different group sizes that are manifested among the different dimensions. Let S be a $(d-1)$-dimensional model with group G of largest finite order (number of elements) for that dimension. Set this model in d dimensions and define a new model $S' = S(x_d + \overline{x}_d)$. This model has a nontrivial generator g_d that S lacks. Therefore, the group G' of this new model satisfies

$$G' \cong G \times \langle g_d \rangle \tag{3.65}$$

and $|G'| = 2|G|$ and continuing in this manner allows us to write an infinite sequence of distinct groups. That is, not only are there infinitely many distinct groups, but also, there is a group in d dimensions not encountered before in $(d-1)$ dimensions (neither in order nor structure). For example, the orders of the finite groups set in 2 dimensions are 1, 2, 4, 6 and 8 (Theorem 3 of [8] along with the simple observation that we also have groups of order 1 and 2). If we were to consider walks with multiple copies of some steps, we may obtain even larger group orders as seen in [11]. Thus, in 3 dimensions we have groups of order 1, 2, 4, 6, 8, 12 and 16 at least. In fact there are even larger groups of orders 24 and 48 at least as can be seen in [18].

This discussion would be short without briefly going into the subject of Coxeter groups. The d-dimensional groups defined above are Coxeter groups - a generalization of the dihedral groups

encountered in dimension 2 random walk models. Coxeter groups are defined as

$$G = \langle r_1, \ldots, r_d | (r_i r_j)^{m_{i,j}} = 1 \rangle \tag{3.66}$$

where $m_{i,i} = 1$ and $m_{i,j} \geqslant 2$ for all $i \neq j$, and $m_{i,j}$ could also be infinite. We can call these r's reflections. When $m_{i,j} = 2$ the reflections commute. Also, $m_{i,j} = m_{j,i}$. The *rank* of G is the number of generators of in this specific representation of G. Often G has more than one representation with different numbers of generators. So in our discussion of groups for random walks with small steps the rank of G is the dimension of the model. We can draw a graph for each Coxeter group by the following procedure.

- Label vertices with the generators of G.
- Connect the vertices g_i and g_j if $m_{i,j} \geqslant 3$.
- Label the edge with $m_{i,j}$ if $m_{i,j} \geqslant 4$.

If the graph has different components, the Coxeter group factors as a direct product of Coxeter groups represented by the individual components. We can see this in terms of the step polynomial S. Suppose that S factors as

$$S = T(x_1, \ldots, x_k) R(x_{k+1}, \ldots, x_d) \,. \tag{3.67}$$

For a fixed $1 \leqslant i \leqslant k$, we have

$$S_i^j = [x_i^j] S = R [x_i^j] T = R T_i^j \tag{3.68}$$

and therefore,

$$g_i(x_i) = \overline{x}_i \frac{T_i^{-1} R}{T_i^1 R} = \overline{x}_i \frac{T_i^{-1}}{T_i^1} \,. \tag{3.69}$$

Similarly, if $k+1 \leqslant j \leqslant d$, then

$$g_j(x_j) = \overline{x}_j \frac{R_i^{-1}}{R_i^1} \,. \tag{3.70}$$

Clearly

$$g_i g_j = g_j g_i \tag{3.71}$$

since they do not interfere with each other. Since i and j were arbitrary, this means that the generators from different sets commute and the Coxeter graph of the group factors into two pieces. We can write

$$G_S = G_T \times G_R \,. \tag{3.72}$$

where the subscripts highlight which parts of S they groups are generated by. This factoring also allows us to write the generating function Q as a Hadamard product of lower-dimensional generating functions. We can call each component of the graph a prime model. We can say that a simple small component is one whose group does not split nontrivially (its graph has one component).

3.5 Specializing to Two Dimensions

Until the end of the chapter we will focus on the two-dimensional models with interactions. We can set $d = 2$ in the equations (?) to find the two-dimensional master functional equations.

Corollary 31. *The full generating function function Q for the ZZCLASSICZZ interacting two-dimensional models satisfies the master functional equation*

$$KQ - K_1 Q_1^0 - K_2 Q_2^0 + K_{1,2} Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = \overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 \,. \tag{3.73}$$

Corollary 32. *The full generating function Q for the ZZCLASSICZZ interacting two-dimensional models satisfies the additional functional equations*

$$\begin{aligned}
(1 - t a_1 S_1^0) Q_1^0 - (c_2 - t a_1 \overline{x}_2 S_{1,2}^{0,-1}) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - a_1 t (S_1^{-1} Q_1^1 - \overline{x}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} Q_{1,2}^{1,0}) &= \overline{a}_2 \,, \\
(1 - t a_2 S_2^0) Q_2^0 - (c_1 - t a_2 \overline{x}_1 S_{1,2}^{-1,0}) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - a_2 t (S_2^{-1} Q_2^1 - \overline{x}_1 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} Q_{1,2}^{0,1}) &= \overline{a}_1 \,, \\
(1 - a_1 a_2 t S_{1,2}^{0,0}) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - t a_1 a_2 t (S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} Q_{1,2}^{1,1} + S_{1,2}^{-1,0} Q_{1,2}^{1,0} + S_{1,2}^{0,-1} Q_{1,2}^{0,1}) &= 1 \,,
\end{aligned}$$

where $S_{1,2}^{0,0} = 1$ if we have resting steps, and zero otherwise.

3.5.1 First Examples in the Plane

The ZZCLASSICZZ two-dimensional random walk models have been investigated thoroughly but the interacting version has not. We want to extend the ZZCLASSICZZ model methods to the interacting setting or create new ones. Since the generating functions for the interacting models need to reduce to those for the non-interacting models, we do not expect to find solutions for every model. In fact, some of the ZZCLASSICZZ models lead to generating functions that are not even D-finite,

so their interacting counterparts will not be D-finite either. For the rest of the problems we hope to find the generating functions Q explicitly, or at least the functions $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$. This appears to be difficult in most nontrivial cases. Recent research ZZCITEZZ has shown that there are models where we have an explicit relationship between Q or $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$ and unmarked variants. As we saw in the previous chapter, the one-dimensional cases admit a linear relationship with polynomial coefficients. There are other two-dimensional models that exhibit a rational relationship. The way things have turned with regards to the ZZCLASSICZZ models, it would not be surprising if there are two-dimensional interacting models for which neither a linear nor a rational relationship would exist between Q, $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$ and various unmarked variants. In this section we will cover the first few examples of quarter-plane models with interactions.

Our first observation is that if the model has some steps that cannot be used in the construction of the walks, then we may safely remove them from the step set, and we would still have the same generating function Q.

Definition 33. *Given a model $\mathcal{M}$ with step set $\mathcal{S}$, we define the minimal step set $\mathcal{S}'$ for the model to be the subset of steps that can be taken by walks from the model. A reducible model is one where $\mathcal{S} \neq \mathcal{S}'$.*

Lemma 34. *The full generating function for a random walk model is the same whether we use the a step set or its minimal version.*

We can easily find the reducible sets by partitioning the models based in classes. For example, if there are no steps that take us to positive coordinates, then all steps will negative coordinates can be removed. Because of this, it makes sense to consider the eight classes of models based on the presence of steps from {N, NE, E}. We have the following cases.

1. None of the three steps are present. We have models where walks cannot leave the origin and they are equivalent to ones with $\mathcal{S} = \varnothing$. There are $2^5 = 32$ such models.



Figure 3.3: Set of steps allowed in models that do not leave the origin.

2. There is a N or E step but no S or W step, respectively. We have models where walks can leave the origin along one of the axes but they can never return to the origin. The models are

equivalent to ones where $\mathcal{S} = \{\text{N}\}$ or $\mathcal{S} = \{\text{E}\}$, respectively. There are $2 \cdot 2^3 = 16$ such models.



Figure 3.4: Sets of steps allowed in models where walks can leave the origin along one axis but then they can never return. The N and E steps must be present, respectively.

3. There is a N or E step together with a S or W step, respectively. These models are also confined to an axis, but this time walks can return to the origin. The models are equivalent to ones where $\mathcal{S} = \{\text{N, S}\}$ or $\mathcal{S} = \{\text{E, W}\}$, respectively. There are $2 \cdot 2^3 = 16$ such models.

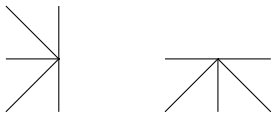


Figure 3.5: Sets of steps allowed in models where walks are confined to an axis, with possible returns to the origin. The N and S, and E and W steps must be present, respectively.

4. There are two or more steps from {N, NE, E} or NE $\subseteq \mathcal{S}$. In this case the models feature walks that can leave both axes. Therefore the models are not reducible, since walks can take any steps in $\mathcal{S}$ once they leave the axes.

Cases 1, 2 and 3 contain all of the reducible quarter-plane models, which are equivalent to one-dimensional problems, so they can be solved via a simple Hadamard product. Note that all these models are factorable. That is,

$$S(x_1, x_2) = 1 \cdot S(x_2) \quad \text{or} \quad S(x_1, x_2) = S(x_1) \cdot 1\,. \tag{3.74}$$

We will solve the first case. Therefore the generating function Q is a Hadamard product of functions Q_1 and Q_2 from the one-dimensional case. We have

$$Q_1(x_1, a_1, t) = \frac{1}{1 - a_1 t}, \quad Q_2(x_2, a_2, t) = q(x_2, a_2, t) \tag{3.75}$$

for some solution q from that section. Therefore,

$$\begin{aligned} Q(x_1, x_2, a_1, a_2, t) &= Q_1(x_1, a_1, t) \odot Q_2(x_2, a_2, t) \\ &= \frac{1}{1 - a_1 t} \odot q(x_2, a_2, t) = q(x_2, a_2, a_1 t)\,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.76}$$

The work for the second case is analogous, with the indices 1 and 2 switched. In the next section we will look at a different classification of the models

Since the models are essentially one-dimensional, we also have a linear relationship using the operators B_1 and B_2. If $f(a, t)$ is the function that goes together with $q(x, a, t)$, then the function $F(a_1, a_2, t)$ that goes together with $Q(x_1, x_2, a_1, a_2, t)$ is given by

$$F(a_1, a_2, t) = f(a_2, a_1 t)\,. \tag{3.77}$$

Then we have $B_2(FQ) = 0$ and consequently, $B_1 B_2(FQ) = 0$.

3.5.2 Kernel Group Considerations

It is easier to find the generating function for a model if we have more functional equations, which will help us cancel out some of the terms. One way to find more equations is to apply a transformation on the pair (x_1, x_2) that leaves intact as many parts of the functional equation as possible but still adds some information in the form of a non-equivalent equation. We could map x_1 and x_2 to some functions separately and then examine the group generated by such maps. We often eliminate the kernel in front of Q in order to find equations for the extracted forms of Q, so it is useful to consider transformations that preserve the kernel. This is a fruitful approach in the non-interacting case, and it has been covered in ZZCITEZZ. We will call this group $G(K)$, although it is not be the full group of rational transformations preserving the kernel. For example, $(x_1, x_2) \mapsto (x_2, x_1)$ is not in the group most of the time, but it is a valid transformation that preserves the kernel. If a transformation on (x_1, x_2) preserves the kernel $K = 1 - tS$, then it must also preserve the step polynomial S. Here

$$S = \alpha \overline{x} + \beta + \gamma x \tag{3.78}$$

where $x = x_1$ or x_2 and α, β, γ change correspondingly. We consider sending $x \mapsto y$ and solve for y to determine the possible transformations we can perform. That is, we have

$$\alpha\overline{x} + \gamma x = \alpha\overline{y} + \gamma y \tag{3.79}$$

$$(\alpha - \gamma xy)(y - x) = 0\,. \tag{3.80}$$

We have three cases depending on whether α and γ are zero or not - both are zero, one of them is zero, or both are nonzero.

1. If both are zero, the equation is trivially-true and all transformations preserve the kernel.
2. If only one of them is zero, then $y = x$, so only the identity transformation preserves the kernel.
3. If neither one is zero, then we have the solutions $y = x$ and $y = \overline{x}\alpha/\gamma$.

This analysis can be performed for both coordinates x_1 and x_2, so we can partition the two-dimensional problems into several classes. Whenever the S quantities in the denominators are not zero, we let

$$g_1 : x_1 \mapsto \overline{x}_1 \frac{S_1^{-1}}{S_1^1} \quad \text{and} \quad g_2 : x_2 \mapsto \overline{x}_2 \frac{S_2^{-1}}{S_2^1} \tag{3.81}$$

Note that $g_i(g_i(x_1)) = x_1$, so the maps are involutions. Contrast this suggestive notation to the notation in previous approaches in ZZCITEZZ and ZZCITEZZ. We will combine cases for analysis in the form "case $i.j$": we have case i for x_1 and case j for x_2. Of course, case $i.j$ is equivalent to case $j.i$.

Case 1.1: Here we can apply any transformation on both x_1 and x_2. From the transformation analysis this means that $S_1^{-1} = S_1^1 = S_2^{-1} = S_2^1 = 0$ and thus, we have no steps that go away from the origin. Therefore, $S = S_{1,2}^{0,0}$. The models here are reducible.

Case 1.2: Here any transformation can be applied on x_1, so $S_1^{-1} = S_1^1 = 0$ and the model has no steps that step away from the origin in the x_1-direction. Since the only transformation on x_2 is the identity transformation, we either have $S_2^{-1} = 0$ or $S_2^1 = 0$, in which case the model only consists of an up step or a down step, together with a possible resting step. Similarly, the 2.1 case involves a single x_1 or $\overline{x}_1$ step with a possible resting step. The models here are reducible.

Case 1.3: : This case is similar to the previous one except that now we have two transformations for x_2; that is, S_2^{-1} and $S_2^1 \neq 0$. This means that we must have both vertical steps x_2 and $\overline{x}_2$. The models here are reducible.

Case 2.2: In this case both transformations are the identity transformations. Therefore, exactly one of S_1^{-1} and S_1^1 is zero and exactly one of S_2^{-1} and S_2^1 is zero. The models where $S_1^1 = 0$ or $S_2^1 = 0$ already have solutions since they are reducible. The only case that remains is when $S_1^{-1} = 0$ and $S_2^{-1} = 0$. The possible models are the ones with steps in {N, E, NE} except the ones going either only in the N direction or only in the E direction. Here are the models in the positive quadrant



Figure 3.6: Models from case 2.2.

None of the models are reducible and this is a case of group $G(K)$ of order 1.

Case 2.3: In this case there is only one transformation for x_1 and two for x_2. This means $S_1^{-1} = 0$ (positive case) or $S_1^1 = 0$ (negative case) but not both. The negative case is reducible, so we only seek solutions for the positive one. Furthermore, $S_2^{-1} \neq 0$ and $S_2^1 \neq 0$, so there must be at least one step going in the positive x_2 direction and one in the negative x_2 direction. If both NE and SE are in $\mathcal{S}$, then we have 8 cases. If one of NE and SE is in $\mathcal{S}$ but not both, then we have another 8 cases. Finally, if neither is in $\mathcal{S}$, we must have the other three steps present, in order to satisfy the conditions. We have 17 cases in total. The group size is 2. Here are all of these models.

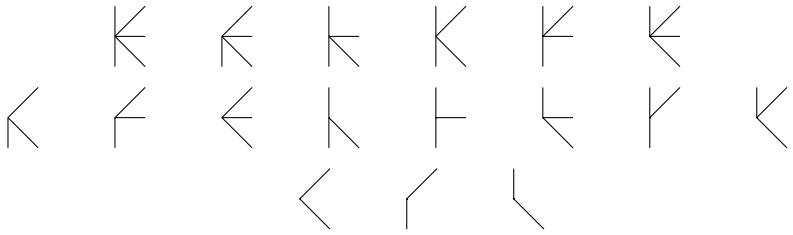


Figure 3.7: Models from case 2.3 ordered by number of steps missing from the five steps allowed.

Note that none of the models are reducible.

Case 3.3: This is the most interesting case with two transformations for x_1 and x_2 each. This means that there must be at least one step going in a positive and one going in a negative direction, for each of x_1 and x_2. If we look at which diagonal steps are present, similarly to case 2.2, we find that there are 145 such models. Previous results show that the group $G(K)$ has orders 4, 6, 8 and infinity, depending on the step set in question. None of these cases are reducible.

3.6 Solving Basic Two-dimensional Models

3.6.1 Case 2.2 – Group of Order One

The only models that are not reducible are those where $S_1^{-1} = 0$ and $S_2^{-1} = 0$. Here

$$S = \alpha x_1 + \beta x_2 + \gamma x_1 x_2 + \delta \,. \tag{3.82}$$

The functional equation and its zeroth term extractions are given by

$$\begin{aligned} (1 - tS)Q - c_1 Q_1^0 - c_2 Q_2^0 + c_1 c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} &= \overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 \,, \\ (1 - ta_1(\delta + \beta x_2))Q_1^0 - c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} &= \overline{a}_2 \,, \\ (1 - ta_2(\delta + \alpha x_1))Q_2^0 - c_1 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} &= \overline{a}_1 \,, \\ (1 - a_1 a_2 t\delta)Q_{1,2}^{0,0} &= 1 \,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.83}$$

This is just a linear system of four equations for the four unknowns, $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$, Q_1^0, Q_2^0 and Q, in echelon form, and solve it by back-substitution.

$$Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = \frac{1}{1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t}\,, \tag{3.84}$$

$$Q_1^0 = \frac{\overline{a}_2}{1 - t a_2 S_1^0}\left(1 + \frac{b_2}{1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t}\right) = \frac{1 - a_1 \delta t}{(1 - t a_1 S_1^0)(1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t)}\,, \tag{3.85}$$

$$Q_2^0 = \frac{\overline{a}_1}{1 - t a_1 S_2^0}\left(1 + \frac{b_1}{1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t}\right) = \frac{1 - a_2 \delta t}{(1 - t a_2 S_2^0)(1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t)}\,, \tag{3.86}$$

$$Q = \frac{1}{1 - tS}(\overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 + c_1 Q_1^0 + c_2 Q_2^0 - c_1 c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0}) \tag{3.87}$$

$$= \frac{1}{1 - tS}\left(\overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 + \frac{1}{1 - t a_1 a_2 \delta}\left(c_1 \frac{1 - a_1 \delta t}{1 - t a_1 S_1^0} + c_2 \frac{1 - a_2 \delta t}{1 - t a_2 S_2^0} - c_1 c_2\right)\right) \tag{3.88}$$

$$= \frac{1}{1 - tS}\left(\overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 + \frac{1}{1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t}(c_1 f_1(a_1, t) + c_2 f_2(a_2, t) - c_1 c_2)\right)\,. \tag{3.89}$$

Note how Q has a dependency on functions f_1 and f_2 that do not depend on one of a_1 and a_2. We shall see that the linear relation $B(FQ) = 0$ is satisfied by the function

$$F(a_1, a_2, t) = 1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t\,. \tag{3.90}$$

First,

$$\begin{aligned} B((1 - a_1 a_2 \delta t)\overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2) &= B(\overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 - t\delta) = B(\overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2) - B(t\delta) \\ &= \overline{a}_1 \overline{a}_2 - \overline{a}_2 - \overline{a}_1 + 1 = c_1 c_2\,. \end{aligned} \tag{3.91}$$

Then,

$$B(c_1 f_1 + c_2 f_2 - c_1 c_2) = c_1 f_1 + c_2 f_2 - c_1 c_2 - c_2 f_2 - c_1 f_1 = -c_2 c_2\,. \tag{3.92}$$

Putting the two quantities together, along with dividing by $1 - tS$, shows that $B(FQ) = 0$. Of course, this works for $G = Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$ too.

Example 35. Consider the model with $S = x_1 + x_2 + x_1 x_2$. Then

$$Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = 1, \quad Q_1^0 = \frac{1}{1 - t a_1 x_2}, \quad Q_2^0 = \frac{1}{1 - t a_2 x_1}\,, \tag{3.93}$$

and finally,

$$Q = \frac{1}{1-tS}\left(\overline{a}_1\overline{a}_2 + \frac{c_1}{1-ta_1x_2} + \frac{c_2}{1-ta_2x_1}\right). \tag{3.94}$$

3.6.2 Case 2.3 – Group of Order Two

In this case the functional equation and its extracted forms read as

$$\begin{aligned}
(1-tS)Q - c_1Q_1^0 - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2S_1^{-1})Q_2^0 + c_1c_2Q_{1,2}^{0,0} &= \overline{a}_1\overline{a}_2\\
(1-ta_1S_1^0)Q_1^0 - (c_2 - ta_1\overline{x}_2S_{1,2}^{0,-1})Q_{1,2}^{0,0} &= \overline{a}_2\\
(1-ta_2S_2^0)Q_2^0 - c_1Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - a_2tS_2^{-1}Q_2^1 &= \overline{a}_1\\
(1-a_1a_2tS_{1,2}^{0,0})Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - ta_1a_2S_{1,2}^{0,-1}Q_{1,2}^{0,1} &= 1\,.
\end{aligned} \tag{3.95}$$

We can identify a subproblem that is essentially one-dimensional and therefore, already solved. To see this, take the second and fourth equations, and make the substitutions $a_i = a$, $c_i = c$, $x_2 = x$, $a_1t = \tau$, $S_1^0 = T$ and $Q_1^0(x_2) = q(x)$. The equations become

$$(1-\tau T)q - (c - \tau\overline{x}T_{-1})q_0 = \overline{a}\,, \tag{3.96}$$

$$(1-a\tau T_0)q_0 - a\tau T_{-1}q_1 = 1\,, \tag{3.97}$$

where $q_0 = q(a,\tau)$. We can see that this is a one-dimensional problem again. The solution here is $q(x,a,\tau)$, obtained by the methods in the previous chapter, so the original problem has solutions

$$Q_1^0(x_2) = q(x_2, a_2, a_1t) \quad \text{and} \quad Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = q_0(a_2, a_1t)\,. \tag{3.98}$$

The reason the method worked in this case is that we have steps that keep a random walk staying on the x_2 axis, steps that take it away from the x_2, but there are no steps that let it return. This is similar to the case where a random walk leaves the x_2 axis, never to return. Essentially, the problem splits into a one-dimensional one with regards to the x_2 axis, and a further two-dimensional one the walks step off the axis. We rewrite the master equation as

$$(1-tS)Q - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2S_2^{-1})Q_2^0 = \overline{a}_1(\overline{a}_2 + b_1q - b_1c_2q_0) = \overline{a}_1\phi(x_2)\,. \tag{3.99}$$

Since $S_1^{-1} \neq 0$ and $S_2^1 \neq 0$, we have a root $x_2 = \sigma_2$ that allows us to eliminate the $(1 - tS)Q$ term. That is, we are finding a root for x_2 again, since $x = x_2$ in the previous equations. We find that

$$Q_2^0 = -\frac{\overline{a}_1 \phi(\sigma_2)}{c_2 - t\overline{\sigma}_2 S_2^{-1}} \tag{3.100}$$

and we write Q as

$$Q = \frac{1}{1 - tS}\left(\overline{a}_1 \phi(x_2) - \frac{c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-1}}{c_2 - t\overline{\sigma}_2 S_2^{-1}} \overline{a}_1 \phi(\sigma_2)\right) . \tag{3.101}$$

Of course, this can be expanded and simplified based on what q and q_0 are from the one-dimensional setting, but the important thing is that we can build the solution in this case via one-dimensional model equations.

3.6.3 Miscellaneous Case

There is one case that is easy to solve, is not reducible, but has an infinite group. Consider the case of $S = x_1 x_2 + \overline{x}_1 \overline{x}_2$. The group operations are $g_1(x_1) = \overline{x}_1 \overline{x}_2^2$ and $g_2(x_2) = \overline{x}_2 \overline{x}_1^2$. If we apply these transformations on (x_1, x_2) in an alternating sequence, each time the absolute powers of x_1 and x_2 will increase in one of the coordinates. This shows that the group $G(K)$ is infinite. However, this case is easy to solve, because the model is essentially one-dimensional. It is equivalent to the model on the non-negative line with $S = x + \overline{x}$ and marking visits to the origin with a, where $x = x_1 x_2$ and $a = a_1 a_2$. The solution is

$$Q(x_1, x_2, a_1, a_2; t) = q(x_1 x_2, a_1 a_2; t). \tag{3.102}$$

3.6.4 Counting Classes of Models

We can tally all the classes of random walk models on the quarter-plane. First, we have 64 reducible models. Then we have 5 new cases with group of order one, and 34 new cases with group of order two. Also, there are 29 models with group of order four, 6 with group of order six, and 4 with group of order eight. We also have the easy-to-solve miscellaneous case above. So far we have 143 cases of models we can solve for easily or models with a finite group, some of which w ecan solve easily. Next, by inspection of the table in ZZCITEZZ (walks w/ small steps), we see that there are 120 models with group of infinite order: 12 with three steps, 40 with four steps, 44 with five steps, and 24 with six steps. Adding all of those together yields 263 cases, so we must have over-counted. There are 7 reducible models with an infinite group. This brings the total count to 256, and we are

done.

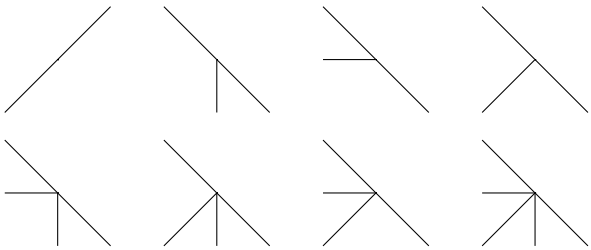


Figure 3.8: Reducible models with an infinite group.

So far we have solved the 64 reducible models, the 39 other models with group of order one or two, and the single new case of easy-to-solve model with an infinite group, for a grand total of 104 trivial or easy models. Out of the remaining 152 models, 113 have an infinite group, and their analysis will not be a part of this thesis. This leaves the 39 cases with a group of size four, six or eight. The rest of the thesis will deal wit hthe analysis of those cases.

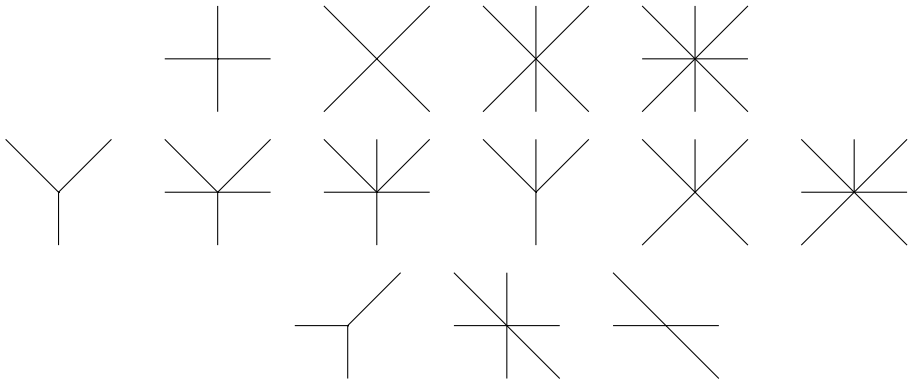


Figure 3.9: Models with group of size four, six and eight.

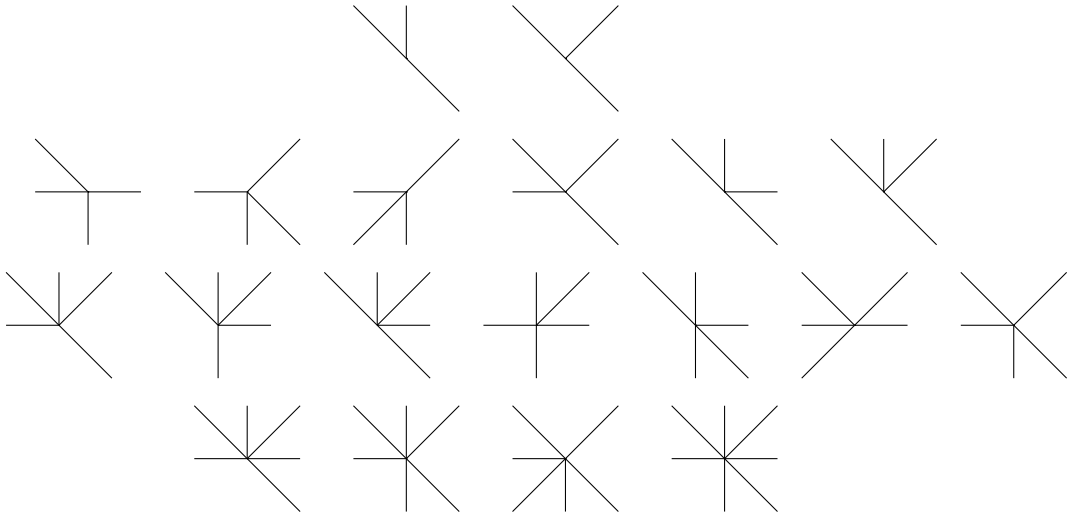


Figure 3.10: Models with an infinite group. To get the rest of them, apply one of the symmetries of the square.

Chapter 4

Random Walk Models With General Constraints

4.1 Introduction

We will push the operator notation further to see what kinds of random walk models we can handle. Some of the models have more general step sets while others are set in more complicated regions. For example, Definition 1.1 of [7] has a functional equation for the non-interacting random walks on the quarter plane, which is valid for models with $\mathcal{S}$ containing negative coordinates of size at most -1. Similarly, [11] covers walks in the quarter plane with multiple copies of small steps. We start with the following definition for a random walk model in $\mathbb{Z}^d$. Recall the definition from Chapter 1.

Definition 36. *(MOVE) Let $\mathcal{D}_0$ and $\mathcal{D}$ be regions in $\mathbb{Z}^d$, with $\mathcal{D}_0 \subseteq \mathcal{D}$, and let $\mathcal{S}$ be a set of d-tuples in $\mathbb{Z}^d$. A triple $\mathcal{M} = (\mathcal{S}, \mathcal{D}, \mathcal{D}_0)$ is a random walk model with steps $\mathcal{S}$, living in the region $\mathcal{D}$ and interacting with region $\mathcal{D}_0$. We may impose a starting location within $\mathcal{D}$ later on.*

In other words, given a starting location in $\mathcal{D}$ we can evolve random walks in the region $\mathcal{D}$ with steps from $\mathcal{S}$. We also have some special locations $\mathcal{D}_0$ within $\mathcal{D}$, and we wish to count the interactions of the random walks with points in this region. The interactions may be further specified later on.

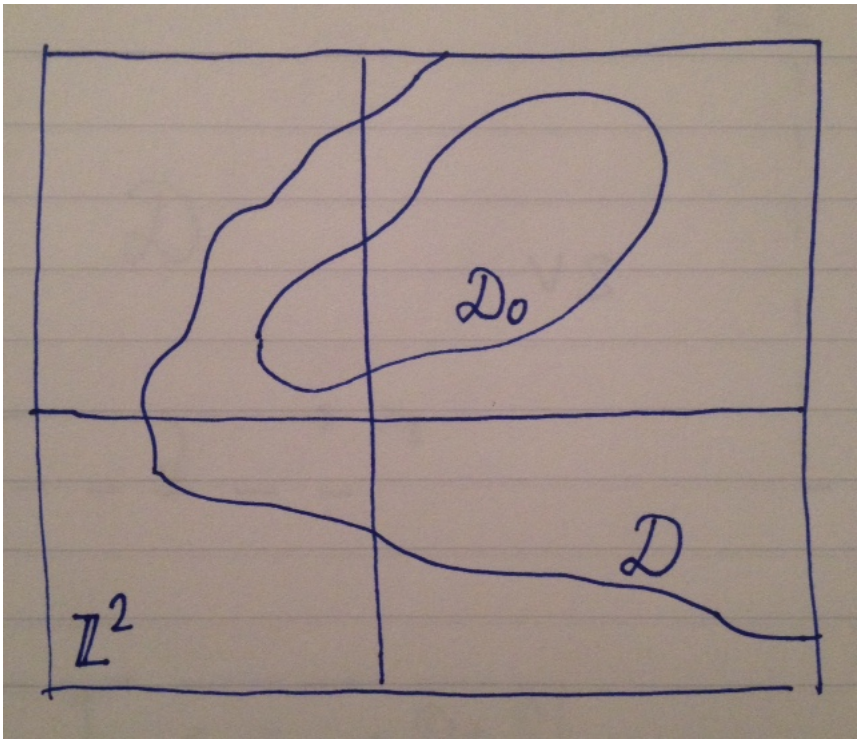


Figure 4.1: General regions in $\mathbb{Z}^2$.

For example, we may consider a semi-infinite strip on the plane as in [27], [**?**] and [28]. In [26] the author considers random walks in an octant with interactions with the diagonal.

Definition 37. *Let $\mathcal{M}$ be a random walk model and Q its associated generating function counting random walks' lengths with t, ending locations with $x_1, \ldots, x_d$, and interactions with $\mathcal{D}_0$ with some multi-index variable a. We write*

$$Q = Q(x_1, \ldots, x_d, a; t) = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} q_k(x_1, \ldots, x_d, a) t^k \,, \tag{4.1}$$

where q_k are Laurent poynomials in the x and a variables.

Definition 38. *Suppose that Γ is an operator involving the x and a variables but not t. We shall apply Γ on power series $F = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} f_k t^k$ in the following way:*

$$\Gamma F = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \Gamma(f_k) t^k \,. \tag{4.2}$$

This is to avoid problems in expanding F in Laurent series in some of the x variables.

Definition 39. *Let $\mathcal{M}$ be a given model. We denote with S the Laurent polynomial (or series) keeping inventory of the steps $\mathcal{S}$. Let $K = 1 - tS$ be the Kernel of $\mathcal{M}$. Let E be an operator that eliminates monomials $x^P_{[d]}$ when P is not in $\mathcal{D}$. Let L be an operator that marks (or labels) monomials $x^P_{[d]}$ for $P \in \mathcal{D}_0$ in a specified way in the model. Note that L is invertible with inverse L^{-1} that is given by marking with $1/a$ instead.*

This operator notation allows us to write down functional equations for Q really quickly.

Theorem 40. *Let $\mathcal{M}$ be a random walk model and Q its associated generating function with an initial term $q_0 = q$. Then Q satisfies the following functional equations*

$$(1 - tLES)Q = q \tag{4.3}$$

$$(L^{-1} - tES)Q = L^{-1}(q) = \alpha \tag{4.4}$$

Proof. The second functional equation is obtained by applying L^{-1} on the first one, so it only remains to show that the first functional equation holds. We do this via iteration. We start with Q and multiply it with tS. This gives tSQ or an enumeration of all walks extended by a single step. Here the power of t is raised by one to keep track of this extension. Then we apply E to this result to eliminate all random walks that venture outside of the region $\mathcal{D}$. Finally, we mark those walks that have arrived at locations in $\mathcal{D}_0$ by applying L to $E(tSQ)$. The resulting expression is almost Q, but one term is missing - namely, $q_0 = q$. That is, we have transformed Q to itself in a nontrivial way and we have the equation

$$Q = q + LE(tSQ) = q + tLE(SQ)\,, \tag{4.5}$$

and to complete the proof, we rewrite the equation to the form at the start of the theorem. □

Example 41. Also, we can consider a different approach where, instead of removing walks that venture outside of $\mathcal{D}$, we just mark them with some variable z for later deletion. Suppose that we are given some model $\mathcal{M}$ and we want to frame the analysis in this new way. We have a new random walk model $\widetilde{\mathcal{M}}$ with $\widetilde{\mathcal{D}} = \mathbb{Z}^d$ and $\widetilde{\mathcal{D}}_0 = \mathcal{D}_0 \cup \mathcal{D}^c$, where we mark monomials in $\mathcal{D}^c$ with z and those in $\mathcal{D}_0$ in the same way as in model $\mathcal{M}$. Here $\widetilde{E}$ is the identity operator since we do not remove any walks. We have the functional equations

$$(1 - t\widetilde{L}S)\widetilde{Q} = q\,, \tag{4.6}$$

$$(\widetilde{L}^{-1} - tS)Q = \widetilde{\alpha}\,. \tag{4.7}$$

It is not clear how one would proceed and if this would be a better way to handle the problem. The upside is that the operators are invertible, but the downside is that we now have more extracted terms in the functional equation, since the random walks can now go anywhere.

Next, we can talk about some of the abstract properties of the operators L and E. The operator E has the eigenvalues 1 or 0 for monomials $x^P_{[d]}$ where $P \in \mathcal{D}$ or $P \in \mathcal{D}^c$ respectively. The latter characterizes the monomials contained in $\ker E$. Similarly, L has eigenvalues 1 for when $P \in \mathcal{D}^c_0$, and the marking monomial a for when $P \in \mathcal{D}_0$. Here a varies from point to point. Also, L^{-1} has the reciprocal eigenvalues of L.

The task for the rest of the chapter is to come up with representations for the operators involved. In general, this should not be an easy task because if we could express arbitrary operators L and E with a small number of coefficient extractions, we would also be able to use this scheme to compress data without loss, and this is impossible in general.

4.2 Marking Operators

The example in the previous section shows that we can talk about marking operators on their own without considering operators E. Alternatively, the operators E are just marking operators that apply a label $a = 0$. Therefore, we can combine the discussions for operators L and E. Whenever invertibility is concerned, the discussion will apply to operators L only. Suppose that we wish to mark points $p \in P \subseteq \mathbb{Z}^d$ with labels a_p via an operator Γ_P. It can be written as

$$\Gamma_P = 1 + \sum_{p \in P} (a_p - 1) x^p_{[d]} [x^p_{[d]}] \,. \tag{4.8}$$

The form $a_p - 1$ follows from the fact that we have the original term and we need to remove it before marking with a_p. In the case where we mark points for deletion, $P = \mathcal{D}^c$ and $a_p = a$. In the models we have investigated so far we saw that we do not really need the whole operator but just some terms near the boundaries.

Example 42. If we consider random walks with small steps on the half-line in one dimension, we have the operator

$$E = 1 - \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \overline{x}_1^n [\overline{x}_1^n] \,, \tag{4.9}$$

but since we only have small steps, there are no walks that go past $\overline{x}_1$ in the negative direction. Therefore, we can use the operator $E' = 1 - \overline{x}_1 [\overline{x}_1]$ to the same effect instead. Although the

operators are different in form, they are essentially the same with regards to the problem at hand. We say they are model-equivalent.

To make things easier, we may think of the random walk models as living completely within the sumset $\mathcal{S} + \mathcal{D}$ of points that are combinations of points in $\mathcal{D}$ and steps $\mathcal{S}$. This is how far walks from the model can reach from within $\mathcal{D}$ by taking a single step.

Definition 43. *Given sets A and B, we let their sumset be*

$$A + B = \{a + b \,|\, a \in A,\, b \in B\}\,. \tag{4.10}$$

Definition 44. *Given a random walk model $\mathcal{M}$ with domain $\mathcal{D}$ and step set $\mathcal{S}$, define the reach of model $\mathcal{M}$ to be the sumset $\mathcal{D} + \mathcal{S}$.*

With this in mind, we can define a notion of equivalence for operators.

Definition 45. *Let $\mathcal{M}$ be a random walk model in $\mathbb{Z}^d$ and let Γ and Γ' be two operators acting on $\mathbb{Z}^d$. Then $\Gamma \equiv_{\mathcal{M}} \Gamma'$ if and only if Γ and Γ' act identically on monomials from the reach of $\mathcal{M}$. That is, we call these operators model-equivalent if and only if $\Gamma x^P = \Gamma' x^P$ for all $P \in \mathcal{D} + \mathcal{S}$.*

In the preceding example $E \equiv E'$ since they act the same way on monomials from the reach of $\mathcal{M}$, that is, monomials x_1^n for $n \geqslant$ -1. Similarly, in the two-dimensional problem we have an equivalence between the operator E and the operator $E' = (1 - \overline{x}_1[\overline{x}_1])(1 - \overline{x}_2[\overline{x}_2])$.

$$\Gamma = 1 + (a-1)\sum_{k=1}^{\infty} \overline{x}^k[\overline{x}^k] = 1 + (a-1)\sum_{k=1}^{n} \overline{x}^k[\overline{x}^k] \tag{4.11}$$

When the boundary of $\mathcal{D}$ is complicated, we may not find nice model-equivalent operators, but there are some cases where we can say something. In problems featuring half-planes, we have an operator E with infinitely many terms, and we find that there is a model-equivalent operator E' that is only comprised of finitely many terms. We will investigate which operators are equivalent to finite ones.

Definition 46. *Given a model $\mathcal{M}$, a coefficient extraction operator Γ in the variables $x_1, \ldots, x_d$ is finite if it is equivalent to an operator Γ' comprised of finitely many coefficient extraction terms. That is,*

$$\Gamma \equiv_{\mathcal{M}} \Gamma' = \sum_{\substack{I \subseteq [d] \\ J \subseteq \mathbb{Z}^d}} a_{I,J} x_I^J [x_I^J] \tag{4.12}$$

where each $|J| < \infty$. Also, Γ' is infinite if it is not of finite.

For most purposes we will not distinguish between Γ and Γ'. A natural question is to consider which models $\mathcal{M}$ lead to finite operators. This very much depends on the region $\mathcal{D}$ and the nature of the marking of region $\mathcal{D}_0$. We have some cases where it is easy to say.

Lemma 47. *Let $\mathcal{D}$ be a d-dimensional box in $\mathbb{Z}^d$ and $|\mathcal{S}| < \infty$. Then the operator $\Gamma = LE$ is finite.*

Proof. The operator L is finite since it only needs to mark finitely many points. We can find E explicitly. Let the box have x_k coordinates $[a_k, b_k]$. Suppose that the steps in $\mathcal{S}$ have x_k coordinates of absolute size at most n_k. If $n_k = 0$, the walks do not change their x_k coordinate and the walks do not venture past the boundaries in that coordinate. When $n_k > 0$ we need to remove all monomials x^P with $P_k \in [a_k - n_k, a_k - 1] \cup [b_k + 1, b_k + n_k]$.

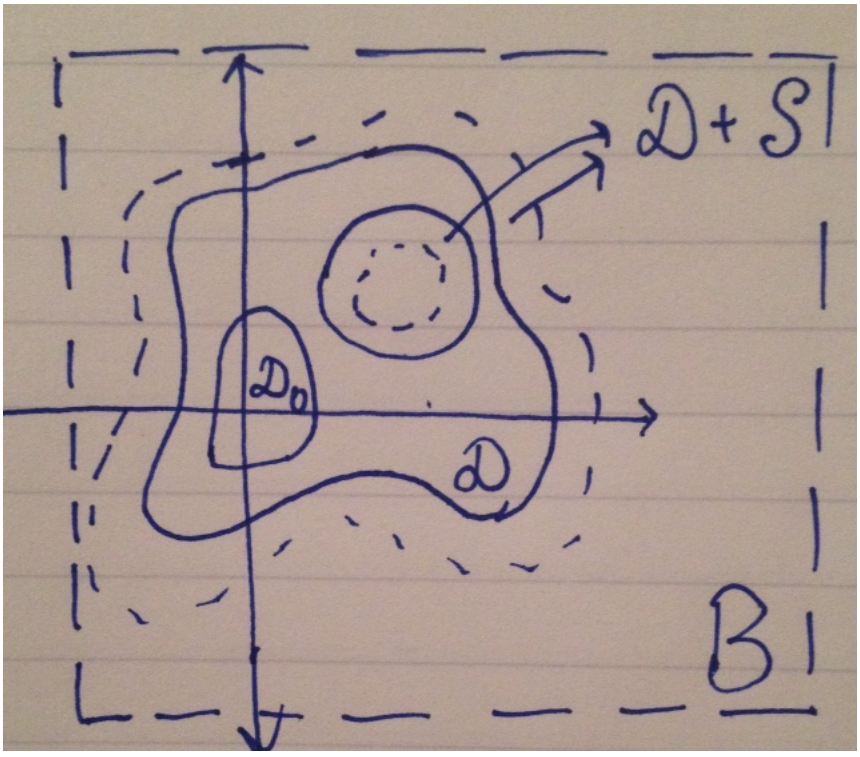


Figure 4.2: Finite region enclosed in box B.

We can then write the operator as

$$E_k = 1 - \sum_{j=1}^{n_k} x_k^{a_k - j}[x_k^{a_k - j}] + x_k^{b_k + j}[x_k^{b_k + j}], \tag{4.13}$$

which is equal to $E_k = 1$ when $n = 0$. Applying $E_1, \ldots, E_d$ sequentially ensures that we remove

all monomials outside of $\mathcal{D}$. That is, $E = E_1 \cdots E_d$. Since each of the operators is finite, their composition $\Gamma = LE$ is finite as well. □

Theorem 48. *Let $\mathcal{D}$ be a finite region in $\mathbb{Z}^d$ and $|\mathcal{S}| < \infty$. Then the operator $\Gamma = LE$ is finite.*

Proof. The region $\mathcal{D}$ lies within a bounding box B, so we may write $E = E'E''$, where $E' = E_1 \cdots E_d$ from the lemma and E'' is the operator removing all monomials outside of $\mathcal{D}$ but inside the interior of B. E'' is finite since there are only finitely many points in that region. Since we are marking only finitely many points $\mathcal{D}_0 \subseteq \mathcal{D}$, L is finite, and finally, Γ is finite. □

Also, we may handle semi-infinite regions if we are only marking finitely many points $\mathcal{D}_0$. The analysis is the same as above except that now one or more of a_k, b_k may be infinite, and in this case we actually lose parts of Γ_{B^c} and the operator is still finite.

Definition 49. *A random walk model with finitely many steps is finite if its extraction and marking operators E and L are finite, and its starting condition q has a finite degree. Otherwise, we say the model is infinite.*

Example 50. All the models so far has been finite, but not all models are finite. Consider a one-dimensional model on the whole line where we mark points x_1^i with monomials a_i using operator L. Then all equivalent marking operators L' would have to have a term like $(a_i - 1)x_1^i[x_1^i]$; otherwise, it would not act the same way on monomials in the model's reach $\mathbb{Z}$. Therefore, L is not equivalent to a finite operator.

Finite models are nicer because they have functional equations with finitely many terms and there is a chance that they will be amenable to the sort of analysis we have performed for quarter-plane walk models in the past. What follows is a rather easy application of the theory so far.

4.3 Kernel Forms

We can write out the functional equations in a way that highlights the kernel K in the equation. We start out as follows

$$(1 - tLES)Q = 1 \tag{4.14}$$

$$(1 - t(LE - 1 + 1)S)Q = 1 \tag{4.15}$$

$$KQ + t(1 - LE)SQ = 1\,. \tag{4.16}$$

This is the form we see in the master functional equation. Another way we could have expanded is as follows

$$\begin{aligned}(1-tLES)Q &= 1\\ (1+LE(1-tS-1))Q &= 1\\ LEKQ+(1-LE)Q &= 1\\ LEKQ+(1-L)Q &= 1\end{aligned} \tag{4.17}$$

where $EQ = Q$ since Q is already of a valid form. We can go with both ways at the same time as well.

$$\begin{aligned}KQ+t(1-LE)SQ &= 1\\ KQ+(1-LE)(1-tS-1)Q &= 1\\ KQ+(1-LE)KQ-(1-L)Q &= 1\,.\end{aligned} \tag{4.18}$$

We can apply the inverse L^{-1} to those equations too, in particular on the second one.

$$L^{-1}(LEKQ+(1-LE)Q) = 1 \tag{4.19}$$

The second form of the functional equation involving L^{-1} should have less terms than the first one by virtue of separating L and E from one another. Using extraction operators, we can constrain random walks to lie within a finite region, semi-infinite strip, a semi-infinite sector or any other discrete shape (with diminishing returns for more complicated shapes, of course). Furthermore, using marking operators, we can easily track the behavior of random walks as they cross or interact with boundaries or interact with regions within. For example, we may consider walks interacting with the boundary of a box within some region in space.

4.4 Examples of Regions

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Example 51 (Self-avoiding walks)**.** We can handle discrete self-avoiding random walks with this theory. If we pick a marking operator Γ that marks every location on the plane, this will allow us to track the random walks' history. All we need to do in the end is remove walks that have stepped at some location more than once. However, we will investigate this problem in a bit more detail as it serves as an example of the theory. To use the generating function iteration properly we need a sort

of limiting argument. For the first n steps we "only" require an operator covering the square region of $(2n+1)^2$ lattice points. The overall operator is defined through a limiting process of applying the full operator (or truncated version) on a finite Laurent polynomial. Let

$$\Gamma_{i,j} = 1 + b_{i,j} x_1^i x_2^j [x_1^i x_2^j] \tag{4.20}$$

where as usual $b_{i,j} = a_{i,j} - 1$. This operator takes a generating function and marks the monomial $x_1^i x_2^j$. We will be using a lot of these together, so we let

$$\Gamma_n = \prod_{-n \leqslant i,j \leqslant n} \Gamma_{i,j} \tag{4.21}$$

To find a functional equation for SAWs on the plane we perform an iteration. Let Q be the generating function for walks with history, that is, they have a mark for each coordinate they pass through, and let $Q^{\leqslant n}$ be the truncated version of this generating function. It is given by

$$Q^{\leqslant n} = \sum_{k=0}^{n} Q_k t^k \tag{4.22}$$

where the initial condition is $Q_0 = a_{0,0}$. Starting from Q_n we can find Q_{n+1} by iterating with the step set S, marking with Γ_{n+1} as follows

$$Q_{n+1} = \Gamma_{n+1} S Q_n \tag{4.23}$$

Using a computer we can easily iterate this to add more and more steps. We can also obtain $Q^{\leqslant n+1}$ from $Q^{\leqslant n}$ since

$$t\Gamma_{n+1} S Q^{\leqslant n} = \sum_{k=0}^{n} \Gamma_{n+1} S Q_k t^{k+1} = \sum_{k=0}^{n} \Gamma_{k+1} S Q_k t^{k+1} = \sum_{k=0}^{n} Q_{k+1} t^{k+1} = Q^{\leqslant n+1} - Q_0 \tag{4.24}$$

or in other words

$$Q^{\leqslant n+1} = a_{0,0} + t\Gamma_{n+1} S Q^{\leqslant n} \tag{4.25}$$

In the interest of finding a functional equation we would like to take the limiit of this as $n \to \infty$.

For this we define Γ to be the operator marking all monomials $x_1^i x_2^j$, acting in the following way

$$\Gamma x^i y^j = \Gamma_{\max(|i|,|j|)} x^i y^j \tag{4.26}$$

and extended by linearity. The limiting process is

$$Q = a_{0,0} + t\Gamma S Q \tag{4.27}$$

We finally have the functional equation for random walks with full history

$$(1 - t\Gamma S)Q = a_{0,0}. \tag{4.28}$$

As in the example of an infinte marking operator, it stands to reason that Γ is of infinite type as well. From the equation we can retrieve the generating function W for the SAWs by removing all walks with power of mark $a_{i,j}$ greater than 1. For this we need an operator that removes terms with more than one copy of a given label. Let

$$R_{i,j} = a^0_{i,j}[a^0_{i,j}] + a_{i,j}[a_{i,j}] \tag{4.29}$$

$$R_n = \prod_{-n \leqslant i,j \leqslant n} R_{i,j} \tag{4.30}$$

$$R = \lim_{n \to \infty} R_n \tag{4.31}$$

where the limit is understood as in the example of Γ above. The solution for Q can also be restated as

$$Q = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma S)^k (a_{0,0}) = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (\Gamma_k S)^k (a_{0,0}) \tag{4.32}$$

We can either redo the analysis, applying R at every iteration, or we can apply R to Q and find

$$W = RQ = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k R(\Gamma S)^k (a_{0,0}) = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} t^k (R\Gamma S)^k (a_{0,0}) \tag{4.33}$$

We can write this as a functional equation

$$\mathcal{L}W = (1 - t\Sigma)W = (1 - tR\Gamma S)W = a_{0,0}. \tag{4.34}$$

It is not clear if the operator $R\Gamma$ is finite. Now it is enough to set all the remaining labels to 1 and

we will find the full generating function of SAWs with steps from $\mathcal{S}$.

The discussion lends itself nicely to generalization where we have d variables and operators $\Gamma_{i_1,\ldots,l_d}$, $R_{i_1,\ldots,i_d}$, and so on, defined analogously. The eigenpair discussion works out in the same way with eigenfunctions for $\lambda = 1$

$$u = \frac{a^2_{i_1,\ldots,i_d} a^m_{j_1,\ldots,j_d}}{a_{k_1,\ldots,k_d} S} x_1^{r_1} \cdots x_d^{r_d} t^n \tag{4.35}$$

Also, we can constrain the SAWs on a part of $\mathbb{Z}^d$ with an extraction operator E and mark special locations with an operator L. The functional equation is

$$(1 - tLE\Sigma)W = a_{0,\ldots,0} \tag{4.36}$$

for arbitrary number of dimensions, with regional constraints and marking of special locations.

4.5 Further Research Directions

So far we have explored using operators to simplify the derivation of functional equations pertaining to random walk models on $\mathbb{Z}^d$, and to simplify the first steps in solutions to these problems. It would be great to know if we can further extend the work into a territory like Sturm-Liouville theory, where we may investigate the spectra of operators and find alternative solutions to the functional equations via eigenfunction expansions. For this to work, we need a suitable inner product that will allow us to answer questions like are the operators self-adjoint. Unfortunately, we have not found such suitable inner products apart from those on symmetric functions. While they seem promising, we have not been able to go far enough with them. In this chapter we will provide the start of such analysis which may be continued in future research.

The operators we have seen so far are marking operators, like L and E, in combination of multiplication by another function, like ΓS, or a combination of operators, like $L^{-1} - tES$. In this order, we will find out their properties - eigenvalues, eigenvectors, kernels and invertibility.

4.5.1 Marking Operators

The building block of the operators are coefficient extractions $[x_I^J]$ and term extractions $x_I^J[x_I^J]$. We will use the following notation for brevity.

Definition 52. *(MOVE) For sets I and J of equal size, we define the term extraction operator*

$$[[x_I^J]] \equiv x_I^J[x_I^J]\,. \tag{4.37}$$

The first question we will answer is what happens when we compose term extraction operators. Suppose that we want to perform the extractions with monomials x_I^P and x_J^Q. Then the composition contains three extractions - one for the x powers appearing in x_I^P but not in x_J^Q, one for the reversed situation, and one for the common terms between the two monomials. However, the resulting composition will be the zero operator if the power sequences for the common variables do not match.

Example 53. We compute

$$[[x_{1,2}^{3,4}]][[x_{2,3}^{4,1}]] = [[x_{1,2,3}^{3,4,1}]] \tag{4.38}$$

and

$$[[x_{1,2}^{3,2}]][[x_{2,3}^{4,1}]] = 0\,. \tag{4.39}$$

The next highly-technical lemma makes the composition precise.

Lemma 54. *(REWRITE) Let I, J, P, Q be sets and $K = I \cap J$, $I' = I\backslash K$, $J' = J\backslash K$. Then let $P' = P|_{I'}$, $Q' = Q|_{J'}$ and $P'' = P\backslash P'$, $Q'' = Q\backslash Q'$. The composition of two term extractions is*

$$[[x_I^P]][[x_J^Q]] = \delta(P'', Q'')[[x_{I'}^{P'} x_{J'}^{Q'} x_K^{P''}]]\,. \tag{4.40}$$

That is, the resulting operator is zero if the power sequences P and Q do not match over the variables common to the two extractions. Furthermore, the two term extraction operators commute.

Combinatorially speaking, if a marking operator marks several different monomials, we may express this operator as a product of marking operators, each marking a single monomial. We can make this notion precise with the algebraic form of the marking operators.

Definition 55. *The operator Γ marking a monomial x_I^J with label "a" is given by*

$$\Gamma = 1 + (a-1)x_I^J[x_I^J] = 1 + b[[x_I^J]]\,. \tag{4.41}$$

A finite marking operator is one that marks finitely-many monomials. An infinite marking operator is one that is not finite.

Lemma 56. *Let α and β be the labels for two different monomials x_I^P and x_J^Q marked by Γ. Then*

$$\Gamma = 1 + (\alpha-1)[[x_I^P]] + (\beta-1)[[x_J^Q]] = (1 + (\alpha-1)[[x_I^P]])(1 + (\beta-1)[[x_J^Q]])\,. \tag{4.42}$$

Corollary 57. *Marking operators commute.*

Proof. This can be seen from their combinatorial nature. Since multiplication is commutative and the marking is done via multiplication, the order of applying the marking operators does not matter. Algebraically, this is a consequence of the commutativity the term extraction operators. □

Combinatorially speaking, we can easily find some of the eigenvalues and eigenfunctions by looking at single monomials. If a monomial is not marked by Γ, then it is an eigenfunction with eigenvalue 1, since Γ does not change it; if it is, then it is an eigenfunction with eigenvalue equal to the label given by Γ. These are all the polynomial eigenfunctions. This does not mean there cannot be more eigenfunctions among those expressible by power/Laurent series and beyond.

Proposition 58. *Let Γ be an operator marking a single monomial x_I^J with label a. Let λ and u_λ be an eigenpair. Then $\lambda = a$ with $u_\lambda = x_I^J$, or $\lambda = 1$ with u_λ a function not containing x_I^J, in the formal power series sense. In particular, every monomial other than x_I^J is an eigenfunction with eigenvalue 1.*

Proof. Let $u_\lambda = u' + u''x_I^J$ where $u \neq 0$ and u'' does not share variables with x_I^J. Then

$$\Gamma(u) = u' + au''x_I^J = \lambda(u' + u''x_I^J)\,, \tag{4.43}$$

which we may write as

$$(1-\lambda)u' + (a-\lambda)u''x_I^J = 0\,. \tag{4.44}$$

We have two cases.

- If $u' = 0$, then $u'' \neq 0$ and $\lambda = a$. The eigenfunction is x_I^J.
- If $u' \neq 0$ and there is no term in $u''x_I^J$ that can compesate for this, then $\lambda = 1$ and $u'' = 0$.

□

Corollary 59. *The kernel of a finite marking operator Γ is generated by the monomials marked with label 0.*

The proofs can be extended for finite marking operators. It is not entirely clear how we may prove a similar result for operators marking infinitely many monomials.

4.5.2 Marking Operators With Multiplication

We call an operator inhomogeneous if it consists of a homogeneous operator Γ and a (possibly infinite) laurent polynomial S, and acts in one of the following ways

$$\Gamma S(u) = \Gamma(Su) \quad \text{or} \quad S\,\Gamma u = S \cdot \Gamma u\,. \tag{4.45}$$

This kind of operator is important because it can be found in the functional equations for random walk models. To find their eigenpairs, we first show that the definitions are mostly equivalent.

Proposition 60. *The two operators ΓS and $S\,\Gamma$ have the same eigenvalues with eigenfunctions differing by a multiple of S. That is, (λ, u) is an eigenpair for ΓS if and only if (λ, Su) is an eigenpair for $S\,\Gamma$. In particular, if $\lambda = 0$, we have*

$$\ker(\Gamma S) = \overline{S}\ker(\Gamma)\,. \tag{4.46}$$

Proof. Note that

$$\Gamma Su = \lambda u \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad S\,\Gamma(Su) = \lambda(Su)\,. \tag{4.47}$$

Therefore, the operators have the same eigenvalues, and they have the eigenfunctions u and Su respectively. Now, if we pick $\lambda = 0$ to find the kernels of the operators, we find that $u \in \ker(\Gamma S)$ if and only if $Su \in \ker(S\,\Gamma) = \ker(\Gamma)$, and this completes the proof. □

As the next example shows, it may not be easy to find the eigenpairs for such operators.

Example 61. Let Γ be a marking operator and let u be an eigenfunction of ΓS, where

$$S = x\,, \quad u = \sum_k u_k x^k\,. \tag{4.48}$$

Computing $(\Gamma S - \lambda I)u$ leads to the system of equations

$$\lambda u_n = a u_{n-1}\,, \tag{4.49}$$

$$\lambda u_k = u_{k-1}, \quad \text{if } k \neq n\,. \tag{4.50}$$

We have a doubly-infinite recursion, so we can pick an arbitrary initial condition. If $u_n = 0$, the rest of the terms will be zero as well, so we must have $u_n \neq 0$. Set $u_n = 1$. Then, via induction, we

can find

$$u_{n+k} = 1/\lambda^k, \quad \text{for } k \geqslant 0\,, \tag{4.51}$$

$$u_{n-k} = \lambda^k/a^k, \quad \text{for } k \geqslant 1\,; \tag{4.52}$$

therefore, we have an eigenfunction for each $\lambda \neq 0$. Computing $u(x)$ formally leads to

$$u(x) = -\frac{\lambda b x^{n+1}}{(\lambda - x)(\lambda - ax)}\,. \tag{4.53}$$

The situation becomes more complicated for more complicated functions S.

4.5.3 Random Walks Operator

In this section we explore the operator $\mathcal{L} = 1 - t\Gamma S$ for a step Laurent polynomial S and some marking operator Γ. Let (u, λ) be an eigenpair for $\mathcal{L}$. Then we calculate

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathcal{L} - \lambda I)u &= u - \lambda u - t\Gamma S u \\ t\Gamma S u &= (1-\lambda)u = \mu u\,. \end{aligned} \tag{4.54}$$

If $\lambda = 1$, we would have to compute the kernel of ΓS, which we did in the previous section. The eigenfunctions of $\mathcal{L}$ for eigenvalue $\lambda = 1$ are the functions $u \in \overline{S}\ker\Gamma$. Let u be given by a finite order Laurent series

$$u = u_n t^n + u_{n+1} t^{n+1} + \cdots\,, \tag{4.55}$$

where $u_n \neq 0$. Then we can rewrite the functional equation as

$$t^{-n}(1 - t\Gamma S)u = \lambda t^{-n} u \tag{4.56}$$

$$(\lambda - 1)t^{-n}u = -t^{1-n}\Gamma S u\,. \tag{4.57}$$

Letting $t \to 0$ in this equation yields

$$(\lambda - 1)u_n = -\lim_{t\to 0} t^{1-n}\Gamma S u = -\Gamma S \lim_{t\to 0}(t^{1-n}u) = 0\,. \tag{4.58}$$

Since $u_n \neq 0$, this implies $\lambda = 1$, and again we see that $u \in \overline{S}\ker\Gamma$. Since S is a Laurent polynomial, the resulting functions will indeed be finite order Laurent series. This analysis shows that the only eigenfunctions of $\mathcal{L}$ among finite order Laurent series in t are those that are members

of $\overline{S}\ker\Gamma$ with eigenvalue $\lambda = 1$.

Example 62. Let $\Gamma = LE$ in the one-dimensional problem with small steps on the non-negative line with nontrivial operator E. Then $\ker\Gamma = \ker E$ consists of functions $\alpha(t)\overline{x}$, and the eigenfunctions of $\mathcal{L}$ are $\alpha(t)\overline{x}\overline{S}$ for various $\alpha(t)$. In our case, we only look at finite order Laurent series of $\alpha(t)$. Note that (?)

$$Q = \frac{t(\overline{x} - \overline{\sigma})}{(1 - tS)(b - a\overline{\sigma}t)} = \frac{1}{xS}\frac{\sigma - x}{b\sigma - at}\frac{tS}{1 - tS} \tag{4.59}$$

where we may write

$$\frac{\sigma - x}{b\sigma - at} = \alpha(t) + \beta(t)x \tag{4.60}$$

where $\alpha(t)$ and $\beta(t)$ are algebraic functions of t and a since $\sigma = \sigma(t)$. This at least suggests the possibility of connecting the eigenfunctions of $\mathcal{L}$ to the solution Q.

If we are to have a theory similar to Sturm-Liouville theory, we still need to find a suitable inner product on multivariate Laurent series that will allow us to write solutions for Q in terms of those eigenfunctions with eigenvalue 1.

Chapter 5

The Algebraic Kernel Method

We will explore the algebraic kernel method as seen in [18] with extensions to interacting random walk models.

5.1 Non-interacting Models

5.1.1 Walks With Small Steps

At the core of the Algebraic Kernel method we have the idea that we can apply group actions from G onto the master functional equation and acquire nontrivially different equations for each $g \in G$. After we sum these equations in a nice way, we manage to eliminate the functions Q_1^0, Q_2^0 and $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$ and their orbits, only leaving the orbit of the kernel term KQ and a term on the right-hand side. What makes this possible is pre-multiplying the whole equation by x_1x_2. This also works in higher dimensions as we will show later. Although the generalization has been done before (for example, page 11 of [8] for the two-dimensional case and page 10 of [18] for the three-dimensional one) we will present it in a compact and easy-to-generalize way. Instead of thinking just in terms of equations and summing them as in [8], we will encapsulate the process in an operator D_G that will take the functional equation and eliminate the terms we do not want by applying the group actions in a nice way. We start by defining D_G so as to do the same thing as in [8] and [18] in order to formalize the process.

Definition 63. *Let G be a group represented and generated by g_k's preserving the kernel K for a model for small steps. Then let D_G be the operator defined as*

$$D_G = \sum_{g \in G} (-1)^{|g|} g \tag{5.1}$$

in the sense of group actions. Here $|g|$ is the sign of the group element g.

In two dimensions we can find the whole group by iterating over the two generators 1, g_i, $g_j g_i$, $g_i g_j g_i$. It is cleaner to write g_{iji} instead of $g_i g_j g_i$, so we have the following notation.

Definition 64. *For a sequence $L = (l_1, l_2, \ldots)$ of positive integers, define*

$$g_L = g_{l_1 l_2 \ldots} = g_{l_1} g_{l_2} \cdots \tag{5.2}$$

whenever this makes sense - when the list is finite or when there is a convergence in the case of an infinite list.

In the case of a finite group in two dimensions we have $(g_1 g_2)^n = 1$ for some minimal n. This allows us to rewrite D_G in a useful way. The following lemma is just a restatement of the orbit sum method on page 11 of [8] but in operator notation.

Lemma 65. *For a two-dimensional random walk model with small steps possessing a finite group of order $2n$ and generators g_1 and g_2, we can write the operator D_G as*

$$D_G = (1 + g_{ij} + \cdots + (g_{ij})^{n-1})(1 - g_i)\,. \tag{5.3}$$

Proof. We can just check the identity by expanding it as

$$\begin{aligned} D_G &= (1 + g_{ij} + \cdots + (g_{ij})^{n-1})(1 - g_i) \\ &= 1 - g_i + g_{ij} - g_{iji} + \cdots - (g_{ij})^{n-1} g_i \end{aligned} \tag{5.4}$$

giving us one of the possible orbits □

Here are some examples of small groups.

Example 66. When $|G| = 4$ the elements commute, so the orbit is $\{1, g_1, g_{12} = g_{21}, g_2\}$, and the operator is

$$D_G = 1 - g_1 - g_2 + g_{12} = (1 - g_1)(1 - g_2)\,. \tag{5.5}$$

When $|G| = 6$ the orbit is $\{1, g_1, g_{21}, g_{121} = g_{212}, g_{12}, g_2\}$. We can write the operator as

$$\begin{aligned} D_G &= (1 + g_{12} + g_{1212})(1 - g_1) \\ &= 1 + g_{12} + g_{1212} - g_1 - g_{121} - g_{12121} \\ &= 1 - g_1 - g_2 + g_{12} + g_{21} - g_{121}\,. \end{aligned} \tag{5.6}$$

We can generalize the lemma for a multidimensional group G.

Lemma 67. *Let $\mathcal{M}$ be a random walk model with small steps in $\mathbb{Z}^d$, and let G be its asociated group. For a subgroup H of G and a nontrivial generator g_k of G, we have $D_G = D_H(1 - g_k)$.*

Proof. Simpler proof: each element in the fixed representation of G either ends in g_k or does not. We have a bijection between the two sets by using the involution g_k applied on the right. The elements ending in g_k have opposite parity to those not ending on g_k, so we can split G into two parts H and Hg_k. We can split the defining sum into two parts and keep track of the sign changes via $e_g = (-1)^{|g|}$. We have

$$\begin{aligned} D_G &= \sum_{g \in H} e_g g + \sum_{g \in Hg_k} e_g g \\ &= \sum_{g \in H} e_g g + \sum_{g \in H} (-1) e_g g g_k \\ &= \left(\sum_{g \in H} e_g g \right) (1 - g_k) \\ &= D_H(1 - g_k)\,. \end{aligned} \tag{5.7}$$

(PROOF) Take $H = G/\langle g_k \rangle$. Since g_k is of order 2, the resulting group has $|G|/2$ elements. Consider the elements of G that commute with g_k, that is, $h \in G$ where $g_k h = h g_k$. Multiplying by $g_k^{-1} = g_k$ we see that $h = g_k h g_k$. Let H be the subgroup of G generated by those elements. There are two cosets H and Hg_k. □

Lemma 68. *If I is a nonempty subset of $\{1, \ldots, d\}$, then the operator D_G eliminates the term $tS_I^{-\mathbb{1}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}}$.*

Proof. By the previous lemma, for some $i \in I$,

$$D_G(tS_I^{-\mathbb{1}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}}) = D_H((1 - g_i) tS_I^{-\mathbb{1}} Q_I^{\mathbb{0}})) = D_H(0) = 0\,, \tag{5.8}$$

since the variable x_i is not present in the function. □

We acquire the d-dimensional generalization to Proposition 5 in [8].

Theorem 69. *For a d-dimensional random walk model with small steps, we have*

$$D_G(x_1 \cdots x_d K Q) = D_G(x_1 \cdots x_d)\,, \tag{5.9}$$

where the right-hand side may be zero sometimes.

Proof. When we multiply the master functional equation by $x_1 \cdots x_d$, we acquire a lot of terms like the ones in the lemma. The only term that survives the application of D_G on the left-hand side is $x_1 \cdots x_d KQ$, and the equality follows. □

This is a generalization of the orbit summation found in [15]. The authors in [8] and [18] have found that sometimes the algebraic kernel method fails. That is, $D_G(x_1 \cdots x_d) = 0$ and the equation does not give us new information. We can generalize this as follows.

Corollary 70. *Suppose that there is a group element $h \in G$ with odd parity that permutes the variables $x_1, \ldots, x_d$ and has order 2. Then the regular Algebraic Kernel method fails. That is,*

$$D_G(x_1 \cdots x_d KQ) = 0\,. \tag{5.10}$$

Proof. Since h is an involution, the same method applies as before and we can factor $D_G = D_H(1-h)$ for some $H \subseteq G$. The action $1 - h$ eliminates the monomial $x_1 \cdots x_d$. □

Example 71. The two-dimensional models for which the algebraic kernel method fails are precisely those where we have a permutation as in the corollary. That is, $h(x_1, x_2) = h(x_2, x_1)$ and h has order three. Proposition 6 in [8] follows.

Example 72. In three dimensions and models with at most 6 steps we see that the algebraic kernel method fails in 62 three-dimensional models (page 13 of [18]). For example, there is a model with group size 12 for which the algebraic kernel method fails. For that model, one of the group element is a permutation of two of the variables - in that case x_2 and x_3. Strangely enough, G contain the group seen in the previous example for the variables x_2 and x_3. This means that every higher-dimensional model that has group G, containing the group above, will fail in the regular Algebraic Kernel method.

A natural question is to consider taking D_H instead of $D_G = D_H(1 - h)$ and checking if we can perfom a half-orbit summation in general. The answer is yes. The operatro D_H eliminates some of the Q variables and introduces others, but the result is a function symmetric under permutation by h. One may hope to perform a method analogous to the half-orbit summation method to prove algebraicity or D-finiteness.

Example 73. There is another way we can prove that D_G does what it advertises. We start with the kernel form $EKQ = 1$ where we make the substitution $Q = W/(x_1 \cdots x_d K)$ and rewrite the equation as

$$E'W = x_1 \cdots x_d, \qquad E'_k = 1 - [x_k^0]\,. \tag{5.11}$$

Therefore,

$$W = x_1 \cdots x_d - (1 - E')W = x_1 \cdots x_d - \sum_{\varnothing \neq I \subseteq [d]} W_I^{\mathbb{0}} \,. \tag{5.12}$$

We immediately see that

$$\begin{aligned} D_G(x_1 \cdots x_d KQ) = D_G(W) &= D_G\left(x_1 \cdots x_d - \sum_{\varnothing \neq I \subseteq [d]} W_I^{\mathbb{0}} \right) \\ &= D_G(x_1 \cdots x_d) \end{aligned} \tag{5.13}$$

since the $W_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ terms have missing variables. Let us think about this for a moment. The form of W is the same for all random walk models with small steps so, if there are two models whose operators both annihilate expressions of the form $W_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ for all nonempty $I \subseteq [d]$, then both models have equations of the above type with each other's operators! In particular, we may take the group G of the highly-symmetric models and apply it via the operator D_G, for another model, and we retrieve an equation of the above type. We will look into this further.

Definition 74. *Let $g_k(x_k) = \overline{x}_k$. Define the operator $\Delta_k = 1 - g_k$ for this specific g_k. Let $\Delta = \Delta_1 \cdots \Delta_d$.*

Theorem 75. *Let G be the group generated by $g_k(x_k) = \overline{x}_k$ for $1 \leqslant k \leqslant d$. Then we have $D_G = \Delta$ and*

$$\Delta(x_1 \cdots x_d KQ) = \Delta(x_1 \cdots x_d) = (x_1 - \overline{x}_1) \cdots (x_d - \overline{x}_d) \tag{5.14}$$

for all d-dimensional non-interacting random walk models with small steps in the positive orthant.

Proof. It is enough to see that Δ annihilates terms of the form $W_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ for $I \neq \varnothing$. Since the operators Δ_k commute, we only need to apply one Δ_i for some i first, and find

$$\Delta_i(W_I^{\mathbb{0}}) = W_I^{\mathbb{0}} - g_i(W_I^{\mathbb{0}}) = 0 \tag{5.15}$$

since the term is missing variable x_i. The rest follows by linearity. □

This will not help to show a specific model has a D-finite solution because, in general, we cannot factor out the K term from the left-hand side. However, the idea is important.

Corollary 76. *All random walk models of dimension d satisfy the functional equation*

$$E'(x_1 \cdots x_d KQ) = x_1 \cdots x_d \,. \tag{5.16}$$

Therefore, the only difference between the models is in the initial conditions that go with this functional equation.

We will extend these ideas in the next section, but first, we will look into generalizing the ideas involved in the algebraic kernel method.

Definition 77. *Let G be a group acting on $x_1, \ldots, x_d$. Then we define a weighted orbit summation operator to be an operator of the form*

$$D = \sum_{g \in G} R_g g \,, \tag{5.17}$$

where R_g are functions in the variables $x_1, \ldots, x_d$.

The orbit summation operator is an example of this with $R'_g = 1$ for the groups considered so far. A first view of this kind of operator can be seen on page 11 of [**?**] where the authors use an orbit summation with weights. We can capture various strategies in this notation

Example 78. Since the Algebraic Kernel method fails to give a nice result when G contains permutations, we may try to apply the operator D_G on a slightly different equation - one where we multiply the whole equation by a function $T \neq x_1 \cdots x_d$. For a function f we have

$$D_G(Tf) = \sum_{g \in G} g(Tf) = \sum_{g \in G} (g(T)) g(f) = \sum_{g \in G} R_g g(f) \,. \tag{5.18}$$

The situation of applying D_G on T times the functional equation is the same as applying a weighted orbit summation operator on the original functional equation with weights $g(T)$ for $g \in G$.

Also, we may consider the strategy of applying a weighted operator several times in the hopes of attaining an easier equation to work with. However, as we shall see this is no different than looking at a weighted operator in the first place. This is because G is a group and the composition D_G^2 leads to another weighted operator. Also, since some of the operators D_G have nontrivial kernels they are not invertible, so the set of operators is not a group. Howeve we can show that the set is a monoid under composition.

Proposition 79. *For a group G, the set of weighted orbit summation operators form a monoid under composition.*

Proof. Since G is a group, we have an identity element 1, which can also be written as a weighted orbit summation operator with $R_g = 0$ for all $g \neq 1$ and $R_1 = 1$. Thus, the set of operator has an identity element. Since composition of operators is associative, we only need to check that the set of operators is closed under composition. We have

$$D_1 D_2 = \sum_{g\in G} \sum_{h\in H} R_g g T_h h = \sum_{g\in G} \sum_{h\in H} R_g T_{gh} gh \sum_{g\in G} (\sum_{h\in H} R_{gh_{-1}} T_g) g \,, \tag{5.19}$$

which is also an operator of this form once we collect terms corresponding to the same group elements. □

We hope to apply a weighted operator D to a problem in order to gain more insight into the structure of the generating function Q. Since all models with small steps and finite groups also have a regular orbit summation operator, we have two main interesting cases to investigate.

(1) When is $D_G(x_1 \cdots x_d) = 0$ and can we find weights so that we have a new operator D that acts like D_G but spares $x_1 \cdots x_d$?

(2) Can we create a useful orbit summation operator when G is infinite?

We can answer the first question in the negative when it comes to unmarked random walk models. In general, there is no other weighted orbital operator except the one with weights $R_g = 1$ that does not also eliminate $x_1 \cdots x_d$. The second case remain unclear.

Here is the strategy we will employ. If we apply the operator D on the master functional equation, we need to eliminate all terms except KQ. That is, D needs to annihilate all the Q terms that are missing variables. It is enough to work on the fundamental functional equation for $W = x_1 \cdots x_d KQ$. To go back to the master functional equation case we recognize that $x_1 \cdots x_d$ just make it a weighted operator and we can remove the weight by pre-dividing by $x_1 \cdots x_d$. The resulting operator is also weighted.

Lemma 80. *A weighted operator D exists such that $D(KQ) = D(1)$ if and only if a weighted operator D' exists such that $D'(f_I^{\emptyset})$ for generic functions $f_I^{\emptyset}$ that are missing the variables indexed by I, for all I.*

Proof. The discussion above provides the direction from left to right for $f = W$. To prove it for generic functions f it suffices to note that $f_I^{\emptyset}$ and $f_J^{\emptyset}$ are independent from each other if $I \neq J$. That is, $D(f_I^{\emptyset})$ and $D(f_J^{\emptyset})$ do not share terms. The converse direction is proved by setting $f = W$ and setting $D = D'\overline{x}_1 \cdots \overline{x}_d$, where $(D'\overline{x}_1 \cdots \overline{x}_d)(f) = D'(\overline{x}_1 \cdots \overline{x}_d f)$. □

This essentially turns it into a linear algebra problem. We just need to apply D on generic functions $W_I^{\mathbb{0}}$, which are missing the variables indexed by I, collect the different results and make their coefficients zero. That is, for every $f = W_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ we look at the orbit

$$\mathrm{Orbit}_G(f) = \{g(f) | g \in G\} \tag{5.20}$$

and collect coefficients in

$$0 = D(f) = \sum_{g \in G} R_g g(f) = \sum_{f' \in Orbit(f)} R'_g f' \tag{5.21}$$

where we set

$$R'_g = \sum_{\substack{g(f)=f' \\ g \in G}} R_g = 0\,. \tag{5.22}$$

Thus, we reach a linear system of $|\mathrm{Orbit}_G(f)|$ equations in $|G|$ unknowns. Of course, we can do this for all $2^d - 1$ terms $f = W_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ and hopefully find a system with a nontrivial solution. Here is a simple example

Example 81. In $d = 2$ dimensions we have the generic functions $W(0,0) = const$, $W(0,x_2)$, $W(x_1,0)$ where at least one variable is missing. We can write them as $1, f(x_1), f(x_2)$. Now we consider the group generated by $g_k(x_k) = \overline{x}_k$

$$G = \{1, g_1, g_2, g_{12} = g_{21}\}\,. \tag{5.23}$$

We write the operator D as

$$D = R - R_1 g_1 - R_2 g_2 + R_{12} g_{12}\,. \tag{5.24}$$

Consider the different orbits. The one with the constant is trivial since the function does not change under the group action. Next we have

$$\mathrm{Orbit}_G(f(x_1)) = \{f(x_1), f(\overline{x}_1), f(\overline{x}_1), f(\overline{x}_1)\} = \{f(x_1), f(\overline{x}_1)\} \tag{5.25}$$

and similarly,

$$\mathrm{Orbit}_G(f(x_2)) = \{f(x_2), f(\overline{x}_2)\}\,. \tag{5.26}$$

This means we have the equations

$$R - R_1 + R_2 - R_{12} = 0\,, \tag{5.27}$$

$$R = R_2, \quad R_1 = R_{12}\,, \tag{5.28}$$

$$R = R_1, \quad R_2 = R_{12}\,. \tag{5.29}$$

Folowing the implications provided from these operators we find $R = R_1 = R_2 = R_{12}$. The simplest choice is to set $R = 1$ and we find that every weighted orbit summation operator for this group G must be trivially-weighted if it were to annihilate generic functions with missing variables.

Definition 82. *A trivial weighted operator is one where all the weights are the same. We can also call these operators unweighted.*

Lemma 83. *Consider a d-dimensional noninteracting random walk model with small steps in the positive orthant. If its group is finite and has d generators, then all orbital operators are trivial.*

We need to check this proof.

Proof. It is enough to show that $D(W_k^0) = 0$ for all k implies that the operator is trivial. To this end suppose that $D(f) = 0$ where $f = W_k^0$. Then we can partition the group G as before into sets H and Hg_k. We see that $hg_k(f) = h(f)$, so the orbit of f contains at most $|G|/2$ elements. However, these elements must all be distinct otherwise they would come from the same operations, but the group elements in H are all distinct.Therefore, $|\mathrm{Orbit}(f) = |G|/2$. This means that we have the equations $R_h = R_{hg_k}$ for every $h \in H$. Once we go through every k we have overlaps $R = R_1 = \cdots = R_d$ and $R_1 = R_{12} = R_{13}$, and so on. This means that all the R's are the same and the operator is trivial. □

This shows that in general, there is no clever weighted summation operator that also satisfies the condition $D(x_1 \cdots x_d) \neq 0$. However, the idea will be fruitful in that we may find nontrivial partial solution in the interacting case.

5.2 Kernel Forms

We can write out the functional equations in a way that highlights the kernel K in the equation. We start out as follows

$$(1 - tLES)Q = 1 \tag{5.30}$$
$$(1 - t(LE - 1 + 1)S)Q = 1 \tag{5.31}$$
$$KQ + t(1 - LE)SQ = 1\,. \tag{5.32}$$

This is the form we see in the master functional equation. Another way we could have expanded is as follows

$$\begin{aligned} (1 - tLES)Q &= 1 \\ (1 + LE(1 - tS - 1))Q &= 1 \\ LEKQ + (1 - LE)Q &= 1 \\ LEKQ + (1 - L)Q &= 1 \end{aligned} \tag{5.33}$$

where $EQ = Q$ since Q is already of a valid form. We can go with both ways at the same time as well.

$$\begin{aligned} KQ + t(1 - LE)SQ &= 1 \\ KQ + (1 - LE)(1 - tS - 1)Q &= 1 \\ KQ + (1 - LE)KQ - (1 - L)Q &= 1\,. \end{aligned} \tag{5.34}$$

We can apply the inverse L^{-1} to those equations too, in particular on the second one.

$$L^{-1}(LEKQ + (1 - LE)Q) = 1 \tag{5.35}$$

The second form of the functional equation involving L^{-1} should have less terms than the first one by virtue of separating L and E from one another. Using extraction operators, we can constrain random walks to lie within a finite region, semi-infinite strip, a semi-infinite sector or any other discrete shape (with diminishing returns for more complicated shapes, of course). Furthermore, using marking operators, we can easily track the behavior of random walks as they cross or interact with boundaries or interact with regions within. For example, we may consider walks interacting with the boundary of a box within some region in space.

5.3 Walks Without Interactions (MOVE or REMOVE)

The Kernel forms above suggest an easier route for dealing with the models without interactions. Those models are equivalent to setting all the a_k's to 1, and this is equivalent to removing all marking or unmarking operators. The first kernel form reduces to the simple functional equation

$$E(KQ) = 1\,. \tag{5.36}$$

This suggests using the following substitution

$$Q = \frac{W}{x_{[d]}K}\,. \tag{5.37}$$

We multiply both sides by $x_{[d]}$ and use the substitution. Then

$$x_{[d]} = x_{[d]}E(KQ) = x_{[d]}E\overline{x}_{[d]}W = \Gamma W\,, \tag{5.38}$$

where $\Gamma = \Gamma_1 \cdots \Gamma_d$ and

$$\Gamma_k = x_k E_k \overline{x}_k = x_k(1 - \overline{x}_k[\overline{x}_k])\overline{x}_k = 1 - [x_k]^0\,. \tag{5.39}$$

Proposition 84. *Let $W = x_{[d]}KQ$, where Q is the generating function for walks without interactions in the positive orthant. Then*

$$\Gamma W = \sum_{I\subseteq[d]} (-1)^{|I|} W_I^{\mathbb{0}} = x_{[d]}\,. \tag{5.40}$$

For example, in two dimensions we have

$$W(x_1, x_2) - W_1^0(x_2) - W_2^0(x_1) + W_{1,2}^{0,0} = x_1 x_2\,. \tag{5.41}$$

Thus, we can write the solution to the problem as

$$Q = \frac{1}{x_{[d]}K}\left(x_{[d]} - \sum_{\varnothing\neq I\subseteq[d]} (-1)^{|I|} W_I^{\mathbb{0}}\right). \tag{5.42}$$

In two dimensions this becomes

$$Q(x_1, x_2) = \frac{x_1x_2 + W_1^0(x_2) + W_2^0(x_1) - W_{1,2}^{0,0}}{x_1x_2(1 - tS)}\,. \tag{5.43}$$

Of course, each $W_I^{\mathbb{0}}$ depends on $Q_I^{\mathbb{0}}$, so we could have seen this relationship from the master functional equation for Q too. Interestingly enough, this calculation points to a differential equation. Clearly, W satisfies the differential equation

$$\partial_1 \partial_2 W = 1 \tag{5.44}$$

Proposition 85. *The full generating function Q for d-dimensional non-interacting random walks in the positive orthant with small steps, satisfies the inhomogeneous PDE*

$$\partial_1 \cdots \partial_d W = \partial_1 \cdots \partial_d (x_1 \cdots x_d K Q) = 1\,. \tag{5.45}$$

We can go further. We have the following theorem.

Theorem 86. *The full generating function Q for a d-dimensional, finite, non-interacting random walk model, satisfies a finite-order inhomogeneous PDE in the variables $x_1, \ldots, x_d$.*

Proof. We will use the kernel form for the functional equation

$$KQ + t(1-\Gamma)SQ = q. \tag{5.46}$$

Here $\Gamma' = 1 - \Gamma$ is purely a coefficient extractor and it is finite, since L and E are finite. We will prove the theorem by finding the differential equation explicitly. Since the model is finite, we can bound the degree of x_k that we see on either side of the functional equation. In one scheme we let A_k be the largest power of x_k that we need to clear a negative power of x_k in Γ' and in q. Then we let B_k be the largest power of x_k we see on either side. Once we multiply by $x_k^{A_k}$, we see that the degree of x_k in the equation is $A_k + B_k$. We take the functional equation and multiply both sides by $x_{[d]}^{A}$. That is,

$$x_{[d]}^{A}(KQ + t\Gamma' SQ) = x_{[d]}^{A} q \tag{5.47}$$

and we attain a polynomial equation in the variables $x_1, \ldots, x_d$. We take the derivative operator

$$D = \partial_{[d]}^{A+B+\mathbb{1}} = \partial_1^{A_1+B_1+1} \cdots \partial_d^{A_d+B_d+1} \tag{5.48}$$

and apply it to both sides of the equation to retrieve

$$D(x_{[d]}^{A}(KQ + t\Gamma' SQ) = D(x_{[d]} KQ) = D(x_{[d]}^{A} q) = 0\,, \tag{5.49}$$

which follows since we are applying a larger number of derivatives than the degrees of the monomi-

als and this clears all of them. The other scheme lets us obtain a potentially lower degree differential equation at the cost of homogeneity, if the degrees of q are large. Let A_k be the power of x_k that we need to clear denominators on the left-hand side of the functional equation and B_k be the largest power of x_k on that side. Then we have D as before, but this time it may have lower A and B values, since we are not taking q into account. We have

$$D(x_{[d]}^A(KQ + t\Gamma' SQ) = D(x_{[d]}KQ) = D(x_{[d]}^A q)\,. \tag{5.50}$$

□

Example 87. For example, let the powers of x_k be $\{-3, -1, 4\}$ and $\{-2, 0, 6\}$ on the left-hand side and right-hand side respectively. We see that $A_k = 3$ and $B_k = 6$. Then we are taking the $A_k + B_k + 1 = 10$-th derivative of both sides of the functional equation. In the second scheme we take $A_k = 3$ still, but $B_k = 4$ and we are taking the 8-th derivative with respect to x_k this time.

Even in the quarter-plane, we have models with non D-finite generating function (in the t variable), but it turns out that every model so far considered is D-finite in the variables $x_1, \ldots, x_d$. In order to solve the differential equation we need to investigate the kernel of the differential operator.

Corollary 88. *The generating function Q of a finite random model is given by*

$$x_{[d]}^A KQ(x_1, \ldots, x_d; t) = \sum_{i=1}^{d} \sum_{j=0}^{B_i} Aij(x_1, \ldots, x_{i-1}, x_i, \ldots, x_d, t) x_i^j\,, \tag{5.51}$$

where A_{ij} are functions that need to be determined.

This kind of solution would have also appeared if we went through the calculations in the functional equation and extracted coefficients. However, this method is more efficient. If we had used the second scheme in the proof, we would have ended up with a slightly different form but maybe it would have had a slightly lower degree. It would involve an indefinite integral of q and elements in the kernel of the differential operator.

5.3.1 Walks With Unconstrained Steps

We may go through the process again, but this time we have

$$Q = \frac{W}{x_{[d]}^N K} \tag{5.52}$$

where N_k is the maximum negative size of steps in the set $\mathcal{S}$ in the direction x_k or in other words, the maximum N_k for which $S_k^{N_k}$ is nonzero. Then the operators that keep the walks in the quarter plane are

$$E_k = 1 - \sum_{i=1}^{N_k} \overline{x}_k^i [\overline{x}_k^i] \,. \tag{5.53}$$

Their conjugates are

$$E_k' = x_k^{N_k} E_k \overline{x}_k^{N_k} = 1 - \sum_{i=0}^{N_k-1} x_k^i [x_k^i] = 1 - \mathcal{E}_k \,, \tag{5.54}$$

so in the kernel equation we have

$$x_{[d]}^N = x_{[d]}^N E \overline{x}_{[d]}^N W = E'W = W + \sum_{\varnothing \neq I \subseteq [d]} (-1)^{|I|} \mathcal{E}_I(W) \,. \tag{5.55}$$

Here we have various powers x_k^i along with terms with $x_k = 0$ for $k \in I$. Hence, if we seek an operator D that does the same job as the orbit summation operator, we need D to annihilate all the terms with x_k's missing in W on the right-hand side. So then we have

$$D(x_{[d]} KQ) = D(W) = D\left(x_{[d]}^N - \sum_{\varnothing \neq I \subseteq [d]} (-1)^{|I|} \mathcal{E}_k(W) \right) = D(x_{[d]}^N) \,. \tag{5.56}$$

In other words we want D to behave (in some sense) similarly to the derivative

$$\partial_{[d]}^N = \partial_1^{N_1} \cdots \partial_d^{N_d} \,. \tag{5.57}$$

This suggests some definitions.

Definition 89. *For a sequence $N = (N_1, \ldots, N_d)$ of positive integers, we say that a model $\mathcal{M}$ is of type N if the longest step in $\mathcal{S}$ in the negative k-th direction has length N_k in that coordinate. In particular, we may say that a model is of type n if $N_k = n$ for all k.*

For example, the model for full random walks with small steps is of type 1.

Definition 90. *For sequences $N = (N_1, \ldots, N_d)$ and $M = (M_1, \ldots, M_d)$ of positive integers, we say that a model $\mathcal{M}$ is of type (N, M) if it is of type N and the longest step in $\mathcal{S}$ in the positive k-th direction has length N_k in that coordinate. In particular, we may say that a model is of type (n, m) if it is of type n, and $M_k = m$ for all k.*

For example, full random walks with small steps are of type $1, 1$. The notation is still a little awful. Anyway, it allows us to write things in the following form

Theorem 91. *A random walk model of type N satisfies the functional equation*

$$E'W = x_{[d]}^N \tag{5.58}$$

where $E' = x_{[d]}^N E\overline{x}_{[d]}^N$ and $W = x_{[d]}^N KQ$.

Corollary 92. *For a random walk model of type N, the generating function Q for the non-interacting case satisfies the PDE*

$$\partial_{[d]}^N \left(x_{[d]}^N KQ \right) = 1 \tag{5.59}$$

and is therefore, D-finite in the x variables.

Here $\partial_{[d]}^N$ is an example of an operator D that eliminates all the unnecessary terms but does not eliminate $x_1 \cdots x_d$. It is possible to discuss weighted operators in this setting too, but the situation becomes more complicated. However, we may investigate type (N, M) problems by finding a suitable model whose orbital operator is nice enough. This will show that all type (N, M) satisfy an orbital equation with that particular operator, not just a PDE.

Example 93. Consider the random walk model of type (N, N) with $S = \sum_{k=1}^d \overline{x}_k^{n_k} + x_k^{n_k}$. Its group G is generated by the elements of groups G_k with $2n_k$ elements each - each of the elements $g_{k,j,l} = \omega_{n_k}^j x_k^l$ where $\omega_{n_k} = \exp(2\pi i/n_k)$ and $l \in \{-1, 1\}$. These elements commute and allow us to find an orbital operator that annihilates all terms on the left-hand side except $x_{[d]}^N KQ$ and also spares the $x_{[d]}^N$ term on the right-hand side.

5.4 Interacting Models

It is natural to consider extending the algebraic kernel method to one working for interacting models, but we quickly see that the regular orbit summation operator is not sufficient. This is where the power of the weighted orbital summation operators starts to show. The analysis for two-dimensional models is particularly nice because we end up having the same number of equations as unknowns, and we are able to find the required weights. The linear systems can be written as matrix equations where the determinant of the matrix tells us when we have a useful orbit summation operator. In the end the method does not extend fully because we do not eliminate the $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$ term. The D-finiteness of the full generating function Q depends on the D-finiteness of the function $Q_{1,2}^{0,0}$. Also, we hope to say

something about the initial goal of establishing relationship between the full and partial interactions for a given model. We will only consider the interesting finite cases with 2 nontrivial generators. The group G has order 4, 6 or 8, and the functional equation in two dimensions is

$$KQ - K_1 Q_1^0 - K_2 Q_2^0 + K_{1,2} Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = \alpha \,. \tag{5.60}$$

5.4.1 Groups of Order Four

From a previous section we found that

$$D_G = 1 - g_1 - g_2 + g_1 g_2 = (1 - g_1)(1 - g_2) = \Delta_1 \Delta_2 \tag{5.61}$$

where we defined $\Delta_i = 1 - g_i$. In the non-interacting orbit summation method we had a direct application of D_G on the equations to perform the required cancellations. Here we will attempt to do something similar for the interacting case. Since the cancellations do not happen automatically if we use D_G directly, we will instead find a linear system of equations by applying the group operations on the original functional equation. Then we will use linear algebra to find a solution where our variables will be the ones we wish to eliminate Q_i^0 and their images under the group actions. If the associated matrix has a nonzero determinant, we have a unique solution and unfortunately, we will not be able to eliminate variables. However, there are some cases where the determinant is actually zero. Because of symmetry we expect to be able eliminate the desired variables. The group operations commute, so we have

$$g_i Q_i^0 = Q_i^0, \quad g_i g_j Q_i^0 = g_j Q_i^0 \tag{5.62}$$

and therefore, we have the variables that we wish to eliminate

$$E = \{Q_1^0,\, Q_2^0,\, g_2 Q_1^0,\, g_1 Q_2^0\} \,. \tag{5.63}$$

This is looking promising since we have four equations and four unknowns that we wish to eliminate. We rewrite the original equation in a format centered on these variables

$$K_1 Q_1^0 + K_2 Q_2^0 = KQ + K_{1,2} Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha = \beta \,. \tag{5.64}$$

For brevity, let $g_{12} = g_1 g_2$

Group action	Effect on Q_1^0	Effect on Q_2^0
1	Q_1^0	Q_2^0
g_1	Q_1^0	$g_1 Q_2^0$
g_2	$g_2 Q_1^0$	Q_2^0
$g_{12} = g_{21}$	$g_2 Q_1^0$	$g_1 Q_2^0$

Table 5.1: Effects of group actions $g \in G$ on Q_1^0 and Q_2^0.

Therefore, we have the equations

$$K_1 Q_1^0 + K_2 Q_2^0 = \beta\,, \tag{5.65}$$

$$g_1 K_1 Q_1^0 + g_1 K_2 g_1 Q_2^0 = g_1 \beta = \beta_1\,, \tag{5.66}$$

$$g_2 K_1 g_2 Q_2^0 + g_2 K_2 Q_2^0 = g_2 \beta = \beta_2\,, \tag{5.67}$$

$$g_{12} K_1 g_2 Q_1^0 + g_{12} K_2 g_1 Q_2^0 = g_{12} \beta = \beta_{12}\,. \tag{5.68}$$

Using the order of variables in E we can write the associated matrix M of this linear system as

$$M_4 = \begin{bmatrix} K_1 & K_2 & 0 & 0 \\ g_1 K_1 & 0 & 0 & g_1 K_2 \\ 0 & g_2 K_2 & g_2 K_1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & g_{12} K_1 & g_{12} K_2 \end{bmatrix} \tag{5.69}$$

Its determinant is

$$\begin{aligned} \det M_4 &= K_1 g_{12} K_1 g_1 K_2 g_2 K_2 - g_1 K_1 g_2 K_1 K_2 g_{12} K_2 \\ &= K_1 g_{12} K_1 g_1 K_2 g_2 K_2 - g_1 (g_1 K_1 g_{12} K_1 g_1 K_2 g_2 K_2) \\ &= \Delta_1 (K_1 g_{12} K_1 g_1 K_2 g_2 K_2) \\ &= \Delta_2 (g_1 K_1 g_2 K_1 K_2 g_{12} K_2) \end{aligned} \tag{5.70}$$

where the last equation comes from doing the process in the same way but with g_2 instead.

When is $\det M_4 = 0$**?**

Now our task is to find where this determinant is zero. Clearly the expression within each Δ must be in the kernel of the operator. To that end let us determine when that happens. For a Laurent

polynomial f in the variables x_i and t, we have

$$\Delta_k f = \sum_n f_n(1-g_k)x_k^n = \sum_n (f_n - f_{-n}\mu_k^{-n})x_i^n \tag{5.71}$$

where $\mu_k = S_k^{-1}/S_k^1$. This implies that

$$f_n = f_{-n}\mu_k^{-n} \tag{5.72}$$

$$f_n(S_k^1)^n = f_{-n}(S_k^{-1})^n \tag{5.73}$$

for all $n \in \mathbb{Z}$. It is not clear if this will help us. However, the models that exhibit groups of order 4 have at least one symmetry across a line - either vertical or horizontal symmetry. WLOG let the model have vertical symmetry. That is,

$$g_1(x_1) = x_1, \quad g_1(S_2^i) = S_2^i, \quad g_1(S_1^i) = S_1^{-i}\,. \tag{5.74}$$

This allows us to compute some things. For example,

$$g_1K_2 = c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 g_1 S_2^{-1} = c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-1} = K_2\,, g_1g_2K_2 = g_2g_1K_2 = g_2\,. \tag{5.75}$$

Therefore, Δ_1 fixes both K_2 and g_2K_2. We see that the determinant is

$$\det M_4 = \Delta_1(K_1K_2g_{12}K_1g_2K_2) = K_2g_2K_2\Delta_1(K_1g_{12}K_1)\,. \tag{5.76}$$

This is zero if and only if $\Delta_1(K_1g_{12}K_1) = 0$, so we have

$$\begin{aligned}
0 &= \Delta_1(K_1g_{12}K_1) \\
&= K_1g_{12}K_1 - g_1K_1g_2K_2 \\
&= (c_1 - t\overline{x}_1S_1^{-1})(c_1 - tx_1g_2S_1^{-1}) - (c_1 - tx_1S_1^{-1})(c_1 - t\overline{x}_1g_2S_1^{-1}) \\
&= c_1t\overline{x}_1(g_2S_2^{-1} - S_2^{-1}) - c_1tx_1(g_2S_2^{-1} - S_2^{-1}) \\
&= c_1t(\overline{x}_1 - x_1)(g_2S_1^{-1} - S_1^{-1}) \\
&= -c_1t(\overline{x}_1 - x_1)\Delta_2(S_1^{-1})\,.
\end{aligned} \tag{5.77}$$

This is true if and only if

$$g_2S_1^{-1} = S_1^{-1}\,. \tag{5.78}$$

We have

$$g_2(S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}\overline{x}_2 + S_{1,2}^{-1,0} + S_{1,2}^{-1,1}x_2) = S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}x_2\overline{\mu}_2 + S_{1,2}^{-1,0} + S_{1,2}^{-1,1}\overline{x}_2\mu_2 \tag{5.79}$$

and

$$S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}x_2\overline{\mu}_2 + S_{1,2}^{-1,1}\overline{x}_2\mu_2 = S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}\overline{x}_2 + S_{1,2}^{-1,1}x_2 \tag{5.80}$$

that can be re-written succinctly as

$$S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} = \mu_2 S_{-1,1}\,. \tag{5.81}$$

If one of the S's is zero, so is the other, and therefore, by symmetry, the model does not have diagonal steps. Since we have two nontrivial generators, this implies that both x_2 and $\overline{x}_2$ are present in S, so the model trivially exhibits a symmetry about the x_1 axis. If the S's are nonzero, this implies μ_2 is a constant and therefore, $S_2^{-1} = S_2^1$. Again the model exhibits symmetry about the x_1 axis.

Theorem 94. *We have that* $\det M_4 = 0$ *if and only if the model is highly-symmetric.*

Corollary 95. *The algebraic kernel method extends to the non-interacting case for* $|G| = 4$ *if and only if the model is highly-symmetric.*

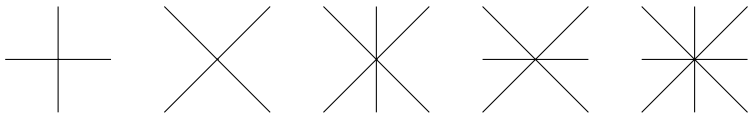


Figure 5.1: The highly-symmetric models on the plane.

We are now ready to attempt using the orbit summation method in the highly symmetric cases. There are 8 such models, but only 5 of them have dimension 2. Furthermore, 2 of the models are reflections of each other, so we are really left with 4 interesting cases - diagonal walks, full walks, full walks minus two horizontal steps. If we are able to eliminate all the variables, we will be left with a linear relation like

$$\gamma\beta - \gamma_1\beta_1 - \gamma_2\beta_2 + \gamma_{12}\beta_{12} = 0\,. \tag{5.82}$$

Here the choice of signs is inspired by the orbit summation operators. Let $\bullet$ and $*$ stand for applications of g_1 and g_2, respectively. First we have $K_2^\bullet = K_2$ and $K_1^* = K_1$. Then we let

$$x = Q_1^0\,, \quad y = Q_2^0\,, \quad u = Q_1^{0,*}\,, \quad v = Q_2^{0,\bullet} \tag{5.83}$$

and

$$a = K_1\,, \quad b = K_1^\bullet\,, \quad c = K_2\,, \quad d = K_2^* \tag{5.84}$$

The original equations become

$$\beta = ax + cy\,, \quad \beta_1 = bx + cv\,, \tag{5.85}$$

$$\beta_2 = dy + au\,, \quad \beta_{12} = bu + dv\,, \tag{5.86}$$

Therefore, the above equation needs to satisfy

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= (ax + cy)\gamma - (bx + cv)\gamma_1 - (dy + au)\gamma_2 + (bu + dv)\gamma_{12} \\ &= (a\gamma - b\gamma_1)x + (c\gamma - d\gamma_2)y + (b\gamma_{12} - a\gamma_2)u + (d\gamma_{12} - c\gamma_1)v \end{aligned} \tag{5.87}$$

and in order to eliminate the variables x, y, u, v we need to make all their coefficients zero. Therefore,

$$a\gamma = b\gamma_1\,, \quad c\gamma = d\gamma_2\,, \quad b\gamma_{12} = a\gamma_2,\,, \quad d\gamma_{12} = c\gamma_1\,. \tag{5.88}$$

If we set $\gamma = 1$, then $\gamma_1 = a/b$, $\gamma_2 = c/d$ and $\gamma_{12} = (ac)/(bd)$. So we can multiply out by bd to find the relation

$$bd\beta - ad\beta_1 - cb\beta_2 + ac\beta_{12} = 0 \tag{5.89}$$

where we have successfully eliminated $Q_1^0, Q_2^0, Q_1^{0,*}$, and $Q_2^{0,\bullet}$. Or written in terms of the K's we have

$$K_1^\bullet K_2^* \beta - K_1 K_2^* \beta^\bullet - K_1^\bullet K_2 \beta^* + K_1 K_2 \beta^{\bullet *} = 0\,. \tag{5.90}$$

We can rewrite this equation in the following nicer way.

Theorem 96. *For highly-symmetric models with small steps, we have the functional equation*

$$\Delta(K_1^\bullet K_2^* \beta) = 0\,, \tag{5.91}$$

where $\beta = KQ + K_{1,2}Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha$.

This is a generalization of the result in [**?**] where the authors use a weighted orbit sum to eliminate boundary terms. We can expand the functional equation to produce a different form. Towards this end let $K_0 = K_1^\bullet K_2^*$. We find

$$\begin{aligned}\Delta(K_0\beta) &= \Delta(K_0(KQ + K_{1,2}Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha)) \\ &= \Delta(K_0KQ) + \Delta(K_0K_{1,2}Q_{1,2}^{0,0}) - \Delta(K_0\alpha) \\ &= K\Delta(K_0Q) + \Delta(K_0K_{1,2})Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \Delta(K_0)\alpha\end{aligned} \tag{5.92}$$

where the last line follows since Δ commutes with K and functions with some variables x_i missing. All that remains is to expand the various quantities involved

$$\Delta g_i K_i = -\Delta K_i = -(c_i - tx_iS_i^{-1} - c_i + t\overline{x}_iS_i^{-1}) = -t(\overline{x}_i - x_i)S_i^{-1}\,. \tag{5.93}$$

Therefore,

$$\Delta K_0 = \Delta_1(K_1^\bullet)\Delta_2(K_2^*) = t^2(\overline{x}_1 - x_1)(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)S_1^{-1}S_2^{-1}\,. \tag{5.94}$$

Next

$$\Delta(K_0K_{1,2}) = \Delta_1K_1^\bullet\Delta_2K_2^*K_{1,2} = \Delta_1K_1^\bullet(K_2^*K_{1,2} - K_2K_{1,2}^*)\,. \tag{5.95}$$

The quantity in parentheses is

$$\begin{aligned}&K_2^*K_{1,2} - K_2K_{1,2}^* = \\ =&(c_2 - tx_2S_2^{-1})(c_1c_2 - t\overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}) - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2S_2^{-1})(c_1c_2 - t\overline{x}_1x_2S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}) \\ =&c_1c_2tS_2^{-1}(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) - c_2t\overline{x}_2S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) \\ =&c_2t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(c_1S_2^{-1} - \overline{x}_1S_{1,2}^{-1,-1})\,.\end{aligned} \tag{5.96}$$

and thus,

$$\begin{aligned}\Delta(K_0K_{1,2}) &= c_2t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)\Delta_1K_1^\bullet(c_1S_2^{-1} - \overline{x}_1S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}) \\ &= c_2t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)\Delta_1K_1^\bullet(c_1S_2^{-1} - \overline{x}_1S_{1,2}^{-1,-1})\,.\end{aligned} \tag{5.97}$$

To simplify this quantity note that

$$\Delta_1K_1^\bullet c_1S_2^{-1} = c_1S_2^{-1}\Delta_1K_1^\bullet = -c_1tS_2^{-1}(\overline{x}_1 - x_1) \tag{5.98}$$

and

$$\Delta_1K_1^\bullet\overline{x}_1S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} = S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}\Delta_1K_1^\bullet\overline{x}_1 = c_1(\overline{x}_1 - x_1)S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}\,. \tag{5.99}$$

Finally,

$$\Delta(K_0K_{1,2}) = c_1c_2t(\overline{x}_1 - x_1)(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(tS_1^{-1}S_2^{-2} - S_{1,2}^{-1,-1})\,. \tag{5.100}$$

Combining terms and simplifying a bit leads us to

$$K\Delta(K_0Q) = \alpha t(\overline{x}_1 - x_1)(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(tS_1^{-1}S_2^{-1} - b_1b_2(tS_1^{-1}S_2^{-1} - S_{1,2}^{-1,-1})Q_{1,2}^{0,0}) \tag{5.101}$$

Corollary 97. *For a highly-symmetric model with $K_0 = K_1^\bullet K_2^*$, we have the functional equation*

$$K\Delta(K_0Q) = \alpha t(\overline{x}_1 - x_1)(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(tS_1^{-1}S_2^{-1}(1 - b_1b_2Q_{1,2}^{0,0}) + S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}Q_{1,2}^{0,0})\,. \tag{5.102}$$

5.4.2 Groups of Order Six

Since we have 6 group actions, it is worth taking the time to see what kinds of expressions we develop by applying g on Q_i^0 or K_i for each i. For example, $g_iQ_i^0 = Q_i^0$, so we say the action of g_i is reduced to $g_\varnothing = 1$ on Q_i^0. Using the sequences L produced in one orbit of a representation of G and their alternatives, we can tabulate their reductions on the different expresions. For example,

$$g_{2121}Q_1^0 = g_{212}Q_1^0 = g_{121}Q_1^0 = g_{12}Q_1^0 \tag{5.103}$$

where on the second step we have used the alternative form $g_{212} = g_{121}$. The table has 12 in the row and column corresponding to 2121 and Q_1^0. We omit the row corresponding to the identity.

Sequence L	Alternative	Q_1^0	Q_2^0	K_1	K_2
1	21212	$\varnothing$	1	1	1
21	1212	2	21	21	21
121	212	12	21	121	212
2121	12	12	1	12	12
12121	2	2	$\varnothing$	2	2

Table 5.2: Reductions of group actions $g \in G$ on Q_i^0 and K_i.

We only have 6 different functions results of applying G on Q_1^0 and Q_2^0, so we have only 6 variables that can be eliminated. Let

$$u_1 = Q_1^0\,, \quad u_2 = g_2 Q_1^0\,, \quad u_3 = g_{12} Q_1^0 \tag{5.104}$$

$$v_1 = Q_2^0\,, \quad v_2 = g_1 Q_2^0\,, \quad v_3 = g_{21} Q_2^0\,. \tag{5.105}$$

Also, there are 12 different K_1's and K_2's that we label sequentially as $A_1, \ldots, A_6$ and $B_1, \ldots, B_6$ respectively. The associated matrix to the linear system of equations is

$$M_6 = \begin{bmatrix} A_1 & & & B_1 & & \\ A_2 & & & & B_2 & \\ & A_3 & & & & B_3 \\ & & A_4 & & & B_4 \\ & & A_5 & & B_5 & \\ & A_6 & & B_6 & & \end{bmatrix} \tag{5.106}$$

and it has determinant

$$\det M_6 = A_2 A_4 A_6 B_1 B_3 B_5 - A_1 A_3 A_5 B_2 B_4 B_6\,. \tag{5.107}$$

The even index $A's$ are found by applying g_1 on the odd index $A's$ and vice versa for the $B's$. That is,

$$\det M_6 = \Delta_1(A_2 A_4 A_6 B_1 B_3 B_5) = \Delta_1(g_1 K_1 g_{121} K_1 g_{12} K_1 K_2 g_{21} K_2 g_{12} K_2)\,. \tag{5.108}$$

In the following table we show the relations between A's and B's for the 6 models with one of the two groups of order 6. $S11$, $S12$ and $S13$ have the one group; and $S21$, $S22$ and $S23$, have the

other.

Model	Name	A-relations	B-relations
	S11	$A_1 = A_6$, $A_2 = A_5$, $A_3 = A_4$	$B_1 = B_4$, $B_2 = B_3$, $B_5 = B_6$
	S12	$A_1 = A_4$, $A_2 = A_3$, $A_5 = A_6$	$B_1 = B_2$, $B_3 = B_6$, $B_4 = B_5$
	S13	None	None
	S21	$A_1 = A_6$, $A_2 = A_5$, $A_3 = A_4$	$B_1 = B_2$, $B_3 = B_6$, $B_4 = B_5$
	S22	$A_1 = A_4$, $A_2 = A_3$, $A_5 = A_6$	$B_1 = B_4$, $B_2 = B_3$, $B_5 = B_6$
	S23	None	None

Table 5.3: $A = K_1$ and $B = K_2$ relations for groups of order 6.

When a model has nontrivial relations, then $\det M_6 = 0$ and, using a computer, we can easily check that $\det M_6 \neq 0$ when there are no relations.

We seek the same type of relation on β and its orbit as for groups of order 4, so we will use D_G as inspiration for the sign changes. We have the following

$$\begin{aligned} 0 =& \gamma\beta - \gamma_1\beta_1 + \gamma_{21}\beta_{21} - \gamma_{121}\beta_{121} + \gamma_{12}\beta_{12} - \gamma_2\beta_2 \\ =& \gamma(A_1u_1 + B_1v_1) - \gamma_2(A_6u_2 + B_6v_1) - \gamma_1A_2u_1 + B_2v_2) \\ &+ \gamma_{12}(A_5u_3 + B_5v_2) + \gamma_{21}(A_3u_2 + B_3v_3) - \gamma_{121}(A_4u_3 + B_4v_3)\,. \end{aligned} \tag{5.109}$$

Expanding out and collecting terms produces the system

$$A_1\gamma = A_2\gamma_1\,, \qquad A_3\gamma_{21} = A_6\gamma_2\,, \qquad A_5\gamma_{12} = A_4\gamma_{121}\,, \tag{5.110}$$

$$B_1\gamma = B_6\gamma_2\,, \qquad B_5\gamma_{12} = B_2\gamma_1\,, \qquad B_3\gamma_{21} = B_4\gamma_{121}\,. \tag{5.111}$$

This system of equations does not have a nontrivial symbolic solution, so we need to use the relations here. There is a rational solution in each case with relations where γ is a free variable. We set γ to be the least common multiple of the denominators. We find that $K_0 = \gamma$ in each of the four cases with relations.

Model	S-polynomial	Weight $\gamma = K_0$	K-form
	$x_1\overline{x}_2 + \overline{x}_1 + x_2$	$A_3A_5B_6$	$g_{21}(K_1)g_{12}(K_1)g_2(K_2)$
	$\overline{x}_1x_2 + x_1 + \overline{x}_2$	$A_2A_5B_6$	$g_1(K_1)g_{12}(K_1)g_2(K_2)$
	$x_1x_2 + \overline{x}_1 + \overline{x}_2$	$A_2A_3B_5B_6$	$g_1(K_1)g_{21}(K_1)g_{12}(K_2)g_2(K_2)$
	$\overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2 + x_1 + x_2$	A_2B_6	$g_1(K_1)g_2(K_2)$

Table 5.4: Weight K_0 for the Orbit Summation operators.

Here we have picked the respresentations of A's and B' with the least number of group operations g_i to reach the resulting expression. We also tried finding a possible K_0 by brute force for $S13$ and $S23$, but we did not find any among products of distinct A's and B's. It is likely that such a weight does not exist for these cases.

Theorem 98. *The algebraic kernel method extends for interacting random walk models with small steps and group G of size 6 if and only if* $\det M_6 = 0$. *In those cases we have the functional equation*

$$D_G(K_0\beta) = 0\,, \tag{5.112}$$

where $\beta = KQ + K_{1,2}Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha$ and K_0 depends on the specific model.

5.4.3 Groups of Order Eight

The analysis for groups of order 8 is quite similar, so we omit it. Here are the results.

Model	S-polynomial
	$x_1 + \overline{x}_1 + x_1\overline{x}_2 + \overline{x}_1x_2$
	$x_1 + \overline{x}_1 + x_1x_2 + \overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2$

Table 5.5: Models with group of size 8.

We name the $A_1 = K_1$ and $B_1 = K_2$ iterates as before; for example, $A_2 = g_1A_1$ and $A_3 = g_2g_1A_1$.

Sequence L	Alternative	Q_1^0	Q_2^0
1	2121212	$\varnothing$	1
21	121212	2	21
121	21212	12	121
2121	1212	212	121
12121	212	212	21
212121	12	12	1
1212121	2	2	$\varnothing$

Table 5.6: Reductions of group actions $g \in G$ on Q_i^0 and K_i.

The relations are the same in both models

$$A_1 = A_6\,, \quad A_2 = A_5\,, \quad A_3 = A_4\,, \quad A_7 = A_8 \tag{5.113}$$

$$B_1 = B_4\,, \quad B_2 = B_3\,, \quad B_4 = B_8\,, \quad B_6 = B_7\,. \tag{5.114}$$

In both cases we retrieved the same γ operator that we have written in a form involving the least number of group actions.

$$\gamma = K_0 = A_2A_3B_5B_6 = g_1(K_1)g_{21}(K_1)g_{212}(K_2)g_{1212}(K_2)\,. \tag{5.115}$$

Theorem 99. *The algebraic kernel method extends for all interacting random walk models with small steps and group G of size 8. The functional equation is*

$$D_G(K_0\beta) = 0\,, \tag{5.116}$$

where $\beta = KQ + K_{1,2}Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha$ and $K_0 = g_1(K_1)g_{21}(K_1)g_{212}(K_2)g_{1212}(K_2)$.

Chapter 6

The Obstinate Kernel Method

We have another tool at our disposal, the Obstinate Kernel method, which was used in the interacting case in [29]. The idea is similar to the weighted algebraic kernel method in that we produce more functional equations from the master equation via group actions $g \in G$. The difference is that here we also set one of $x_1 = \sigma_1$, $x_2 = \sigma_2$ equal to a root of K in order to eliminate the KQ term from the equations. This leaves equations that only include the other variable. It turns out that some combinations of substitutions and group operations do not lead to valid functional equations. This happens when one of the Q_k^0 terms is not a formal power series in t. In all the cases with finite groups of order 4, 6 and 8 we find that there are 2 roots of K for each x_k and that one root is in $O(t)$ and the other in $O(1/t)$. Generally, it works out better if we use the $O(t)$ roots because that at least guarantees that the Q_k^0 terms remain as formal power series in t. However, sometimes (page 11 of [29]) even the $O(1/t)$ term may lead to a valid power series.

It may not be necessary, but it will be sufficient if a combination of a substitution $x_k = \sigma_k$ and a group action g_L together give a power series in t when applied to single variables like x_1 or x_2. For example, we would hope that $g_L(x_j)|_{x_k=\sigma_k}$ is a power series in t for some i, j, L. Again, this is not a necessary condition, but it will be sufficient to show that a lot of the cases involved produce enough different equations to allow us to go through the Obstinate Kernel method. For those cases where we find less equations, it is likely that we will be able to show that the Q_k^0 terms are power series in t via another method like in (two friendly walks).

Definition 100. *A function $f(x_1, \ldots, x_d; t)$ is admissible if it is a power series in t. If σ_k is a root of K, we say f is k-admissible if $f|_{x_k=\sigma_k}$ is admissible. A set of functions is admissible if each element is admissible.*

Proposition 101. *Let $\mathcal{M}$ be a random walk model with small nonrepeating (?) steps and group G of order 4. The actions $g \in G$ that preserve the admissibility are given in the following table.*

When $|G| = 6$ we have a richer situation.

Proposition 102. *Let $\mathcal{M}$ be a random walk model with small nonrepeating steps and group G of order 4, 6 or 8. Models with the same group have the same admissibility properties with respect to admissible when it comes to x_1, x_2 or the pair (x_1, x_2).*

Proof. We do not know of a conceptual proof of this fact, so we performed the calculations on a computer. They are trivial computationally speaking. For a given model $\mathcal{M}$, we construct its S-polynomial, which can be used to find the admissible roots σ_k for $k = 1, 2$. We can use S to express the generators g_k and their action on the pair (x_1, x_2). Once we have the generators we form the group G. Next, to check the admissibility of $f \in \{x_1, x_2, (x_1, x_2)\}$ all we need to do is find $|\mathrm{Orbit}_G(f)|$ and see if substituting $x_k = \sigma_k$ in the resulting expressions leads to admissible functions. The calculations can be done by hand, but they are tedious, so we have employed a computer to do the legwork. It becomes a trivial matter to check the admissibility properties for the various models and compare the results, summarized in the following tables. □

Type	x_1	x_2	(x_1, x_2)
1-admissibility	1, g_2	all $g \in G$	1, g_2
2-admissibility	1, g_1	all $g \in G$	1, g_1

Table 6.1: k-admissibility of functions when $|G| = 4$.

Type	x_1	x_2	(x_1, x_2)
1-admissibility	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{121}	1, g_1, g_2, g_{21}	1, g_2, g_{21}
2-admissibility	1, g_1, g_2, g_{12}	1, g_1, g_{12}, g_{121}	1, g_1, g_{12}

Table 6.2: k-admissibility of functions for $S11$, $S12$, $S13$. Here $|G| = 6$.

Type	x_1	x_2	(x_1, x_2)
1-admissibility	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{121}	1, g_1, g_{12}, g_{121}	1, g_{121}
2-admissibility	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{121}	1, g_1, g_{12}, g_{121}	1, g_{121}

Table 6.3: k-admissibility of functions for $S21$, $S22$, $S33$. Here $|G| = 6$.

Type	x_1	x_2	(x_1, x_2)
1-admissibility	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{212}	all $g \in G$	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{212}
2-admissibility	1, g_1, g_2, g_{12}, g_{121}, g_{2121}	1, g_1, g_{12}, g_{121}	1, g_1, g_{12}, g_{121}

Table 6.4: k-admissibility of functions for $S1$. Here $|G| = 8$.

Type	x_1	x_2	(x_1, x_2)
1-admissibility	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{212}	all $g \in G$	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{212}
2-admissibility	1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{121}, g_{212}, g_{2121}	1, g_1, g_{12}, g_{121}	1, g_{121}

Table 6.5: k-admissibility of functions for $S2$. Here $|G| = 8$.

What this classification tells us is that we can easily treat all $|G| = 4$ models with the same method. When $|G| = 6$ we either have to do some more work in the $S2k$ cases to show that the functions are admissible with respect to one more group operation, or just deal with them as they are. The situation is similar in the $|G| = 8$ case. Now suppose that we have a set of valid equations for a substitution $x_k = \sigma_k$. They are a linear system in the variable quantities $Q^{0,0}_{1,2}$, Q^0_1, Q^0_2 and their orbits under the set of valid group actions. We hope for a high level of redundancy in these equations. Then we can eliminate some variables by taking a weighted sum over the valid equations. That is, we attain a weighted Orbit Sum operator that only has a few group operations, perhaps. We also have to keep in mind that we are also making the substitution $x_k = \sigma_k$.

We will perform the first steps in the analysis of the Obstinate Kernel method for each situation that has $|G|/2$ k-admissible elements since that seems to work.

6.1 Group of Order Four

The analysis in this case is the same whether we work with the σ_1 or σ_2 substitutions. We will just work with the σ_1-substitution and group actions 1, g_2, where we let $g_2(F) = F^*$ to keep the notation cleaner. The functional equations corresponding the the group actions are

$$KQ - K_1Q^0_1 - K_2Q^0_2 + K_{12}Q^{0,0}_{1,2} = \alpha\,, \tag{6.1}$$

$$KQ^* - K^*_1Q^{0,*}_1 - K^*_2Q^0_2 - K^*_{12}Q^{0,0}_{1,2} = \alpha\,. \tag{6.2}$$

We will eliminate Q^0_2 because once we make the σ_1-substitution, we would have a tough time trying to expand Q^0_2 into series. We do this by taking K^*_2 times the first equation and subtract K_2 times

the second equation. This leads to the functional equation

$$K_2^* KQ - K_2 KQ^* - (K_2^* K_1 Q_1^0 - K_2 K_1^* Q_1^{0,*}) + (K_2^* K_{12} - K_2 K_{12}^*) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha(K_2^* - K_2) = 0 \tag{6.3}$$

where we can set $x_1 = \sigma_1$ to eliminate the K term. We overload notation by not changing any of the symbols. From now on we will know that $x_1 = \sigma_1$ in the equations that follow. We have

$$(K_2^* K_1 Q_1^0 - K_2 K_1^* Q_1^{0,*}) - (K_2^* K_{12} - K_2 K_{12}^*) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + \alpha(K_2^* - K_2) = 0. \tag{6.4}$$

We can also think of this process as applying a weighted orbit sum over group actions that preserve the admissibility of functions in the master equation. The operator is

$$D_2 = g_2(K_2) - K_2 g_2 = (1 - g_2) K_2^* \tag{6.5}$$

where the weights are given by pre-multiplying an expression by K_2^* before applying the operator $\Delta_2 = 1 - g_2$. The equation can be written as

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= D_2(KQ - K_1 Q_1^0 - K_2 Q_2^0 + K_{12} Q_{1,2}^{0,0}) \\ 0 &= D_2(K_1 Q_1^0) - D_2(K_{12}) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + D(\alpha) \end{aligned} \tag{6.6}$$

where the second one follow from substituting $x_1 = \sigma_1$. The situation is similar to the Algebraic Kernel method except that the operators there retain the KQ term and its orbit, while they eliminate the Q_1^0 and Q_2^0 terms and their orbits.

Definition 103. *(?) For a concatenated list $L = L_1 L_2 \ldots$ of positive integer indices, let $g_L = g_{L_1} g_{L_2} \cdots$ whenever this group action makes sense. That is, either the list is finite or there is some form of convergence when L is infinite.*

Definition 104. *Let L be a concatenated list. Definte $\Delta_L = 1 - g_L$. Now let X be some function. The operator $D_L[X]$ is defined by its action on functions F as*

$$D_L[X](F) = \Delta_L(XF) = (1 - g_L)(XF) = XF - g_L(XF)\,. \tag{6.7}$$

We will drop the X from the notation if it is clear from context. In particular, $D_L[1] = \Delta_L$.

For example, $D_2 = D_2[g_2(K_2)]$.

Example 105. If we use $g_L(X)$ instead of X in the above definition, we find that

$$D_L[g_L(X)] = g_L(X) - Xg_L \tag{6.8}$$

and this is essentially an Ore operator. In our analysis we will see these somewhat frequently.

6.1.1 Some Calculations

Before we go onto groups of order 6 we can expand some of the terms in the functional equation. First

$$\begin{aligned} D_2(\alpha) &= \alpha(K_2^* - K_2) = \\ &= \alpha((c_2 - tx_2\overline{\mu}_2 S_2^{-1}) - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-1})) \\ &= \alpha t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2\overline{\mu}_2(\sigma_1))S_2^{-1}(\sigma_1)\,. \end{aligned} \tag{6.9}$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} D_2(K_{12}) &= K_2^* K_{12} - K_2 K_{12}^* = \\ &= (c_2 - tx_2\overline{\mu}_2 S_2^{-1})(c_1c_2 - t\overline{\sigma}_1\overline{x}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}) \\ &\quad - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-1})(c_1c_2 - t\overline{\sigma}_1 x_2\overline{\mu}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}) \\ &= c_1c_2^2 - c_1c_2tx_2\overline{\mu}_2 S_2^{-1} - c_2t\overline{\sigma}_1\overline{x}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} + t^2\overline{\sigma}_1\overline{\mu}_2 S_2^{-1}S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} \\ &\quad - c_1c_2^2 + c_1c_2t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-1} + c_2t\overline{\sigma}_1 x_2\overline{\mu}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} - t^2\overline{\sigma}_1\overline{\mu}_2 S_2^{-1}S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} \\ &= c_1c_2t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2\overline{\mu}_2)S_2^{-1} - c_2t\overline{\sigma}_1(\overline{x}_2 - x_2\overline{\mu}_2)S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} \\ &= c_2t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2\overline{\mu}_2(\sigma_1))(c_1S_2^{-1}(\sigma_1) - \overline{\sigma}_1 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}) \end{aligned} \tag{6.10}$$

If the model is symmetric in both directions, we see that $g_2S_1^{-1} = S_1^{-1}$ and therefore, $g_2K_1 = K_1$, and we may bring that factor outside of $D_2(K_1^*F) = K_1D_2(F)$. It is worth investigating if this happens in other cases since this will make it easier to perform coefficient extraction later. We can answer this in the negative.

Proposition 106. *Suppose that a model with group of order 4 has symmetry around the x_i axis and $j \neq i$. Then $D_i[g_iK_j] = K_jD_i[1] = K_j\Delta_i$ in the σ_j-substitution. Also, $D_j[g_j(K_i)] = K_iD_j[1] = K_i\Delta_j$ if and only if the model is also symmetric around the x_j axis. Thus, we can bring out the K term out of both operators if and only if the model is highly symmetric.*

Proof. Assume that the model is symmetric around the x_1 axis, that is, it is vertically symmetric. This implies that $S_1^{-1} = S_1^1$ and $g_1(S_2^k) = S_2^k$ for all k. This immediately tells us that $g_1(K_2) = K_2$

and $D_1[g_1K_2] = K_2\Delta_1$. This remains true when we substitute $x_2 = \sigma_2$. This would also be true for the other operator if the model is symmetric around the x_2 axis. Thus, we only need to show the forward direction of the statement. We will show that if the model is not highly symmetric, the factoring will not happen. It is enough to show that $g_2(K_1) \neq K_1$ even after the $x_1 = \sigma_1$ substitution is made.

The solutions to $K = 0$ in the x_1 variable are

$$x_1 = \frac{(1 - tS_1^0) \pm \sqrt{(1 - tS_1^0)^2 - 4t^2(S_1^1)^2}}{2tS_1^1}. \tag{6.11}$$

If $\sigma_1 = u \pm v\sqrt{w}$, then it turns out that $\overline{\sigma}_1 = u \mp v\sqrt{w}$ due to the symmetry and

$$s = \sigma_1 + \overline{\sigma}_1 = 2u = \frac{1 - tS_1^0}{tS_1^1}. \tag{6.12}$$

Now

$$g_2K_1 = c_2 - t\overline{x}_1 g_2(S_1^{-1}(x_2)) = c_2 - t\overline{x}_1 S_1^{-1}(\overline{x}_2\mu_2(x_1)) \tag{6.13}$$

and $g_2K_1 = K_1$ if and only if

$$S_1^{-1}(\overline{x}_2\mu_2(x_1)) = S_1^{-1}(x_2) \tag{6.14}$$

upon making the substitution $x_1 = \sigma_1$. We will first compute $\mu_2(\sigma_1)$. To that end we have

$$S_2^k(\sigma_1) = S_{1,2}^{0,k} + S_{1,2}^{1,k}(\overline{\sigma}_1 + \sigma_1) = S_{1,2}^{0,k} + S_{1,2}^{1,k}\frac{1 - tS_1^0}{tS_1^1} \tag{6.15}$$

and

$$\mu_2(\sigma_1) = \frac{S_2^{-1}}{S_2^1} = \frac{S_{1,2}^{0,-1} + S_{1,2}^{1,-1}(1 - tS_1^0)/(tS_1^1)}{S_{1,2}^{0,1} + S_{1,2}^{1,1}(1 - tS_1^0)/(tS_1^1)} = \frac{S_{1,2}^{1,-1} + t\left(S_{1,2}^{0,-1}S_1^1 - S_{1,2}^{1,-1}S_1^0\right)}{S_{1,2}^{1,1} + t\left(S_{1,2}^{0,1}S_1^1 - S_{1,2}^{1,1}S_1^0\right)}. \tag{6.16}$$

This is a rational function in x_2. Using software, we can easily compute this expression and further compute $S_1^{-1}(\overline{x}_2\mu_2(x_1))$ to show that we only have equality when the model is highly-symmetric.

□

In the next chapter we will investigate the highly-symmetric models in more detail.

6.2 Group of Order Six

We can perform the Obstinate Kernel method on the three models in the first group. They are as follows.

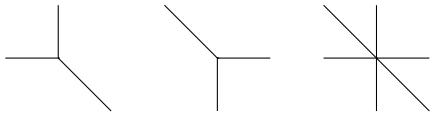


Figure 6.1: Models $S11$, $S12$, $S13$ with group of order 6.

The k-admissibility of (x_1, x_2) is preserved by actions 1, g_j, g_{jk} for $j \neq k$. For consistency, we will work on the 1-admissible case. The actions are 1, g_2, g_{21}. We have the table from the Algebraic Kernel method.

Sequence L	Q_1^0	Q_2^0
$\varnothing$	$\varnothing$	$\varnothing$
2	2	$\varnothing$
21	2	21

Table 6.6: Reductions of group actions $g \in G$ on Q_1^0 and Q_2^0.

In this group we have $g_2(x_1, x_2) = (x_1, x_1\overline{x}_2)$ and $g_{21}(x_1, x_2) = (\overline{x}_2, x_1\overline{x}_2)$, so the terms we wish to eliminate are those involving an x_1 because the substitution $x_1 = \sigma_1$ will make it difficult to expand the Q functions into series. That is, we wish to eliminate $X_2 = g_2 Q_1^0$ and $Y = Q_2^0$. Let

$$\beta = K_{12} Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha = \alpha(b_1 b_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - 1) \tag{6.17}$$

so that we have equations

$$AX + BY = \beta\,, \quad A_2 X_2 + B_2 Y = \beta_2\,, \quad A_{21} X + B_{21} Y_{21} = \beta_{21}\,. \tag{6.18}$$

We want a linear combination of $\beta, \beta_2, \beta_{21}$ that will eliminate X_2 and Y. We may write

$$a\beta - b\beta_2 + c\beta_{21} = aAX + (aB - bB_2)Y + (cA_{21} - bA_2) + cB_{21}Y_{21} = aAX + cB_{21}Y_{21} \tag{6.19}$$

and this means that

$$aB = bB_2\,, \quad cA_{21} = bA_2\,. \tag{6.20}$$

We do not want to have any denominators, so when we solve for a, b and c, we have a small solution

$$a = A_{21}B_2\,, \quad b = A_{21}B\,, \quad c = A_2B\,, \tag{6.21}$$

and these may or may not have common factors. In other words the elimination procedure yields

$$\begin{aligned} &AA_{21}B_2Q_1^0 + A_2BB_{21}g_{21}Q_2^0 = A_{21}B_2\beta - A_{21}B\beta_2 + A_2B\beta_{21} \\ &= (A_{21}B_2 - A_{21}B + A_2B)\beta\,. \end{aligned} \tag{6.22}$$

Here we may think of a weighted sum operator too. Let

$$D(F) = A_{21}B_2F - A_{21}Bg_2(F) + A_2Bg_{21}(F)\,. \tag{6.23}$$

Then we can rewrite the equation as

$$D(AX + BY) = AA_{21}B_2Q_1^0 + A_2BB_{21}g_{21}Q_2^0 = \beta D(1)\,. \tag{6.24}$$

We may compute $D(1)$ for each case, but the expressions are somewhat complicated. $D(1)$ for each of $S11$, $S12$ and $S13$ will contain a square root like in σ_1. So do the terms $AA_{21}B_2$ and A_2BB_{21}. It is worth mentioning that we can convert the equation to one with no square roots by collecting terms involving the square root on one side and squaring. Then we have a nonlinear equation in X and Y with rational function coefficients. It is not clear how we could go further.

6.3 Group of Order Eight

Since the group G has order 8, we only have two nonisomorphic models, but we will deal with the one with four group actions that preserve the admissibility of (x_1, x_2). The actions are 1, g_2, g_{21}, g_{212}. The step polynomial is


: $S = \overline{x}_1 + x_1 + \overline{x}_1x_2 + x_1\overline{x}_2$ (6.25)

This is the case covered in [29]. We will go through the same problem but from this new perspective. From the previous chapter we have

Sequence L	Q_1^0	Q_2^0
$\varnothing$	$\varnothing$	$\varnothing$
2	2	$\varnothing$
21	2	21
212	212	21

Table 6.7: Reductions of group actions $g \in G$ on Q_1^0 and Q_2^0 that preserve 1-admissibility.

We will (?) Let $\beta = K_{12}Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \alpha = \alpha(b_1 b_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - 1)$, $X = Q_1^0$ and $Y = Q_2^0$. Note that β is left unchanged by group actions. We have the four equations

$$AX + BY = \beta\,, \tag{6.26}$$

$$A_2X_2 + B_2Y = \beta\,, \tag{6.27}$$

$$A_{21}X_2 + B_{21}Y_{21} = \beta\,, \tag{6.28}$$

$$A_{212}X_{212} + B_{212}Y_{21} = \beta\,, \tag{6.29}$$

where we wish to eliminate variables X, Y that contain σ_1 in their input. Those are X_2, Y and Y_{21}, and we can eliminate them by first eliminating Y and Y_{21} from the first two and second two equations, and then eliminating X_2 from the resulting two equations. That is, we compute B_2 times the first equation minus B times the second equation, and B_{212} times the third equation minus B_{21} from the last equation. In other words this is the same as if we apply the operators

$$D_2[B_2] = B_2 - Bg_2\,, \tag{6.30}$$

$$-g_{212}D_2[B_2] = g_{212}\,Bg_2 - g_{212}\,B_2 = B_{212}\,g_{21} - B_{21}\,g_{212} \tag{6.31}$$

to both sides of the master functional equation and substitute $x_1 = \sigma_1$. We obtain the equations

$$AB_2X - A_2BX_2 = \beta(B_2 - B)\,, \tag{6.32}$$

$$A_{21}B_{212}X_2 - A_{212}B_{21}X_{212} = \beta(B_{212} - B_{21})\,. \tag{6.33}$$

To eliminate the X_2 terms we take $A_{21}B_{212}$ times the first equation and add A_2B times the second equation. We have

$$A_{21}B_{212}AB_2X - A_2BA_{212}B_{21}X_{212} = \beta(A_{21}B_{212}(B - B_2) + A_2B(B_{212} - B_{21})) \tag{6.34}$$

We could recover the same result by applying the following operator D to both sides of the master functional equation.

$$\begin{aligned} D &= A_{21}B_{212}D_2[B_2] - A_2Bg_{212}D_2[B_2] \\ &= (A_{21}B_{212} - A_2Bg_{212})D_2[B_2] \\ &= (A_{21}B_{212} - g_{212}A_{21}B_{212})D_2[B_2] \\ &= D_{212}[A_{21}B_{212}]D_2[B_2]\,. \end{aligned} \tag{6.35}$$

Starting from the master functional equation, we have The right-hand side

$$D(\beta) = \beta D_{212}[A_{21}B_{212}](B_2 - B) \tag{6.36}$$

and the left-hand side

$$\begin{aligned} D(AX + BY) &= D(AX) \\ &= D_{212}[A_{21}B_{212}]D_2[B_2](AX) \\ &= D_{212}[A_{21}B_{212}](AB_2X - A_2BX_2) \\ &= D_{212}[A_{21}B_{212}](AB_2X) \\ &= D_{212}[AA_{21}B_2B_{212}](X) \end{aligned} \tag{6.37}$$

We note that $A_{212} = A$, so we can actually factor out A from the operator. Finally, we have the following theorem.

Theorem 107. *For the first model with group of order 8, we have*

$$D_{212}[A_{21}B_2B_{212}]\left(Q_1^0\right) = \frac{\beta}{A}D_{212}[A_{21}B_{212}](B_2 - B) \tag{6.38}$$

where $A_L = g_L(K_1)$, $B_L = g_L(K_2)$ and $\beta = \alpha(b_1b_2Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - 1)$, and the equality is valid only once we set $x_1 = \sigma_1$ in this expression.

If we went through the σ_2 substitution instead, we would have obtained an analogous statement. Just switch the A's and the B's, and the 1's and the 2's.

The interesting fact (as found in [29]) is that the coefficients in front of the Q's become Laurent polynomials once we take into consideration the σ_k-substitutions, even though the σ_k's contain square roots. The coefficient in front of β can be reduced to a rational function plus a rational function times a square root after properly conjugating. The calculations are exceedingly complicated and would be too long to be done by hand. The square root part does not depend on a_2 in the first

case, and a_1 in the second case. This is what allows the authors to find relationships between $Q^{0,0}_{1,2}$ and expressions where one or more of a_1 and a_2 equal to 1.

6.4 Highly-symmetric Two-dimensional Models

We will continue further with the OKM for highly-symmetric models. There are only a few such models. If x_k is in S, then so is $\overline{x}_k$. If one of the diagonal terms is in S, then so are the others. To have a group of order 4 we need to have both an x_1 and x_2 variable in S, so we have several nonisomorphic models. One with cartesian steps, one with diagonal steps, one with diagonal step and x_1,$\overline{x}_1$ and finally, the model with all steps. The notation is the same as in previous chapters. We derived the following equations

$$x_1 = \sigma_1 : \quad \Delta_2(K2^* Q^0_1) = \frac{1}{K_1}\left(\Delta_2(K^*_2 K_{12}) Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - \alpha(K^*_2 - K_2)\right) , \tag{6.39}$$

$$x_2 = \sigma_2 : \quad \Delta_1(K1^\bullet Q^0_2) = \frac{1}{K_2}\left(\Delta_1(K^\bullet_1 K_{12}) Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - \alpha(K^\bullet_1 - K_1)\right) . \tag{6.40}$$

It is enough to only consider the analysis for one of the equations for now. Only the third model requires looking at both equations. We already know from the previous chapter that $\mu_2 = S^{-1}_2/S^1_2 = 1$ and

$$\alpha(K^*_2 - K_2) = \alpha t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) S^{-1}_2(\sigma_1) , \tag{6.41}$$

$$\Delta_2(K^*_2 K_{12}) = c_2 t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(c_1 S^{-1}_2(\sigma_1) - \overline{\sigma}_1 S^{-1,-1}_{1,2}) . \tag{6.42}$$

To compute $\Delta_2(K2^* Q^0_1)$ we need to compute $K_2(\sigma_1, x_2)$ and $K^*_2(\sigma_1, x_2)$, which are given by

$$K_2 = c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 S^{-1}_2(\sigma_1) , \quad K^*_2 = c_2 - t x_2 S^{-1}_2(\sigma_1) . \tag{6.43}$$

Therefore, we focus on computing $S^{-1}_2(\sigma)$ first.

$$\begin{aligned} S^{-1}_2(\sigma_1) &= S^{0,1}_{1,2} + S^{1,1}_{1,2}(\overline{\sigma}_1 + \sigma_1) \\ &= S^{0,1}_{1,2} + S^{1,1}_{1,2}\frac{1 - tS^0_1}{tS^1_1} \\ &= \frac{1}{tS^1_1}\left(S^{1,1}_{1,2} + t\left(S^{0,1}_{1,2} S^1_1 - S^{1,1}_{1,2} S^0_1\right)\right) \\ &= \frac{S^{1,1}_{1,2} + tS^{0,1}_{1,2} S^{1,0}_{1,2}}{t\left(S^{1,0}_{1,2} + S^{1,1}_{1,2}(\overline{x}_2 + x_2)\right)} . \end{aligned} \tag{6.44}$$

Therefore, the function $S_2^{-1}(\sigma_1)$ is a rational function of x_2.

Model	$S_{1,2}^{0,1}$	$S_{1,2}^{1,0}$	$S_{1,2}^{1,1}$	$S_2^{-1}(\sigma_1)$
	1	1	0	1
	0	0	1	$\bar{t}/(\overline{x}_2 + x_2)$
	1	0	1	$\bar{t}/(\overline{x}_2 + x_2)$
	0	1	1	$\bar{t}/(\overline{x}_2 + 1 + x_2)$
	1	1	1	$(1 + \bar{t})/(\overline{x}_2 + 1 + x_2)$

Table 6.8: Function $S_2^{-1}(\sigma_1)$ for highly-symmetric models.

Lemma 108. *For highly-symmetric models with $e = S_{1,2}^{1,1}$, $f = S_{1,2}^{1,0}$ and $g = S_{1,2}^{0,1}$, we have*

$$\frac{\alpha(K_2^* - K_2)}{K_1} = \frac{\alpha(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(e + tfg)}{S_1^1 K_1}\,, \tag{6.45}$$

$$\frac{\Delta_2(K_2^* K_{12})}{K_1} = \frac{c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(c_1(e + tfg) - et\overline{\sigma}_1 S_1^1)}{S_1^1(c_1 - t\overline{\sigma}_1 S_1^1)}\,. \tag{6.46}$$

6.4.1 Cartesian Model – N, S, E, W

In this case $S_2^{-1}(\sigma_1) = 1$, so a lot of the calculations will be simpler, and this is a good place to start further work. Here $K_{12} = c_1 c_2$, so it behaves like α and we have

$$\Delta_2(K2^* Q_1^0) + \frac{\alpha\beta(K_2^* - K_2)}{K_1} = 0\,, \tag{6.47}$$

where

$$\beta = 1 - b_1 b_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} \tag{6.48}$$

and

$$\frac{\alpha\beta(K_2^* - K_2)}{K_1} = \frac{\alpha\beta t(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)}{K_1} = \alpha\beta f(c_1, x_2)\,, \tag{6.49}$$

since K_1 does not depend on c_2 or x_1. The equation finally becomes

$$(c_2 - tx_2)Q_1^0(x_2) - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2)Q_1^0(\overline{x}_2) + \alpha\beta f = 0\,. \tag{6.50}$$

We perform the extraction $[x_2^1]$ to get

$$c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,1} - tQ_{1,2}^{0,0} + \alpha\beta f_2^1 = 0 \tag{6.51}$$

and the extraction $[b_2^0]$ to get

$$-t\check{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0} + \overline{a}_1 f_2^1\,. \tag{6.52}$$

Using the second equation within the first one and simplifying yields

$$b_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,1} = t(a_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \beta\check{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0})\,, \tag{6.53}$$

$$b_1 Q_{1,2}^{1,0} = t(a_1 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \beta\widehat{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0}) \tag{6.54}$$

Here the second equation is obtained via the same method but with $\bullet$ instead of $*$. Using the same method we can also write

$$b_2 Q_{1,2}^{1,1} = t(a_2 Q_{1,2}^{1,0} - \beta\check{Q}_{1,2}^{1,0})\,. \tag{6.55}$$

Multiplying by b_1 and using the above relations leads to

$$\begin{aligned} b_1 b_2 Q_{1,2}^{1,1} &= t(a_2 b_1 Q_{1,2}^{1,0} - \beta b_1 \check{Q}_{1,2}^{1,0}) \\ &= ta_2 t(a_1 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - \beta\widehat{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0}) - t\beta t(a_1\check{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0} - \beta\check{\widehat{Q}}_{1,2}^{0,0}) \\ &= t^2(a_1 a_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} - a_2\beta\widehat{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0} - a_1\beta\check{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0} + \beta^2\check{\widehat{Q}}_{1,2}^{0,0})\,. \end{aligned} \tag{6.56}$$

Let

$$G = Q_{1,2}^{0,0}, \quad \widehat{G} = G_1, \quad \check{G} = G_2\,. \tag{6.57}$$

From before we have

$$Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = 1 + ta_1 a_2(Q_{1,2}^{1,0} + Q_{1,2}^{0,1})\,. \tag{6.58}$$

Multiplying by $b_1 b_2$ and using the above relations leads to

$$\begin{aligned} b_1 b_2 G &= b_1 b_2 + t a_1 a_2 (b_2 b_1 Q_{1,2}^{1,0} + b_1 b_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,1}) \\ &= b_1 b_2 + t a_1 a_2 (b_2 t (a_1 G - \beta G_1) + b_1 t (a_2 G - \beta G_2) \\ &= b_1 b_2 + t^2 a_1 a_2 (b_2 a_1 G + b_1 a_2 G - b_2 \beta G_1 - b_1 \beta G_2) \,. \end{aligned} \tag{6.59}$$

Using the relation for β and simplifying leads to

$$G = \frac{b_1 b - 2 - t^2 a_1 a_2 (b_2 G_1 + b_1 G_2)}{b_1 b_2 - t^2 a_1 a_2 (a_2 b_1 + a_1 b_2 + b_1 b_2 (b_2 G_1 + b_1 G_2))} \,. \tag{6.60}$$

If we let $F = (b_2 G_1 + b_1 G_2)$ and perform the long division with respect to F, we find that

$$Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = \frac{1}{b_1 b_2} \left(1 - \frac{b_1 b_2 (1 - b_1 b_2) - t^2 a_1 a_2 (a_1 b_2 + a_2 b_1)}{b_1 b_2 + t^2 a_1 a_2 (a_1 b_2 + a_2 b_1 + b_1 b_2 F)} \right) \,. \tag{6.61}$$

Using arguments similar to those in the later section on diagonal steps we can find out more about the various Q's.

$$b_2 Q_{1,2}^{m,n+1} = t (a_2 Q_{1,2}^{m,n} - \beta \breve{Q}_{1,2}^{m,n}) \,, \tag{6.62}$$

$$b_1 Q_{1,2}^{m+1,n} = t (a_1 Q_{1,2}^{m,n} - \beta \widehat{Q}_{1,2}^{m,n}) \,. \tag{6.63}$$

Summing the equations multiplied by their respective powers of x_1 and x_2, we find the equations

$$b_2 Q_2^{n+1} = t (a_2 Q_2^n - \beta \breve{Q}_2^n) \,, \tag{6.64}$$

$$b_1 Q_1^{m+1} = t (a_1 Q_1^m - \beta \widehat{Q}_1^m) \,. \tag{6.65}$$

Now we can sum with respect to x_2 and x_1 to find

$$b_2 (Q - Q_2^0) = x_2 t (a_2 Q - \beta \breve{Q}) \,, \tag{6.66}$$

$$b_1 (Q - Q_1^0) = x_1 t (a_1 Q - \beta \widehat{Q}) \,. \tag{6.67}$$

We can solve these for Q_2^0 and Q_1^0 as follows

$$b_2 Q_2^0 = (b_2 - a_2 x_2 t) Q + x_2 t \beta \breve{Q} \,, \tag{6.68}$$

$$b_1 Q_1^0 = (b_1 - a_1 x_1 t) Q + x_1 t \beta \widehat{Q} \,. \tag{6.69}$$

We substitute these two expressions into the original functional equation and after some algebra we find that

$$Q = \frac{(1 - b_1 b_2 G)(\alpha + t x_1 \bar{b}_1 K_1 \widehat{Q} + t x_2 \bar{b}_2 K_2 \breve{Q})}{K - (1 - \bar{c}_1 x_1 t) K_1 - (1 - \bar{c}_2 x_2 t) K_2} \tag{6.70}$$

and after recognizing some of the quantities as modified K_1 and K_2's we finally stop at the solution for Q

$$Q = \frac{(1 - b_1 b_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0})(\alpha - \bar{b}_1 K_1 \widehat{K}_1^{\bullet} \widehat{Q} - \bar{b}_2 K_2 \breve{K}_2^{*} \breve{Q})}{K - \bar{c}_1 K_1 K_1^{\bullet} - \bar{c}_2 K_2 K_2^{*}} \,. \tag{6.71}$$

This rather complicated expression shows that the generating function$Q$ is built from copies of Q that have some of their marking variables set to 1.

6.4.2 Diagonal Cartesian Model – NE, NW, SE, SW

The next case in terms of difficulty is when we have diagonal steps. This model is very similar to the one covered in [**?**] where they have two interacting walks confined in a semi-infinite strip. The models are different because there we have an extra term in the functional equations. Perhaps the difficulty in the current case is due to $S_2^{-1}(\sigma_1)$ being more complicated, and this is due to the diagonal terms (?). Also, $S_{1,2}^{-1,-1} \neq 1$, so K_{12} is not trivial. Here

$$\frac{\alpha(K_2^{*} - K_2)}{K_1} = \frac{\alpha(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)}{K_1(\overline{x}_2 + x_2)} \,, \tag{6.72}$$

$$\frac{\Delta_2(K_2^{*} K_{12})}{K_1} = \frac{c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(c_1 - t\overline{\sigma}_1 S_1^1)}{S_1^1(c_1 - t\overline{\sigma}_1 S_1^1)} = \frac{c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)}{\overline{x}_2 + x_2} \,. \tag{6.73}$$

The functional equation becomes

$$K_2^{*} Q_1 - K_2 Q_1^{*} - \frac{c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)}{\overline{x}_2 + x_2} Q_{1,2} + \alpha \frac{\overline{x}_2 - x_2}{(\overline{x}_2 + x_2) K_1} = 0 \,. \tag{6.74}$$

Surprisingly enough, the only term depending on σ_1, that remains in this expression, is K_1, so this will be of no consequence to the rest of the analysis. We just need to take care of the remaining terms. We will do this by multiplying the equation by $\overline{x}_2 + x_2$. We have

$$R^{*} = (\overline{x}_2 + x_2) K_2^{*} = c_2(\overline{x}_2 + x_2) - x_2 = c_2 \overline{x}_2 - \overline{a}_2 x_2 \,, \tag{6.75}$$

$$R = (\overline{x}_2 + x_2) K_2 = c_2(\overline{x}_2 + x_2) - \overline{x}_2 = c_2 x_2 - \overline{a}_2 \overline{x}_2 \,. \tag{6.76}$$

There are a couple of relations here

$$R^* - R = v(K_2^* - K_2) = \overline{x}_2 - x_2 \tag{6.77}$$

$$\overline{x}_2 R^* - x_2 R = \overline{x}_2 c_2 v - 1 - x_2 c_2 v + 1 \tag{6.78}$$

$$= c_2 v(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) \tag{6.79}$$

The equation becomes

$$(c_2\overline{x}_2 - \overline{a}_2 x_2)Q_1^0(x_2) + (\overline{a}_2\overline{x}_2 - c_2 x_2)Q_1^0(\overline{x}_2) + (\alpha\overline{K}_1 - c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0})(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) = 0 \tag{6.80}$$

and it is ready for extraction. Let $\delta_0 = \overline{a}_1(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)\overline{K}_1$. We rewrite the equation as

$$R^* Q_1^0 - R Q_1^{0,*} - c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + \overline{a}_2\delta_0 = 0\,. \tag{6.81}$$

We will use the master equation

$$(1 - tS)Q - (c_1 - t\overline{x}_1 S_1^{-1})Q_1^0 - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-1})Q_2^0 + (c_1 c_2 - t\overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2 S_{1,2}^{-1,-1})Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = \overline{a}_1\overline{a}_2 \tag{6.82}$$

to further our work here. For diagonal steps it is

$$(1 - tS)Q - (c_1 - tv\overline{x}_1)Q_1^0 - (c_2 - t\overline{x}_2 S_2^{-1})Q_2^0 + (c_1 c_2 - t\overline{x}_1\overline{x}_2)Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = \overline{a}_1\overline{a}_2 \tag{6.83}$$

extracting the $[x_1^0]$ coefficient yields

$$Q_1^0 = \overline{a}_2 + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + a_1 tv Q_1^1\,. \tag{6.84}$$

We can extract higher coefficients too. Let $k \geqslant 1$. Then the $[x_2^k]$ coefficient is

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= Q_1^k - tS_1^{-1}Q_1^{k+1} - tS_1^0 Q_1^k - tS_1^1 Q_1^{k-1} - c_2 Q_{1,2}^{k,0} \\ &\quad + t\overline{x}_2(S_{1,2}^{-1,-1}Q_{1,2}^{k+1,0} + S_{1,2}^{0,-1}Q_{1,2}^{k,0} + S_{1,2}^{1,-1}Q_{1,2}^{k-1,0}) \\ &= Q_1^k - tvQ_1^{k+1} - tvQ_1^{k-1} - c_2 Q_{1,2}^{k,0} + t\overline{x}_2(Q_{1,2}^{k+1,0} + Q_{1,2}^{k-1,0})\,. \end{aligned} \tag{6.85}$$

We can rewrite the last one in a form more convenient for the next few steps

$$Q_1^k = tv(Q_1^{k+1} + Q_1^{k-1}) + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{k,0} - t\overline{x}_2(Q_{1,2}^{k+1,0} + Q_{1,2}^{k-1,0})\,. \tag{6.86}$$

We will use induction to prove a nice formula, but for that, we first need to establish another base case because of this splitting of cases for the coefficient extraction. We have

$$Q_1^0 = \overline{a}_2 + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + a_1 tv Q_1^1 \,, \tag{6.87}$$

$$Q_1^{0,*} = \overline{a}_2 + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + a_1 tv Q_1^{1,*} \,. \tag{6.88}$$

Combining them with equation (6.81) gives

$$\begin{aligned}
0 &= R^* Q_1^0 - R Q_1^{0,*} - c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + \overline{a}_2 \delta_0 \\
&= R^*(\overline{a}_2 + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + a_1 tv Q_1^1) - R(\overline{a}_2 + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + a_1 tv Q_1^{1,*}) \\
&\quad - c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + \overline{a}_2 \delta_0 \\
&= a_1 tv(R^* Q_1^1 - R Q_1^{1,*}) + (R^* - R)(\overline{a}_2 + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,0}) \\
&\quad - c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) Q_{1,2}^{0,0} + \overline{a}_2 \delta_0 \\
&= a_1 tv(R^* Q_1^1 - R Q_1^{1,*}) + \overline{a}_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) + \overline{a}_2 \delta_0 \\
&= a_1 tv(R^* Q_1^1 - R Q_1^{1,*}) + \overline{a}_2((\overline{x}_2 - x_2) + \delta_0) \,.
\end{aligned} \tag{6.89}$$

So we can write the equation

$$R^* Q_1^1 - R Q_1^{1,*} + \overline{a}_2 \delta_1 = 0 \tag{6.90}$$

where

$$\delta_1 = \frac{(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) + \delta_0}{a_1 tv} \,. \tag{6.91}$$

This equation together with equation (6.81) form the base cases for the following lemma

Lemma 109. *Let m be an integer greater than zero. Then*

$$R^* Q_1^m - R Q_1^{m,*} - c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2) Q_{1,2}^{m,0} + \overline{a}_2 \delta_m = 0 \tag{6.92}$$

where δ_m is not a function of a_2.

Proof. We show this by induction. We have the base cases $m = 0$ and $m = 1$. The latter one fits the pattern because $Q_{1,2}^{1,0} = 0$ since we cannot have walks ending on $(1, 0)$. Now we assume that the

formula is true for all cases up to and including m. Then we use formula (6.86)

$$\begin{aligned}
&R^*Q_1^m - RQ_1^{m,*} \\
=&tv(R^*Q_1^{m+1} - RQ_1^{m+1,*}) + tv(R^*Q_1^{m-1} - RQ_1^{m-1,*}) \\
&+ c_2(R^* - R)Q_{1,2}^{m,0} - t(\overline{x}_2R^* - x_2R)(Q_{1,2}^{m+1,0} + Q_{1,2}^{m-1,0}) \\
=&tv(R^*Q_1^{m+1} - RQ_1^{m+1,*}) + tv(c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{m-1,0} - \overline{a}_2\delta_{m-1}) \\
&+ c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{m,0} - c_2tv(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(Q_{1,2}^{m+1,0} + Q_{1,2}^{m-1,0}) \\
=&tv(R^*Q_1^{m+1} - RQ_1^{m+1,*}) + c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{m,0} \\
&- c_2tv(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{m+1,0}) - \overline{a}_2tv\delta_{m-1})\,.
\end{aligned} \tag{6.93}$$

Combining this with equation (6.92) leads to

$$0 = tv(R^*Q_1^{m+1} - RQ_1^{m+1,*}) - c_2tv(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{m+1,0} - \overline{a}_2tv\delta_{m-1} + \overline{a}_2\delta_m\,, \tag{6.94}$$

$$0 = R^*Q_1^{m+1} - RQ_1^{m+1,*} - c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{m+1,0} + \overline{a}_2\delta_{m+1} \tag{6.95}$$

where

$$\delta_{m+1} = \frac{\delta_m}{tv} - \delta_{m-1}\,. \tag{6.96}$$

This function δ_{m+1} is also independent from a_2 and this completes the proof! □

There is an equivalent statement for Q_2^n. We can expand R^* and R to a form we can use

$$\begin{aligned}
0 = &(c_2\overline{x}_2 - \overline{a}_2x_2)Q_1^m(x_2) - (c_2x_2 - \overline{a}_2\overline{x}_2)Q_1^m(\overline{x}_2) \\
&- c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)Q_{1,2}^{m,0} + \overline{a}_2\delta_m\,.
\end{aligned} \tag{6.97}$$

We start by extracting the $[x_2^1]$ coefficient

$$\begin{aligned}
&c_2Q_{1,2}^{m,2} - \overline{a}_2Q_{1,2}^{m,0} - c_2Q_{1,2}^{m,0} + c_2Q_{1,2}^{m,0} + [x_2^1]\overline{a}_2\delta_m = 0 \\
&c_2Q_{1,2}^{m,2} - \overline{a}_2Q_{1,2}^{m,0} + [x_2^1]\overline{a}_2\delta_m = 0\,.
\end{aligned} \tag{6.98}$$

We can also extract the $[x_2^{n+1}]$ coefficient for $n \geqslant 2$

$$c_2Q_{1,2}^{m,n+2} - \overline{a}_2Q_{1,2}^{m,n} + [x_2^{n+1}]\overline{a}_2\delta_m = 0\,. \tag{6.99}$$

This formula also contains the $n = 0$ case, so we treat them together. We can set $a_2 = 1$ to get

$$-\breve{Q}_{1,2}^{m,n} + [x_2^{n+1}]\delta_m = 0\,. \tag{6.100}$$

Substituting this back into the above equation gives

$$b_2 Q_{1,2}^{m,n+2} = Q_{1,2}^{m,n} - \breve{Q}_{1,2}^{m,n}\,. \tag{6.101}$$

An equivalent formula can be derived if the process is followed through the use of x_1 instead of x_2 in the analysis.

Corollary 110. *For integers m and n greater than zero, we have the following relations*

$$b_1 Q_{1,2}^{m+2,n} = Q_{1,2}^{m,n} - \widehat{Q}_{1,2}^{m,n}\,, \tag{6.102}$$
$$b_2 Q_{1,2}^{m,n+2} = Q_{1,2}^{m,n} - \breve{Q}_{1,2}^{m,n}\,. \tag{6.103}$$

We can sum up those equations to retrieve the following functional equations.

Corollary 111. *For integers m greater than zero, we have the following relations*

$$Q_1^m - \widehat{Q}_1^m = b_1 Q_1^{m+2}\,, \tag{6.104}$$
$$\breve{Q}_1^m - \breve{\widehat{Q}}_1^m = b_1 \breve{Q}_1^{m+2}\,, \tag{6.105}$$
$$x_1^2(Q_2^n - \widehat{Q}_2^n) = b_1(Q_2^n - Q_{1,2}^{1,n} x_1 - Q_{1,2}^{0,n})\,, \tag{6.106}$$
$$x_1^2(\breve{Q}_2^n - \breve{\widehat{Q}}_2^n) = b_1(\breve{Q}_2^n - \breve{Q}_{1,2}^{1,n} x_1 - \breve{Q}_{1,2}^{0,n})\,, \tag{6.107}$$
$$x_1^2(Q - \widehat{Q}) = b_1(Q - x_1 Q_1^1 - Q_1^0)\,, \tag{6.108}$$
$$x_1^2(\breve{Q} - \breve{\widehat{Q}}) = b_1(\breve{Q} - x_1 \breve{Q}_1^1 - \breve{Q}_1^0)\,. \tag{6.109}$$

Corollary 112. *For integers n greater than zero, we have the following relations*

$$Q_2^n - \breve{Q}_2^n = b_2 Q_2^{n+2}\,, \tag{6.110}$$
$$\widehat{Q}_2^n - \breve{\widehat{Q}}_2^n = b_2 \widehat{Q}_2^{n+2}\,, \tag{6.111}$$
$$x_2^2(Q_1^m - \breve{Q}_1^m) = b_2(Q_1^m - Q_{1,2}^{m,1} x_1 - Q_{1,2}^{m,0})\,, \tag{6.112}$$
$$x_2^2(\widehat{Q}_1^m - \breve{\widehat{Q}}_1^m) = b_2(\widehat{Q}_1^m - \widehat{Q}_{1,2}^{m,1} x_1 - \widehat{Q}_{1,2}^{m,0})\,, \tag{6.113}$$
$$x_2^2(Q - \breve{Q}) = b_2(Q - x_2 Q_2^1 - Q_2^0)\,, \tag{6.114}$$
$$x_2^2(\widehat{Q} - \breve{\widehat{Q}}) = b_2(\widehat{Q} - x_2 \widehat{Q}_2^1 - \widehat{Q}_2^0)\,. \tag{6.115}$$

Every other equation results from the previous one by either setting $a_1 = 1$ or $a_2 = 1$. Here we can hope to find some telescoping sum type of thing in order to say more about $Q^{0,0}_{1,2}$

Now we can move onto the main result about the diagonal walks, that is, the function for labelled walks ending at $(0,0)$ is connected to the functions for semi-labelled and unlabelled walks ending on $(0,0)$. We can use the master equation to extract the $[x_1^0 x_2^0]$ and $[x_1^1 x_2^1]$ coefficients, which will produce the following two relations

$$Q^{0,0}_{1,2} = 1 + t a_1 a_2 Q^{1,1}_{1,2}\,, \tag{6.116}$$

$$Q^{1,1}_{1,2} = t(Q^{0,0}_{1,2} + Q^{2,0}_{1,2} + Q^{0,2}_{1,2} + Q^{2,2}_{1,2})\,. \tag{6.117}$$

We also have

$$\begin{aligned} b_1 b_2 Q^{2,2}_{1,2} &= b_1(Q^{2,0}_{1,2} - \breve{Q}^{2,0}_{1,2})\,, \\ &= b_1 Q^{2,0}_{1,2} - b_1 \breve{Q}^{2,0}_{1,2}\,, \\ &= Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - \widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} - \breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} + \breve{\widehat{Q}}^{0,0}_{1,2}\,, \end{aligned} \tag{6.118}$$

together with

$$b_1 b_2 Q^{2,0}_{1,2} = b_2 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - b_2 \widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2}\,, \tag{6.119}$$

$$b_1 b_2 Q^{0,2}_{1,2} = b_1 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - b_1 \breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2}\,. \tag{6.120}$$

We we have

$$\begin{aligned} b_1 b_2 Q^{1,1}_{1,2} &= t(b_1 b_2 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} + b_1 b_2 Q^{2,0}_{1,2} + b_1 b_2 Q^{0,2}_{1,2} + b_1 b_2 Q^{2,2}_{1,2}) \\ &= t(b_1 b_2 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} + b_2 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - b_2 \widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} + b_1 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} \\ &\quad - b_1 \breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} + Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - \widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} - \breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} + \breve{\widehat{Q}}^{0,0}_{1,2}) \\ &= t((b_1 b_2 + b_1 + b_2 + 1) Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - (b_2 + 1)\widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} \\ &\quad - (b_1 + 1)\breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} + \breve{\widehat{Q}}^{0,0}_{1,2}) \\ &= t(a_1 a_2 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - a_2 \widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} - a_1 \breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} + \breve{\widehat{Q}}^{0,0}_{1,2})\,, \end{aligned} \tag{6.121}$$

We can finally write

$$\begin{aligned} b_1 b_2 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} &= b_1 b_2 + t a_1 a_2 b_1 b_2 Q^{1,1}_{1,2} \\ &= b_1 b_2 + t^2 a_1 a_2 (a_1 a_2 Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - a_2 \widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} - a_1 \breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2} + \breve{\widehat{Q}}^{0,0}_{1,2})\,. \end{aligned} \tag{6.122}$$

Let $G(b_1, b_2)$ stand for $Q(0, 0, b_1, b_2)$ and G_k has $b_k = 0$. Then we can write it all as

$$b_1 b_2 G = b_1 b_2 + t^2 a_1 a_2 (a_1 a_2 G - a_2 G_1 - a_1 G_2 + G_{1,2}) \tag{6.123}$$

or written as a linear combination

$$(b_1 b_2 - t^2 a_1^2 a_2^2) G + t^2 a_1 a_2^2 G_1 + t^2 a_1^2 a_2 G_2 - t^2 a_1 a_2 G_{1,2} = b_1 b_2 \,. \tag{6.124}$$

We can divide by $a_1 a_2$ and obtain the equation

$$(c_1 c_2 - a_1 a_2 t^2) G + a_2 t^2 G_1 + a_1 t^2 G_2 - t^2 G_{1,2} = c_1 c_2 \,, \tag{6.125}$$

from which we can read off

$$f(a_1, a_2, t) = c_1 c_2 - a_1 a_2 t^2 \tag{6.126}$$

and

$$G = \frac{(c_1 c_2 - t^2 (a_2 G_1 + a_1 G_2 - G_{1,2})}{f(a_1, a_2, t)} \tag{6.127}$$

where $B(fG) = c_1 c_2$. Also, we can solve for Q_k^j and other terms, in terms of various $[b_k^l]$ extractions, so overall, it should lead to a relationship of the form $B(FQ) = 0$.

6.4.3 The Full Model

We skip right to the final model - the one with all the possible small step. Here we have the most complicated functions. Here

$$\frac{\alpha(K_2^* - K_2)}{K_1} = \frac{\alpha(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(1 + t)}{S_1^1 K_1} \,, \tag{6.128}$$

$$\frac{\Delta_2(K_2^* K_{12})}{K_1} = \frac{c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(c_1(1 + t) - t\overline{\sigma}_1 S_1^1)}{S_1^1 (c_1 - t\overline{\sigma}_1 S_1^1)} \tag{6.129}$$

$$= \frac{c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2))}{S_1^1} \left(1 - \frac{t}{c_1 - t\overline{\sigma}_1 S_1^1}\right) \,. \tag{6.130}$$

We will need to do some more work to find a representation for that last fraction. For that we need the σ_1 root, which is

$$\begin{aligned}\sigma_1 &= \frac{(1-tS_1^0) - \sqrt{(1-tS_1^0)^2 - 4t^2(S_1^1)^2}}{2tS_1^1} \\ &= \frac{u - \sqrt{u^2-4w^2}}{2w}\end{aligned} \tag{6.131}$$

$$\overline{\sigma}_1 = \frac{u + \sqrt{u^2-4w^2}}{2w}\,. \tag{6.132}$$

Then we have

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{t}{c_1 - \overline{\sigma}_1 w} &= \frac{2t}{2c_1 - u - \sqrt{u^2-4w^2)}} \\ &= \frac{2t(2c_1 - u + \sqrt{u^2-4w^2})}{(2c_1-u)^2 - (u^2-4w^2)} \\ &= \frac{t(2c_1 - u + \sqrt{u^2-4w^2})}{2(c_1^2 - c_1 u + w^2)}\end{aligned} \tag{6.133}$$

Let $v = \overline{x}_2 + x_2$. Then the denominator has

$$\begin{aligned}c_1^2 - c_1 u + w^2 &= c_1^2 - c_1(1-tS_1^0) + t^2(S_1^1)^2 \\ &= \overline{a}_1^2 b_1 - \overline{a}_1 b_1 v t + (1+v)^2 t^2\end{aligned} \tag{6.134}$$

and the numerator has

$$\begin{aligned}u^2 - 4w^2 &= (1-tv)^2 - 4t^2(1+v)^2 \\ &= 1 - 2tv - (3v+2)(v+2)t^2 \\ &= (1-(3v+2)t)(1+(v+2)t)\,.\end{aligned} \tag{6.135}$$

Thus, the square root has the expansion

$$\sqrt{u^2-4w^2} = 1 - vt - 2(1+v)^2 t^2 - 2v(1+v)^2 t^3 + \cdots \tag{6.136}$$

We can give a series representation of the square root via the series

$$\sqrt{1-z} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(2n)!}{(1-2n)(n!)^2 4^n} z^n\,. \tag{6.137}$$

That is,

$$\begin{aligned}
&\sqrt{(1+(v+2)t)(1-(3v+2)t)} \\
&= \left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n(2n)!(v+2)^n t^n}{(1-2n)(n!)^2 4^n}\right)\left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(2n)!(3v+2)^n t^n}{(1-2n)(n!)^2 4^n}\right) \\
&= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{t^n}{4^n} \sum_{k=0}^{n} \frac{(-1)^k (2k)!(2n-2k)!}{(1-2k)(1-2n+2k)k!^2(n-k)!^2}(v+2)^k(3v+2)^{n-k}\,,
\end{aligned} \tag{6.138}$$

However, we are not sure if a closed form exists for these coefficients. If we want to extract x_2 coefficients from this expression, we would not have an easy time (?). Now, K_2 and K_2^* have $1+v$ in their denominators, so we can multiply the whole functional equation by $1+v$ to clear out these denominator. We have

$$(1+v)K_2 = c_2(1+v) - \overline{x}_2(1+t) = (c_2 - 1 - t)\overline{x}_2 + c_2 + c_2 x_2\,, \tag{6.139}$$

$$(1+v)K_2^* = c_2(1+v) - x_2(1+t) = c_2\overline{x}_2 + c_2 + (c_2 - 1 - t)x_2\,, \tag{6.140}$$

and

$$(1+v)\frac{\alpha(K_2^* - K_2)}{K_1} = \frac{\alpha(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)(1+t)}{K_1} = \alpha g(a_1, x_2, t)\,, \tag{6.141}$$

$$(1+v)\frac{\Delta_2(K_2^* K_{12})}{K_1} = c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)\left(1 - t\frac{c_1 - 1 + tv + \sqrt{(1+(v+2)t)(1-(3v+2)t)}}{c_1^2 - c_1 + c_1 tv + (1+v)^2 t^2}\right)\,, \tag{6.142}$$

and let the latter be $c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)f(a_1, x_2, t)$. Then if we let $A = c_2 - (1+t)$, we can write the funtional equation as

$$(c_2\overline{x}_2 + c_2 + Ax_2)Q_1^0(x_2) - (A\overline{x}_2 + c_2 + c_2 x_2)Q_1^0(\overline{x}_2) = c_2(\overline{x}_2 - x_2)f - \alpha g\,. \tag{6.143}$$

As before, we extract the $[x_2]$ coefficient from both sides to find that

$$c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,2} + c_2 Q_{1,2}^{0,1} - (1+t)Q_{1,2}^{0,0} = -\alpha g_2^1 + c_2(f_2^2 - f_2^0)Q_{1,2}^{0,0}\,, \tag{6.144}$$

and then set $a_2 = 1$ on both sides to find that

$$-(1+t)\breve{Q}_{1,2}^{0,0} = -\overline{a}_1 g_2^1\,. \tag{6.145}$$

When we finally substitute this quantity back into the equation, we can simplify it to

$$b_2(Q^{0,2}_{1,2} + Q^{0,1}_{1,2}) = (b_2(f^2_2 - f^0_2) - a_2(1+t))Q^{0,0}_{1,2} - (1+t)\breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2}\,. \tag{6.146}$$

The question is can we find the quantity $f^2_2 - f^0_2$? It appears that

$$-(f^2_2 - f^0_2) = 1 + a_1 t + \frac{a_1^2}{b_1}(a_1^2 - a_1 - 4)t^3 + \frac{4a_1^2}{b_1^2}(a_1^3 - 3a_1^2 + 1)t^4 + \cdots\,. \tag{6.147}$$

Unfortunately we have not been able to go further with this case. One could try making some assumptions for the form of equations like these for $Q^{m,n}_{1,2}$, $\breve{Q}^{m,n}_{1,2}$ and $\widehat{Q}^{m,n}_{1,2}$, but even then it is not clear if we can find a relation between $Q^{0,0}_{1,2}$, $\breve{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2}$, $\widehat{Q}^{0,0}_{1,2}$ and $\widetilde{\breve{Q}}^{0,0}_{1,2}$. We would have 6 equations like the one above plus 6 more where $b_i = 0$ for the b_i not present. Then one may use the 4 regular coefficient extractions from the master functional equation for $Q^{m,n}_{1,2}$ and $m, n \leqslant 1$ plus 12 more where we set one or more of b_1, b_2 to zero. This brings us to a grand total of 28 equations in 36 unknown variables, of which we need to eliminate 32. It is not entirely clear if we may do that.

Chapter 7

Epilogue

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